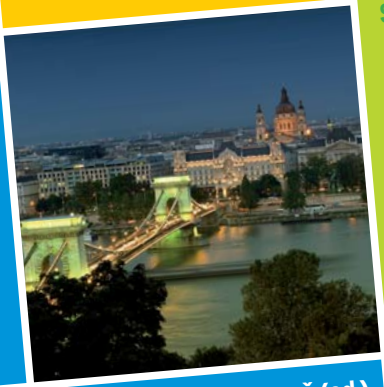

Summer University Almanac

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Vladimír Benč (ed.)

Prešov,
October 2013

Visegrad Fund

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GLOBALIZATION AND SYSTEM APPROACH

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SYSTEM APPROACH

The beginnings of the system analysis go back to times when researchers became aware of limitations of a *reductionist* way of thinking, deeply rooted from Cartesian times and the development of empirical research of physical process during Enlightment[1].

Cartesius in his *"Discourse on Method"* states that one of stages towards discovering truth is to "*divide each examined phenomenon into as many components as possible required for finding the best solution*" [Cartesius, ed. 2002 pp. 17][2]. The consequence of the accepted method was derivation of the totality in relation to its components as well as linearity of phenomena and sequence of cognizance implying division of a problem into components and then its "recomposition".

Systems sciences were developed relatively recently, in the second half of the 20th century. Until then, particularly during heyday of modern sciences in 18th and 19th centuries *reductionist* streams dominated. Predominant concept applied in science was to investigate phenomena in eliminating conditions, separating phenomena from their environment. The goal of this approach was to find a "*simple*" description of the investigated phenomenon, most frequently by using a model or a mathematical formula. It was not earlier than in the 20th century that a concept arose according to which complicated phenomena and complex objects cannot be analyzed partially and reduced to simple (partial) chains of cause and effect.

A natural scientist *Ludwig von Bertalamffy* is widely considered as father of a new approach in sciences. According to him, all kinds of phenomena should be investigated as mutually interacting systems not only inside them but also in relation to their environment. Together with an economist *Kenneth Boulding* they founded (1954) a scientific society named *Society for General Systems Theory* (later renamed into *Society for General Systems Research*) [Stephanou 1982][3]. According to those researchers the general goal of systems research is to create theoretical concepts and tools for interdisciplinary research. Interest in systems research re-

1 One can point out at other previous accomplishments i.e. Leibniz et al., development of modern science though makes for a clearer understanding of system research.
2 Cartesius, *Discourse on Method* Wyd. Zielona Sowa, Kraków 2002, p.17
3 *The System Approach to Societal Problems*, eds: S. Stephanou, Danies Spencer Pub. Malibu

sulted in large part from a development of analysis and interdisciplinary studies started during World War II aiming at finding solutions to military problems.

Numerous works originating from different sciences have contributed to the concept of system approach. They may constitute strong inspiration for the development of this theory in modern research. Among most important works one can enumerate: social science (*E. Durkheim*), psychology (*K. Levin*), linguistics (*N. Chomsky*), anthropology (*C. Levi-Strauss*). The crucial research however was carried out in cybernetics, systems theory and philosophy of science (*Norbert Wiener, Ernest Nagel, Herbert A. Simon, Arthur Koestler*)

Table 1: The paradigms of Systems Thinking

PARADIGM CHARACTERISTIC	MECHANISTIC	ORGANIC	DYNAMIC
Theoretical origins	Newton, classical physics	Von Bertalanffy's General Systems Theory	Chaos and complexity research, self-organizing and autopoietic systems
Research focus	Principles, laws, regularities, predictions	Feedback processes, relationships and interactions with environment	Spontaneous organization, continuous self-production and self-induced change
Operative interest	Predicting, controlling, preserving	Steering, sustaining	Opening up for natural evolvement, evolution and innovation
System			
Type	Closed, static, deterministic	Open, equifinal	Uncontrollable, emerging, self-organizing, self-producing
Main function	Efficient rule-like functioning, linear	Self-regulation, striving for stability and equilibrium, linear or cyclic	Continuous self-renewal and self-production, non-linear
State	Static, permanent, sustaining	Near equilibrium	Far-from equilibrium
Environment			
Role	Non-existent	Causal chain of events that effects the system	Created by the system's self-reference
Boundary	Closed	Open	Open and/or closed
Relationship	Systems as self-contained wholes	Adaptation to environment; open interchange with environment, inputs and outputs explained by feedback loops, interdependence	System must maintain a distinct identity and be self-productive; Systemic capacity for change is greater than environment's capacity for change
Change			
Role	Catastrophe	Momentary disturbance	Necessity

Source	No change	Environment, adaptation to environment	Entropy, fluctuations, continuous process of self-production
Pace	Slow	Moderate, continuous	Sudden, bifurcative
Means of knowledge creation	Exploitation of existing knowledge	Information from environment is processed internally into knowledge	Self-referential interpretation of data from environment / within the system, iteration of weak signals

Source: Ståhle, P., Ståhle, S., Pöyhönen. A. 2003: Analyzing Organization's Dynamic Intellectual Capital. A System-based theory and application. Acta Univeritatis Lappeenrantaensis 152. Lappeenranta

System analysis is an example of coming back to a holistic vision of the world, a concept known already in the Antiquity[4]. At present it has became more visibly present in many research concepts[5]. Particularly one element of reality which is economy requires a holistic approach taking into account its complexity and impossibility to methodologically reduce its phenomena.

The system approach based on a postulate of Society for General Systems Research is one of the most distinctive features of development of sciences concerned with organization and management in the second half of the 20th century. The integrative importance of the system approach is based on a postulate of a complex approach towards objects treated as open systems, that is interacting with the environment. Simultaneously, aiming at integration of various concepts through fighting interdisciplinary obstacles as well as using analogies and similarities to construct models [Pachura 2002][6] can be observed.

SYSTEM STRUCTURE

The system analysis may allow to attempt description of the structure. Relations between elements of a structure can be described in the following ways: the whole dominates, roles of elements are secondary; integration constitutes a condition of mutual connections of components into the whole; parts set in order in the above-mentioned manner constitute an inseparable entity and if one part is altered the remaining ones are altered as well; the role of a part is seen in the context of a goal that the whole is trying to achieve; the position of a part results from the nature of its function; the whole as a defined system or complex reacts in a similar way as its parts; any action should start from the whole, which constitutes rationale, while parts and relations between them should result from those solutions. Investigation of a process may take a form of extraction of its elements as well as definition of relations between those elements and with the environment.

4 Aristotle and a maxim attributed to him "a whole is more than the sum of its parts"

5 its sign may be a growth in interdisciplinary research

6 Pachura P., *Elements of the systemic approach in the reconversion process*, in: Technical aspects of industrial reconversion, Virton 2002: eds: Nowicka-Skowron M., Lescroart R.

A formal representation of the system can take the following form [Krzyzanowski 1999, Pachura 2002][7] : $S = S_i, R_i, R_{ij}$, where $S_i = \{a_{i1}, a_{i2}, \ldots a_{in}\}$, denotes a set of elements, i.e. a subset of the system; $R_i = \{r_{il}, r_{i2}, \ldots r_{in}\}$ denotes a set of internal relations taking place in the set; $S_i R_{ij} \{r_{ij0}, r_{ij2}, \ldots r_{ijn}\}$ denotes external relations between $S_i S_j$ elements, where S_j is a set of elements which do not belong to the system.

Another way of representing the system may be the one proposed by Mario Bunge[8] where the system is described by "*four dimensions*": a set of parts C(s), set of objects which do not belong to the system but interact with its elements E(s), structure of the system S(s), understood as static and dynamic relations between elements, as well as objects which do not belong to the system and M(s) denoting processes occurring inside the system and regulating its functioning:

s = <C(s), E(s), S(s), M(s)>, [Bunge 2003]

According to the author, System Theory and system research can be counted among most explored theories in the contemporary science, including social and socio-economic sciences. It seems that such concepts as c*atastrophe theory, chaos theory, synergetic theory* or fractal theory will constitute a strong inspiration for research in contemporary global world.

The main common element of these theories is that according to them, systems are non-linear and unstable complexes.

GLOBALIZATION AND SYSTEMS

Some authors (Stonehouse, Hamill, Campbell, Purdie, Yip)[9] ,[10] tend to connect the beginning of theoretical discussion, research and practical interest in the phenomenon of economic globalization with a paper written in 1983 by T. Lewitt, The Globalization of Markets. Although problems dealt with in Lewitt's article touched mainly marketing and market issues in a context of standardization of consumers' likings they constituted a beginning for larger interest in the field of broadly understood economic globalization, particularly in American and Japanese scientific and business milieus. In consequence, it is commonly taken for granted that the era of globalization and phenomena connected with it are associated with the beginning of 90's of the 20th century. While associating with this period "the birth" of globalization some point at geopolitical events such as the fall of the communist block next to economic events such as globalization of markets, sectors and IT technologies development.

7 Krzyżanowski L. *O podstawach kierowania organizacjami inaczej, paradygmaty, modele, filozofia, metodologia, dylematy, trendy.*, Wyd. Naukowe PWN, Warszawa, 1999

8 Bunge M., *Emergence and Convergence. Qualitative Novelty and the Unity of Knowledge*, University of Toronto Press, 2003.

9 Yip George, *Total Global Strategy*, 2nd edition, Prentice Hall, 2002

10 Stonehouse, Hamill, Campbell, Purdie, *Global and Transnational Business.* Strategy and Management, John Wiley and Sons 2000

It is more and more common though to see globalization as a process possessing a broader historical perspective (Wallerstein, Stiglitz)[11] which started in fact together with the expansion of the Western civilization and the beginning of colonial period. Some (Chase-Dunn & Hall, Wallerstein)[12] propose to see the globalization phenomenon in a perspective of two periods: first starting from 1450 to modern times and second from 1945 to present. The latter, from the end of World War II to present times, can be classified according to Kondratiev's theory of cycles, in which rising phase (A-phase) lasted from 1945 until 1967/1973 and the second phase (B-phase) started after the first came to an end, and lasted until present times. The period from 1450 may be analyzed on the basis of interpretation of classic economic cycles embracing growth, development and periodical crises of capitalist economy.

Some example of system approach to globalization is World System theory by Immanuel Wallerstein. In his works he investigated developing African countries, his main interests concerned social and economic changes that took place in these countries. His World System theory was also inspired by "dependency theory" [Chirot, Hall 1982][13] and historical determinism present in neo-marxism.

Wallerstein's World System is defined as a social system possessing its own borders, structures, rules, legitimization of authority and internal coherence Furthermore, World System is defined as "multicultural territorial division of labor in which production and goods exchange is necessary for its citizens" [Wallerstein, 1974, p. 347]. The division of labor is treated as a global category. This leads to the appearance of two independent regions of the world: core and periphery. There exists also a category of semi-periphery, countries constituting borders of two regions in which mixed characteristics of both areas can be observed. In consequence, the main subject of research of the World System theory are relations of dependence between those regions. A differentiating category is above all technology – countries technologically developed and dominant in this respect constitute core, others are counted into periphery and semi-periphery.

Treating technology as a factor of global advantage in the world system implies far-reaching consequences. It results in a sort of technological determinism based on the fact that new technologies and innovations became most desired elements of today's world. From the social point of view technology and innovations become a form of economic expansion and stay in a large part out of "social control", "society does not determine technological innovations, it simply uses them" [Castells 2001][14].

In the process of globalization and shaping of the World System the most important role is attributed to activities of transnational corporations (TNCs). Numerous authors conclude that relations in today's world are parallel to those with nation-state pointing at TNCs' domination over state organization [Leslie Sklaire 1995, 2001; William Robins 2003; Phillip McMichael 2000][15] and marginalization of state

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11 Stiglitz Joseph, *Globalization and its Discontents*, 2002

12 Chase-Dunn, C., , *Global Formation*. Oxford: Blackwell 1989

13 Chirot Daniel and Thomas D. Hall, 1982, World System theory. Annual Review of sociology. Vol. 8 pp 81-106

14 Castells M., 2001, p. 5, *The Rise of the Network Society*, Blackwell, Oxford, 2001

15 Robinson William 2003, The debate on Globalization: The Transnational Capitalist Class and the

institutions. Functioning of TNCs is based on activities carried out over national borders and in a large scale, without control from those states. A certain part of research on TNCs is carried out in the direction of analysis of the network aspect in functioning of corporations. Such research was carried out among others by Jeffrey Kentor [Kentor 2005 pp 1962-1998] and Christopher Ross [Ross 1994]. The Urban System and Networks of Corporate Control, CT, JAI Press].

Ross carried out his investigations in the USA by analyzing city systems in the context of functioning of corporations. He referred above all to location of corporations' headquarters and their subsidiaries in American cities. He concluded that corporations through placing their subsidiaries in other cities than their headquarters gain a certain level of influence on the economy of the city where a subsidiary is installed. Ross investigated industrial enterprises thinking that such enterprises have bigger impact on local labor market, level of investments, energy consumption and relations with the natural environment. The result of this research was creation of an urban system hierarchy and definition of relations between headquarters and subsidiaries as headquarters-subsidiary networks.

Evolution of influence and role played in today's world by TNCs can be pictured on an example of branches and subsidiaries development. In 1692, 100 biggest industrial corporations possessed 1288 branches abroad. In 1998, 100 biggest industrial corporations possessed almost 10 000 branches in foreign countries [Kentor 2005]. This example illustrates how important it is to see globalization in the network context. Simultaneously, revenues of 500 biggest corporations constituted 15% of the world's GDP to achieve 28% in 1998 [Kentor 2001].

While analyzing the World System phenomenon there appears one element that may draw one's attention. It is called Scientific World System. This system more and more often takes a networking form. This trend is clearly visible in EU's policy supporting scientific research (Framework Programs). One of specific characteristics of networks is a nonuniform distribution of knowledge (especially technical) and financial resources supporting scientific research. This is a crucial conclusion because it may be referred to network dependencies in the core – periphery setting.

Globalization of scientific research leads to the appearance of the following phenomena: promotion of wide institutional agreements and investigation of areas "politically" defined as important. In the 20th century there was a visible trend to transfer main scientific centers and research networks from Western Europe to the USA. Scientific milieu is not an egalitarian one and researchers differ as to their skills, possibilities of carrying out research, level of financial support and, what is very important, as to possibilities of exchange of knowledge, thoughts and ideas.

Research centers with a proper atmosphere favoring scientific research tend to attract new scientists, thus becoming more and more powerful in knowledge and research potential, they become scientific centers. "The term center refers to a sector of society in

Transnational State. In New Theoretical Directions for the 21st century World System, edited by Wilma Dunaway, Westport, Greenwood Press
McMichael Phillip 2000, Development and Social Change. Thousand Oaks, CA, Pine Forge Press
Sklair Leslie, 1995, Sociology of the Global System Second Edition. Baltimore, Johns Hopkins University Press

which certain activities which have special significance or function are relatively more highly concentrated or more practiced…" [Shils Edward 1988 pp. 251-252].

It can be taken for granted that the center of science until 17th century was located in Italy, then moved to Britain, France and Germany and finally in the 20th century to the USA. 20th century relocation of centers of science can be pictured by geographical location of Nobel Prize winners in chemistry, physics and medicine. This indicator is not perfect though since according to T. Schott [Schott 1998] in the beginning the Swedish Academy of Science tended to favor Scandinavian countries.

Table 2: Research for the Nobel Award

PLACE OF RESEARCH	Period of research					
	1869	1900	1918	1934	1946	1970
United States of America	3	12	23	35	62	55
Canada	0	2	2	0	2	3
Germany	36	22	29	6	4	17
Rest of Western Europe	57	64	38	47	27	26
Australia, NZ, Israel	0	0	0	0	0	0
Eastern Europe	3	0	5	8	1	0
Eastern Asia	0	0	0	3	1	0
Rest of Asia	0	0	2	0	0	0
Latin America	0	0	1	1	1	
Africa	0	0	0	0	0	0
Contributions	30	42	49	30	85	26
Researchers	36	48	70	53	172	54

Source: Wasson, T. (ed.). 1987. Nobel Prize Winners New York: H. W. Wilson

The above Table 2 presents a visible phenomenon of transfer of the center of science from Western Europe to the USA. Simultaneously, a growth of importance of the USA can be observed from 1920 i.e. 10 years before a period of migration of German scientists of Jewish origin to the USA (in connection with Hitler's coming to power).

CONCLUSION

In the reality of globalization and network economy and society, system approach can be use for explain the complexity of the contemporary time. System approach can be the tool for scientific research and study of networking attributes:

- a shift in capitalist economies from an industrial to an informational base;
- the organization of economic activity globally on the network model;
- reorientation of the temporal and spatial organization of human activity in response to technologies that enable real-time communication across vast distance;
- distribution of power based on access to networks and control over flows;
- escalating productivity of technology sectors and technology intensive industries;

- increased technological mediation of commercial and financial activity;
- restructuring of work and employment in response to the imperatives/possibilities of information technology;
- growing "digital divides" between those who are positioned to take advantage of network technology and those are not.

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GEOPOLITICAL POSITION OF THE V4 AND UKRAINE (SELECTED PROBLEMS)

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DEFINITION OF CENTRAL EUROPE IN THE CONTEXT OF RELATION OF UKRAINE

According to one definition, Central Europe is vaguely defined political and historical concept, that refers to the space between the territory of Eastern and Western Europe. It turns out, that rather than geographically, Central Europe is characterized by a shared history and cultural differences with the surrounding region. Many of historians, geographers, poets, writers and journalists as well have paid attention on the issue of Central Europe in the past 150 years. The result of this extensive discussion is that there does not exist a single line of discussions about Central Europe.

To summarize the various concepts can be allocated following approaches:

1. Central Europe is seen as a buffer zone between German and Russian aspirations of power. This understanding was promoted especially in the second half of the 19th century and the first half of the 20th century.
2. Central Europe as an area of cultural and political heritage of the Habsburg Empire. Thus understood, Central Europe is characterized by political conservatism in terms of its differences from the liberal Western Europe. This concept, however, has been central Europe considered part of Western Europe, it was also politically and even culturally distant to Eastern civilization. From this point of view Central Europe has created the historical-cultural concept, including Austria today, part of the Western Balkans (especially Slovenia and Croatia), Poland, Northern Italy, Czech Republic, Slovakia, Hungary and part of Romania (Transylvania).
3. Central Europe is divided into “Middle Eastern Europe”, which occupied several countries from Finland to Greece and “Midwest Europe”, which correspond to the heritage of the German and Habsburg empires. This concept is promoted mainly by Polish thinker Oskar Halecki in 50th the last century.
4. Central Europe as “kidnapped” part of Western Europe. The “kidnappers” was the Soviet Union. This political concept dominated during the Cold War.

5. Central Europe, understood as a set of post-communist EU member states. They are united by their common communist heritage. This concept stresses the special responsibility for the development of these countries to the east of the EU's borders. This political concept was frequently associated since 2004 with the countries of the Visegrad Group (V4).

Geopolitical concept of Central Europe was already known in the 19th century. Geopolitical importance of this term acquired in the second half of the 19th century in connection with the centrist and power goals of Germany, which are reflected in the project "Mitteleuropa", which we mention later. Geopolitical context of the concept of Central Europe has preserved until the end of World War II.

During the Cold War, the term Central Europe almost disappeared from the geopolitical division. At the forefront are then given bipolar perception of Europe into East and West. To the geopolitical concept of Central Europe in the 80th the last century, Polish, Hungarian, the Czech and Slovak authors - dissidents, returned. Focus on the reasons for unsuitability of belonging to the peoples of Central Europe "East", hence the Soviet bloc.

After the collapse of the Soviet bloc, Central Europe has interpreted as "periphery of the West". In this context, the most presented slogan "Back to Europe!" This interpretation followed a Czech writer Milan Kundera, under which the Central Europe as part of the West forty years under the unnatural control of the East, causing its total backlog as a peripherals for its natural centre - defined as Western Europe (west of the "iron Curtain").

Therefore, the main slogan of the new political leaders of the Visegrad Group to become their involvement in political and economic structures of the West. This objective has been the basis for a common policy of these countries in the last decade of the 20th century. We can say that the emergence of this group in 1991 was the first concrete step towards its fulfilment.

Definition of Central Europe as a geopolitical region is rather complicated problem. Central Europe is a dynamic and ambiguous concept, whose content and spatial allocation has many versions and therefore has no generally accepted global definition. Over 150 annual debate on the definition and characteristics of the region is changing its definition, to which contributed significantly historic breakthroughs that changed the political map of the European continent.

It should be noted that the definition of Central Europe is not only geographical, but also has political, historical, cultural, ethnic and social aspects, which include characteristics and features that are typical for this region. They should be seen not only by its residents but also by other Europeans.

Therefore, several definitions of Central Europe based on such characteristics as distinct ethnic fragmentation of the population, a specific type of places that are developed, and the impact of German culture in the German colonization or distinctive Central European identity.

Discussion of central Europe also contributed sociologists and cultural studies. Some of them argue that Central Europe expresses its quirky culture and way of

life. One of these characters is in their opinion Catholicism, which is not reflected in this understanding exclusively to religious population of the region, but rather to its cultural style. Another feature is the Judaism, in which were dominated Ashkenazi culture. This was based on the use of the Yiddish language and life in the ghetto as it was in Eastern Europe. Central European Jews used as a mother tongue German (or as the language of wider communication) and as a second language dominated the majority of the nation. Jewish communities in large cities in 19th century and the first half of the 20th century were significant Middle European carrier (nobel). Thus, the difference between eastern and central Europe lies in the Central lifestyle influenced Catholic and Jewish culture. After World War II, however, the German and Jewish community have lost influence on character of Central Europe.

An interesting approach is found in the search for definitions of Central Europe to the East in the form of utilization of used construction style. Some authors point out that the border between Central and Eastern Europe is an extension of the Gothic style, respectively. Gothic art in general. In this case, in Central Europe include the Baltic Sea, the western part of Ukraine, including Lviv, Transylvania, Slovenia and Croatia.

For one of the criteria for exemption of Central Europe is used in the presence of exceptional identity of its inhabitants. It is a territorial identity, hence the intellectual ability of a person or human team to identify with a given place (territory) at the time. People can identify with several territorial communities in the framework of spatial hierarchy. In this sense is a Central European identity between the state (national) identity and European identity. It is emphasized that Central European identity is not created in an environment of nation states, but in an environment of political and cultural community of several nations that have lived side by side in this area.

If we go back to the geopolitical approach, then it is often central Europe represented as a transitional region between Western and Eastern Europe, as reflected in its own definition as the eastern edge of the West European and East European western edge. This part of Europe took on values, philosophical, cultural, religious and other elements from the West and from the East.

In the geopolitical thinking the problems of Central Europe developed in connection with the German concept of Mitteleuropa. It was about creating politically, economically, militarily and culturally integrated group led by Germany. Plans to create it peaked in the late 19th century and in the first two decades of the 20th century. Ideas about the definition of Mitteleuropa were different. According to many authors, Mitteleuropa, except Germany should include Austria-Hungary, Switzerland, the Balkans and Belgium, Netherlands and Luxembourg. According to some of the considerations also Italy, some parts of France, the Nordic countries and even Ukraine. Such ideas are consistent with the expansionist policy of Germany, which culminated in the First World War. Attempt to revive the concept of Mitteleuropa was also another world conflict unleashed by Germany. This concept was therefore synonymous with hegemonic German politics and the Second World War in this form is not used.

If we mention the geopolitical concepts related to Central Europe is necessary to mention briefly the plan of creating groupings of States, called “Intermarium”. This plan was elaborated by the Polish policy in the interwar period. It was a block of countries led by Poland, lying between Germany and the Soviet Union, which had become a “third force” and thus the strength to face these powers. This geopolitical approach was not successful. After 1989 there was an attempt on her recovery, when the Confederation of Independent Poland advocated the creation of a block of Central and Eastern Europe, which was to become a member of the Ukraine.

The issue of central Europe was still alive among the thinkers of other countries belonging to the region. E.g. Slovak politician Milan Hodža in his book The Federation of Central Europe (1942) writes about two axes that bound the area of Central Europe (the west line connecting Rotterdam - Marseille and on the east line of Gdańsk - Thessaloniki). Reflections on Central Europe developed a Hungarian historian and political scientist István Bibo.

During the Cold War geopolitical understood Central Europe ceased to exist after the division of the Iron Curtain. After 1989 there was a reconstruction efforts of that region in geopolitical thinking. It turned out, however, that several states considered in this division as part of the region (Germany, Austria and Switzerland) for forty years coalesced with the European West. These three countries were considered by some authors Midwest Europe.

In addition, it began to use the term Central and Eastern Europe, which includes Poland, Czech, Slovakia and Hungary, which are sometimes attached to it and the Baltic states, respectively. former socialist countries of South Eastern Europe.

Thus, if we analyse the definition of Central Europe in terms of state units, then we can faced more reviews to allocate its two areas:

- Central European «core», which is made up of states, stable inclusion majority of authors in this region (Poland, Czech, Slovakia and Hungary),
- and Central European «periphery», to which belong the countries, considered as a part of the region less frequently (Germany, Austria, Switzerland, Slovenia), or only sporadically (Romania, the Baltic States, respectively. Benelux countries).

If this breakdown «load» approach, using the identity of people, then we can conclude that the «core» is a Central European identity among people formed most, while the «periphery» is less developed.

Taking into account the definition of Central Europe «core» and «periphery», then Ukraine is not a geographic or in geopolitical terms, considered as a part of Central Europe. Despite the attractiveness of belonging to this region suggests the fact that some political forces in Ukraine are trying its establishment as the Central State. These ideas found support, especially in its western part, which is related to the famous Ukrainian cultural ambivalence. Nevertheless, we believe that the geopolitical specificities of State indicates its special position in the European area, which is beyond the central geopolitical characteristics.

In the works of Western political scientists, geopolitical position of Ukraine is

perceived differently. A well known concept of the American thinker Samuel Huntington, according to which the territory of Ukraine is concentrated dividing line of major civilizations - Western and Orthodox pool and along the Black Sea also Islamic civilization.

Z. Brzezinski presented at the Forum «Foreign Affairs» geo-strategy map of Eurasia, according to which Ukraine belongs to a united Europe, and therefore is not part of Russia›s sphere of influence. In this context, Brzezinski predicted that Ukraine between years 2005 and 2010 will become a state prepared to negotiate with the European Union and NATO, with the condition to the implementation of relevant internal reforms. Political and economic support for the newly formed states (mainly from the USA), which are members of the Commonwealth of Independent States, should be an integral part of policy involvement of Russia in the transcontinental cooperation. According to Brzezinski›s sovereign Ukraine is an important element of this policy.

In the internal political life of Ukraine›s ongoing struggle for geopolitical orientation state between two directions - west (focus on integration into European structures) and eastern (focus on Russia). The efforts of some Ukrainian political forces to present their country as part of Central Europe suggests that Ukraine became a member of the Central European Initiative.

In addition, the foreign policy of Ukraine plays its south orientation. If in the 90s of last century it was centre of gravity to strengthen cooperation with the Central and Western European countries and south direction did not play a significant role in the diplomatic activities of the newly established state, then the situation at the beginning of the 21st century changed.

This was caused by the fact that the Black Sea-Caspian region became an area of international rivalry of energy raw materials, which are obtained in the region. Conflicting interests of major powers - Russia, the U.S., the European Union and neighbouring countries also often make decisions about policies, which in this region promotes Ukraine. This situation complicates centralized and energy-intensive economy of Ukraine, which requires the consumption of cheap energy resources in a situation where its own stocks are unable to meet the growing consumption of hydrocarbons.

It draws Ukraine to take decisions activities directed at the diversification of energy resources and enhancing its potential importance as a State, through whose territory transit is implemented hydrocarbons supplied to the European Union market.

It follows that it is unnecessary to analyse the geopolitical position in Central Europe and Ukraine.

GEOPOLITICS OF CENTRAL EUROPE AND UKRAINE IN THE CONTEXT OF INTEGRATION PROCESSES.

In the context of the geopolitical aspects of the integration of Central Europe, it should be noted that the Visegrad Four is stable group of four states that are

inalienable part of the geopolitical region. This stability can be regarded as a priority of the group. The Visegrad Group stands out as one of the first cooperative structures in post-communist bloc after 1989. The first meeting of the representatives of Czechoslovakia, Poland and Hungary took place in spring 1990. Name of group proceedings summit in Visegrad, which was held in February 1991. Here was signed declaration on cooperation of the three countries towards integration into European structures. After 1993, i.e. after the split of Czechoslovakia cooperate in the framework of the Visegrad Four group of Central European countries.

Group underwent a period of deepening regional cooperation, which has to be seen in the form of the adoption of common documents and regular meetings, but also phases of stagnation. The weakness of the Visegrad group is the zero institutionalization. Suggestions Poland in 1992 to establish its Secretariat and Information Office were supported by three other states.

They promote the functioning of the Visegrad Group as free clusters without direct obligations. It should be stressed that this cooperation has allowed a group conversation Central European countries with the European Union and NATO. The result was an adoption all four countries in these important organizations.

Other groups that were based on the idea of Central European cooperation were eliminated on the basis of their geographical boundless. Such was the original Alpine-Adriatic group, founded in 1989, and was taking new members gradually transformed into the Central European Initiative (CEI), respectively – Central European Free Trade Association (CEFTA), which was founded in 1992 as an economic tool of the Visegrad Group. Both groups were gradually extended to other countries, which included the states lying outside the central European region.

The functioning of the Central European Initiative was weakened by conflicts in the Western Balkans (its members were former Yugoslavia). The effectiveness of the grouping CEFTA was hampered due to the development of stronger central European post-socialist economies (which in 2004 left the organization). They are clearly focused on the European Union and was thus weakened cooperation with less developed economies of the former Soviet bloc countries. Today, eight CEFTA Member States.

Past performance of the Visegrad group encounters several problems. One is the special position of Poland. This is related to its size, strategic importance and economic status (eg in the context of the importance of the agricultural sector). In addition, the position of this group undermine contradictions between states (e.g. between Hungary and Slovak). Yet policy of Visegrad Group achieved several successes, as evidenced by the common input of all four countries in the European Union in 2004.

It also shows that even after the EU accession of the Visegrad Group countries have several attributes and common interests, which still support the geopolitical concept of Central Europe, understood as a European “periphery”. These concerns arise from the implementation of common goals in the development of European integration.

It can be concluded that the understanding of Central Europe as a peripheral European region ceases to be current when they remove economic, social, cultural

and political differences between these countries and their western neighbours. In our view, however, comes to a long-lasting problem, which is related to the termination of the post-communist period in the form of withdrawal from the political culture inspired by the experience of the transitional stage of building democracy and market economy.

In addition, it should be noted the important role of clusters as Visegrad Group, which is a natural mediator of contacts of the European Union eastwards, respectively negotiations for its further expansion.

The geopolitical position of the Ukraine is more complicated by conflicts that are in various stages of solution. Especially after the collapse of the Soviet Union was escalating issues related to demarcation of Ukraine, which had the national character for more than seventy years.

What is manifested the most is dispute with Russia over the Crimean peninsula. This issue has been resolved after many years Negotiations 30 May 1997 when an agreement was signed with Russia on the division of the Black Sea Fleet (which will remain after the upgrade contracts in Ukraine until 2042) and the status of the port of Sevastopol. According to her, Russia recognized the Crimea as part of Ukraine. Spores are also some sections of the Ukrainian-Russian border and delimitation of the Azov Sea and Kerch Strait.

More controversial situation arose at the border with Moldova and Romania. In 1992 was signed an agreement on mutual inviolability of borders in Moldova. Was complicated disputes with Romania, which involved a failure to connect the northern Bukovina and Southern Bessarabia to Ukraine Jurisdictional Zmeinyj island, lying in the Black Sea. The situation was resolved interstate agreement, signed in 1997. On the Ukrainian-Romanian border to create the conditions for the emergence of Euro-regions (in 1998 Lower Danube Euroregion was established with the participation of Ukraine, Moldova and Romania).

According to Z. Brzezinski Ukraine is relatively new, but very important player on the Eurasian chessboard. According to him, its significance lies in its geopolitical position and its potential effects on the instability behaviour of geostrategic players operating in the area of Eurasia, especially in Russia. According to Brzezinski Ukraine may be the cause to transform Russia that loss of control over Ukraine ceases to be a Eurasian empire.

Ukraine's geostrategic position is affected by that directly borders with states that are members of the military and economic blocs, including:

- Member States of the European Union: Poland, Slovakia, Hungary and Romania;
- Allies: Poland, Slovakia, Hungary, Romania, and also through the pool Black Sea, Bulgaria and Turkey.

In the pan-European scale, Ukraine's geopolitical importance of its strategic position consist on the axis Paris - Berlin - Warsaw - Kiev and Russia - Balkan Peninsula.

Ukraine's position in terms of the current balance of power is influenced by geopolitical realities following:

- Ukraine ranks second in Europe in terms of area and the fifth in terms of population. The emergence of independent Ukraine meant one of the most important geopolitical transformations on the continent. All changes relating to Ukraine (including internal policy) have a significant impact on the political climate across Europe.
- Ukraine partly lies in "the grey sphere of security" that stretches from the Balkans through the south of the European part of the former Soviet Union after the South Caucasus.
- The most important neighbour Ukraine - Russian Federation - still sees Ukraine as a "near abroad", for its exclusive sphere of influence and tend to the crowding in the Asian direction.
- Ukraine occupies a key position in the pool Black Sea, which suggests its dominating role in regional institutions, such as GUAM and the Organisation for Economic Cooperation countries Black Sea Economic Cooperation (BSEC).

GUAM Organization was founded in 1997 at the meeting of the Council of Europe in Strasbourg. Here, the presidents of Georgia, Ukraine, Azerbaijan and Moldova have agreed to form a new Forum of post-Soviet space (transition in clusters involved and Uzbekistan). One of the targets was Russia's rejection of proposals in relation to deepening cooperation within the Commonwealth of Independent States. GUAM is a response to Russia's efforts to reintegrate the former Soviet Union, as reflected was the creation of the Union of Belarus and Russia. GUAM should act as a regional bloc between Russia and NATO with the leading role of Ukraine. Activity group was unleashed by the "colour revolutions" in former Soviet Union countries. Influence of Ukraine within the organisation after the change of government in 2010 weakened, although not develop direct activities in respect of death GUAM cooperation.

Potential of Ukraine creates conditions for its decisive influence on the stabilization of the Black Sea and the Caspian Sea and thus creating the conditions for access to energy resources, not from Russian deposits. Organisation for Economic Co-operation States Black Sea Economic Cooperation (BSEC) was established in 1992 on the initiative of Turkey. The Istanbul Declaration was signed establishing the region's 11 countries, including the Ukraine, Russia and Turkey (in 2004, membership was extended to 12). In addition, more than 10 countries have observer status. Within this group is a political and economic cooperation between States in favour of the consolidation of peace, security and stability in the region. For Ukraine, the most important issues in the BSEC energy, transport, trade and economic development, as well as banking and finance.

As part of its regional activities to Ukraine since 1996, involved in the project TRACECA (Transport Corridor Europe - Caucasus - Central Asia), which aims to restore traffic between mainland Europe and Asia.

In terms of the geopolitical position, Ukraine is a country that states within the periphery of centres of energy: Russia, Central Asia, the Middle East and the European Union. Ukraine could become a key transit state when it comes to transport Russian gas, as well as materials from the Caspian Sea region. In this context, it is

necessary from a global perspective into account the interests of Russia, the European Union and the U.S. in the region and also the role played in this framework the energy sector of Ukraine. Pool Caspian Sea is in addition to the huge deposits of oil and natural gas region at the same time very attractive as an object of interest to many countries and transnational corporations. This reinforces the geopolitical, respectively geo-economic role of Ukraine as a transit country.

In the case of a favourable international booming and also a suitable policy of the Ukrainian government would be geo-economic linkages of Central Asia and the Middle East with countries of the West through the transit system of Ukraine. Planned Ceyhan pipeline routes - Odessa - Brody-Plock, respectively Baku - Supsa - Odessa - Brody - Plock shape the such an alternative. Transit of raw materials from Ukraine's regions would receive the status of a major transit country for geo-economic state on the map of Europe.

In view of the key position to influence Ukraine are in the area interested powers. Much therefore depends on the activity of Ukrainian diplomacy and its ability to take into account the real geopolitical analysis of international relations in the region. There will be undoubtedly developments with influence processes on occurring in the vicinity of Ukraine, and the evolution of the international environment.

Another aspect that affects the direction of the southern Ukrainian politics is rivalry for dominance in the region, while there appears mainly to competition from Russia and Turkey. Ukraine's position was weaker (since the strategic partnership with Georgia after the political change in Ukraine in 2010 fell apart). The situation is complicated by the fact that the region is not created organizations that function effectively. (Such as GUAM and BSEC which are not even mentioned yet).

The geopolitical position of Ukraine in 21st century is defined primarily by its important position: as geo-economic and geo-strategic and, analysed at both the regional and global balance of power. In both contexts, it is necessary to emphasize an important position on the map Ukraine's transport directions of energy resources. Ukraine should manage to get the involvement of the West in terms of implementation of new lines of transportation of energy resources to the markets of the European Union, there would be a chance to reduce the lead Russia in the Black Sea and the Caspian region. The real challenge for Ukraine (but also for Central Europe) is to build a pipeline Nord Stream, which runs along the bottom of the Baltic Sea. This route reduces the importance of Ukraine as a transit country.

The development of the geopolitical position of Ukraine is highly dependent on access to the European Union and the Eastern European partners thus the change in relations between the European Union, Russia and neighbouring countries.

CONCLUSION

The fate of the Visegrad group is linked to the Central European region, for which are important three geo-historic characteristics:

1. Central Europe is constantly makeshift department, which is formed under the strong influence of the development of pan-European or global scale.
2. The emergence of most Central European states and their further development is sized events whose course could significantly affect their residents.
3. Central European area does not have sufficient own funds to stabilize the situation in the region.

Geopolitical dynamics of Central Europe, dominantly determined European respectively world powers, which meant the only object of their geostrategic interests.

The fate of Ukraine and „core“ countries of Central Europe was closer geopolitically linked only during the Cold War. Then these four countries according to the Conference at Yalta were within the sphere of influence of the Soviet Union and later became its satellites. After 1989 the situation changed fundamentally when the “core” of Central Europe gradually became a part of European and Atlantic structures. Ukraine (in the case of selfless political development) waiting for such an achievement, but is still a long way to go there.

DEVELOPMENT OF THE REGIONAL POLICY OF THE EUROPEAN UNION WITH THE EMPHASIS ON THE COMPARISON OF THE LISBON STRATEGY AND THE EUROPE 2020

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INTRODUCTION

The beginning of the regional policy is associated with the United Kingdom, where during the Great Depression in 1930's, the socio-economic disparities were deepened between regions with a high share of traditional industries; therefore, the State had to take some measures to mitigate the worsening situation in the regions (Wokoun, 2008, p. 24).

The development of the regional policy depended on the individual stages of building of a common market, from which it was expected that could ensure spontaneous elimination of regional disparities (Žítek, Klimková, 2008, p. 46). Foundations of the regional policy, as we know it today, were laid by signing so-called the Treaty of Rome in 1957 and by the subsequent signing of the Single European Act in 1987, which is considered one of the most important milestones in the development of the regional policy. From this period, the regional policy has begun to prepare for each programming period, for which budget packages are allocated and priority objectives and strategies are identified (Sloboda, 2012, p. 8).

Priority objectives and strategies of the individual programming periods are then evaluated by the success of their implementation. The Lisbon Strategy, as a strategy for a New Millennium, which was adopted in 2000, was evaluated. According to many authors, the strategy set very courageous and hardly refillable objectives, whose results were weaker than expected. Based on evaluation reports and feedbacks, a new strategy Europe 2020 was created, which is in many ways considered the successor of the failed Lisbon strategy.

FROM THE TREATY OF ROME TO THE SINGLE EUROPEAN ACT (1957-1987)

The beginning of the regional policy is dating back to 1957, when by the signature of so-called the Treaty of Rome, the European Economic Community and the European Atomic Energy Community were contractually established. Six founding Member States, in the preamble, refers to the need to strengthen the unity of their economies and to ensure their harmonious development by reducing the disparities existing between the various regions and by mitigating the backwardness of the least favoured regions (Sloboda, 2012, p. 8).

The treaty about the European Economic Community in its provisions laid the foundations of the European Investment Bank as well as funds that have become the main instruments of the regional policy (Čajka, Rýsová, Pešout, 2005, p. 91). As the first, the European Social Fund (ESF) was established in 1958. Later, in 1962, the European Agricultural Guidance and Guarantee Fund (EAGGF) and in 1975, the European Regional Development Fund (ERDF) were established (Sloboda, 2012, p. 8).

In 1987, the Single European Act entered into force, which is considered as one of the most important milestones in the development of the regional policy. Within this document, the part about the regional policy contained a separate section titled "*Economic and social cohesion*", whose article declares the effort that the Community will focus mainly on the reduction of regional disparities between regions and backwardness of the least favoured areas, what should contribute to the overall strengthening of its economic and social cohesion. To achieve these goals, the Community will use funds (ESF, AEGGF, ERDF) (Čajka, Rýsová, Pešout, 2005, p. 93).

From this period, the regional policy has begun to be preparing for individual programming periods, for which the budget packages are allocated and priority objectives and strategies are identified.

THE FIRST PROGRAMMING PERIOD (1988-1993)

The regional policy in this period responds to the accession of economically weaker countries into the EU. At the same time, structural problems occurred in advanced countries, where traditional industries began to lose competitiveness (Žítek, Klimková, 2008, p. 47).

At the European Council in Brussels in February 1988, it was decided about a fundamental change in the operation of the Solidarity Funds, today known as the Structural Funds (Sloboda, 2012, p. 8). For the programming period 1988-1993, 5 priority objectives were identified:

Objective 1: promoting the development and structural adjustment of regions whose development is lagging,
Objective 2: converting regions seriously affected by industrial decline,
Objective 3: combating long-term unemployment,

Objective 4: facilitating the occupational integration of young people,
Objective 5a: speeding up adjustment of agricultural structures,
Objective 5b: promoting the development of rural areas.

For the realization of these objectives, so-called Delors package, with the amount of 69 billion Euros, was approved (Regionálna politika- inforegio). Up to 64% of funding of the total budget went to meet Objective 1, in regions inhabited by 86.2 million residents (Sloboda, 2012, p. 8).

THE SECOND PROGRAMMING PERIOD (1994-1999)

In 1993, the *Maastricht Treaty* (the Treaty on European Union) entered into force that marked cohesion as one of the main objectives of the EU, together with the Economic and Monetary Union and the Single Market (Regionálna politika Európskej Únie, p.5).

Based on the Maastricht Treaty, the Cohesion Fund (CF), for the support of projects in the field of environment and transport in the less prosperous Member States of the EU and also the Financial Instrument for Fisheries Guidance (FIFG) and the Council of Regions, were established (Regionálna politika- inforegio). In 1997, the Amsterdam Treaty was adopted, which confirmed the importance of cohesion and stressed the need for cooperation in reducing unemployment (EU Regional Policy, 2002, p. 5).

As reported by Sloboda (2012, p. 10), compared to the first programming period, the second one did not produce significant changes in the objectives:

Objective 1: promoting the development and structural adjustment of regions whose development is lagging,
Objective 2: converting regions or parts of regions seriously affected by industrial decline,
Objective 3: combating long-term unemployment and facilitating the integration into working life of young people and persons exposed to exclusion from the labour market, promoting equal employment opportunities for men and women,
Objective 4: facilitating the adaptation of workers to industrial changes and to changes in production systems,
Objective 5a: support for rural development by accelerating the adjustment of agricultural structures in the framework of the reform of the common agricultural policy and promoting modernization and structural adjustment of the fisheries sector,
Objective 5b: support for rural development by promoting the development and structural adjustment of rural areas,
Objective 6: development and structural adjustment of regions with an extremely low population density (from 1st January 1995 following by the accession of Sweden and Finland into the EU).

For the second programming period, so-called Delors package II, with the amount of 168 billion Euros, was approved (Regionálna politika- inforegio). Up to 68% of funding of the total budget went to meet Objective 1, in regions inhabited by 97.7 million residents (Sloboda, 2012, p. 10).

THE THIRD PROGRAMMING PERIOD (2000-2006)

In March 1999 in Berlin, the European Council approved the changes in the regional policy applicable to third programming period 2000-2006. The Council adopted a document called Agenda 2000, which sought to indicate the direction of the EU in the new decade. The main reason for its development was the view of the EU enlargement by countries with the low economic level, which in comparison with the last enlargement show lower level of GDP per capita (Čajka, Rýsová, Pešout, 2005, p.97). In Agenda 2000, there was a reduction of six objectives to three (plus Cohesion Fund) and the number of initiatives from thirteen to five, one of which was new, called URBAN (Table 1).

In 2000, the Lisbon strategy was adopted, which identified priorities and objectives for next development, and which in 2001 at summit in Gothenburg was added by the formulation of the sustainable development (Žítek, Klímová, 2008, p. 49). The main objective of the Lisbon strategy was "*by 2010, become the EU the most competitive and dynamic knowledge-based economy in the world, capable of sustainable economic growth with more and better jobs and greater social cohesion*" (The European Union's Lisbon Strategy).

The Lisbon Strategy adopted specific objectives:

- By 2010, an overall employment rate of 70%,
- An employment rate for women of over 60%,
- An employment rate of 50% among older workers,
- Annual economic growth around 3%.

At the meeting of the European Council in Copenhagen in December 2002, conditions for admission of ten new Member States into the European Union, were agreed (so-called Copenhagen criteria). In May 2004, the biggest enlargement of the EU took place. EU population increased by 20%, but GDP increased by only 5%. By the EU enlargement, disparities between countries and regions have significantly increased (Regionálna politika-inforegio).

For the new programming period 213 billion Euros were allocated for the current 15 countries and 22 billion Euros for 10 new member states and their programming period 2004-2006 (Regionálna politika- inforegio).

THE FOURTH PROGRAMMING PERIOD 2007-2013

In May 2006, an agreement on the budget for the new programming period was signed in amount of 347 billion Euros (Regionálna politika- inforegio). In August 2006, new regulations on the Structural Funds entered into force and in October, strategic guidelines of Community on cohesion were subsequently adopted and principles and priorities for the new period were set. In January 2007, Bulgaria and Romania acceded into the EU (Sloboda, 2012, p. 14).

Compared with the previous programming period, several changes occurred, both in terms of numbers of objectives, initiatives and financial instruments (Table. 1).

For this programming period were adopted three objectives:

Objective 1: *Convergence*, which was developed by unification of Objective 1 and Cohesion Fund from the previous period (2000-2006),

Objective 2: *Regional competitiveness and employment*, which was developed by unification of Objectives 2 and 3 from the previous period (2000-2006),

Objective 3: *European territorial cooperation*, which was developed by transformation of INTERREG initiative (Table. 1).

Other initiatives URBAN and EQUAL II were integrated into the new objectives 1 and 2 and LEADER + initiative, together with the European Agricultural Guidance and Guarantee Fund (EAGGF) were replaced by the European Agricultural Fund for Rural Development (EAFRD) (Table 1).

In this programming period, there is a reduction in the number of financial instruments from 6 to 3 (Table. 1).

Table 1: Comparison of the programming periods 2000-2006 and 2007-2013

2000-2006		2007-2013	
Objectives	**Financial instruments**	**Objectives**	**Financial instruments**
Cohesion Fund	CF	Objective 1: Convergence	CF ERDF ESF
Objective 1: Regions lagging behind in development terms	ERDF ESF EAGGF FIFG		
Objective 2: Economic and social conversion zones	ERDF ESF	Objective 2: Regional competitiveness and employment	ERDF ESF
Objective 3: Training systems and employment policies	ESF		
INTERREG III - supports cross-border, transnational and regional cooperation	ERDF	Objective 3: European territorial cooperation	ERDF

<table>
<tr><td>URBAN II- supports cities and town agglomerations which are in crisis</td><td>ERDF</td><td colspan="2" rowspan="2">URBAN and EQUAL II initiatives were integrated into the new objective 1: convergence and objective 2: Regional competitiveness and employment</td></tr>
<tr><td>EQUAL- supports the development of new methods leading to the elimination of the causes of inequality and discrimination in the labour market</td><td>ASF</td></tr>
<tr><td>LEADER +- supports socio-economic actors in the country to find a new strategy for further development of the area</td><td>EAGGF- Guidance</td><td colspan="2" rowspan="2">LEADER + initiative, together with the European Agricultural Guidance and Guarantee Fund (EAGGF) were replaced by the European Agricultural Fund for Rural Development (EAFRD). The Financial Instrument for Fisheries Guidance (FIFG) becomes the European Fisheries Fund (EFF).
EAFRD and EFF have their own legal basis and are no longer involved in the cohesion policy.</td></tr>
<tr><td>Rural development and restructuring of the fishing sector beyond Objective 1</td><td>EAGGF- Guarantee FIFG</td></tr>
<tr><td>4 objectives
a 5 initiatives (9)</td><td>6 financial instruments</td><td>3 objectives</td><td>3 financial instruments</td></tr>
</table>

Source: European Union: Cohesion policy 2007-13, p. 10

From the budget with the amount of 347 billion Euros for the fourth programming period, 81.5% of the funding went to meet objective 1, in regions inhabited by 170 million residents (Sloboda, 2012, p. 14).

PREPARATION FOR THE FIFTH PROGRAMMING PERIOD 2014-2020

In March 2010, a new strategy Europe 2020 was adopted, about which the European Commission President, José Manuel Barroso said: "*Europe 2020 is the EU's growth strategy for the coming decade. In a changing world, we want the EU to become a smart, sustainable and inclusive economy. These three mutually reinforcing priorities should help the EU and the Member States deliver high levels of employment, productivity and social cohesion.*" (Europe 2020).

The priority of strategy Europe 2020 is delivering growth that is: **smart**, through more effective investments in education, research and innovation; **sustainable**, thanks to a decisive move towards a low-carbon economy; and **inclusive**, with a strong emphasis on job creation and poverty reduction (Europe 2020).

The strategy is focused on five ambitious objectives in the areas of employment, innovation, education, poverty reduction and climate and energy.

Objective 1: Employment: 75% of the 20-64 year-olds to be employed,
Objective 2: Innovation: 3% of the EU's GDP to be invested in R&D,

Objective 3: Climate change and sustainability: 20/20/20 greenhouse gas emissions 20% (or even 30%, if the conditions are right); 20% of energy from renewables; 20% increase in energy efficiency,

Objective 4: Education: Reducing the rates of early school leaving below 10% (population aged 18-24 years); at least 40% of 30-34 years-olds completing third level of education,

Objective 5: Fighting poverty: At least 20 million fewer people in or at risk of poverty and social exclusion.

For this programming period, the amount of 336 billion Euros for the EU 27 and 50 billion Euros for CEF-Connecting Europe Facility (Digital Agenda) were approved (Europe 2020).

FROM THE LISBON STRATEGY TO EUROPE 2020

During the last three programming periods 2000-2006, 2007-2013 and 2014-2020, mostly discussed were two strategies, namely: the Lisbon Strategy and the Europe 2020 strategy. According to most authors, the Lisbon strategy is considered a failure; therefore, subsequently discussions are lead about the new Europe 2020 strategy. In this part of the paper, we devote to the opinions of various authors on the Lisbon strategy, but also on what we can expect from the new Europe 2020 strategy.

If the Lisbon Strategy had ended in 2008, there certainly would be much place for optimism. According to statistical indicators in 2005-2007, implemented reforms helped raise GDP growth rate by 0.2%, create nearly 6.5 million new jobs, while the overall EU employment rate reached 64.6%, approaching the 70% Lisbon objective. By 2007, the new pension schemes implemented by many member states increased the employment rate of elderly workers to 42%, closing on the 50% Lisbon objective, while the female employment rate amounted to 57.2%, thereby almost reaching the 60% objective. In the field of public finances, on average the EU budget deficits was cut from 2.5% of GDP in 2005 to 1.1% in 2007, whereas the public debt decreased from 62.7% in 2005 to almost 60% in 2007 (Vergnaud, 2008 in Butković-Samardžija, 2010, p. 8).

However, most of these impressive results were thwarted by the financial crisis that hit hard in 2008 and 2009, which caused that Europe had come to a worse situation than in the 1930's. In 2009, the EU's GDP decreased by 4%. In the period from March 2008 to December 2009, unemployment increased by 7 million people, while industrial production decreased by 20%. Public finances were also greatly affected. The public deficit reached 7% of GDP and debt rose to 80% of GDP in 2011 (European Commission, 2010 in Butković-Samardžija, 2010, p. 8).

Despite initial successes in some areas, the original Lisbon strategy gradually evolved into a complex agenda with multiple objectives and activities, with an unclear division of responsibilities, and the results were weaker than expected (Butković-Samardžija, 2010, p. 6). In 2010, the European Commission published

an evaluation report, where the main causes of unsuccessful implementation of the Lisbon Strategy were identified: extensive enlargement of the EU from 15 to 27 countries and the impact of the financial crisis (Tokarski, 2011, p.82-83). Swedish Prime Minister Frederik Reinfeldt and Swedish Finance Minister Andres Borg in 2009 noted: "*Despite the progress has been made, we have to say that the Lisbon strategy, already with only one year, which remains in its assessment, was a failure.*" (Sloboda, 2012, p. 16). Treidler (2011, p. 20) is much more critical when, in answer to his question whether the Lisbon strategy was successful, replies, "No, it was distinctly negative."

The Europe 2020 strategy has evolved from three principle tasks, while the main ideas of the Lisbon Strategy have been met. Firstly, the EU has to continue with the Lisbon-type reforms. Secondly, Europe 2020 needs to develop new instruments of economic governance, which should bring more policy convergence and better overall results. These new governance instruments could prove to be essential in overcoming the effects of the economic crisis in Europe. Finally, Europe 2020 has to build its profile externally by demonstrating its relevance globally (Butković-Samardžija, 2010, p. 4).

The Europe 2020 strategy is based on three principles, which are transformed into 5 main priority objectives related to employment, research, education, climate change and poverty. The European Commission has supported these 5 objectives by presenting 7 flagship initiatives, which should become essential to meet the objectives as they develop specific tasks to be carried out at the European and national level. (Butković-Samardžija, 2010, p. 11-12).

Table 2: Comparison of major initiatives of regional policy by individual programming periods

Programming period	Name of initiative	Main characteristic
2000-2006	INTERREG III	promoting cross-border, transnational and regional cooperation
	URBAN II	promoting cities and town agglomerations which are in crisis
	EQUAL	promoting the development of new methods leading to the elimination of the causes of inequality and discrimination in the labour market
	LEADER	promoting socio-economic actors in the country to find a new strategy for further development of the area
2007-2013	INTERREG III was integrated into the objective 3: European territorial cooperation	
	URBAN and EQUAL II initiatives were integrated into the new objective 1: convergence and objective 2: Regional competitiveness and employment	
	LEADER + initiative, together with the European Agricultural Guidance and Guarantee Fund (EAGGF) were replaced by the European Agricultural Fund for Rural Development (EAFRD).	

2014-2020	Digital agenda for Europe	promoting digital technologies, including the Internet, for ensuring sustainable economic growth
	Innovation Union	Transforming ideas for new jobs, „green“ growth and social progress
	Youth on the move	Supporting the achievement of education, job, training and retraining and starting own business for young
	Resources efficient Europe	Supporting the shift towards a resource efficient low carbon economy to achieve sustainable growth
	An industrial policy for the globalisation era	Supporting growth and jobs by maintaining and supporting a strong, diversified and competitive industrial base in Europe offering well-paid jobs
	An agenda for new skills and jobs	Improving adaptability and security in the labour market (so-called flexicurity), providing qualifications to meet the needs of employers, improving job quality and conditions of their formation
	European platform against poverty	Encouraging greater focus on social issues in the AGS (Annual Growth Survey) of the European Commission

Sources: Rýsová, 2009, p. 89-122, Wokoun, 2008, p. 351-358, Čajka, Rýsová, Pešout 2005, p. 91-103, Europe 2020

In comparison with the programming period 2007-2013, when all the initiatives of the previous period 2000-2006 were integrated into individual objectives, the Europe 2020 strategy differs from the Lisbon strategy that places great emphasis on the introduction of new initiatives that are intended to meet the objectives (Table 2).

The Europe 2020 differs from the Lisbon strategy mainly in that it will not be the only single action planning document, as was the case with the Lisbon Strategy, which was adopted twice to three-year periods: 2005-2007 and 2008-2010. For the Europe 2020 actions made at the EU level are conducted through flagship initiatives which will be under the auspices of the Directorate-Generals (DGs) of the Commission (Koczor, 2011, p. 90).

In contrast with the Lisbon strategy, the Europe 2020 repealed a „one size fits all“ approach and individual objectives divided into differentiated and measurable national objectives. The Commission argues that each country will be able to customize the Europe 2020 strategy to own situation. (Butković-Samardžija, 2010, p. 12).

Another difference is the evaluation of achieving the objectives of the strategy. For example, the European Commission assessed competitiveness, as one of the main objectives of the Lisbon strategy, by using 14 key indicators, and as Treidler (2011, p. 4) states only half of them were quantitatively measurable, what indicated wrong definition of objectives. However, as Vilpišauskas states (2011, p. 20), for the Europe 2020, the European Commission has proposed such objectives that are measurable and can be transformed into national objectives.

Given transformation of the main objectives of the Europe 2020 into national objectives have already taken place in the Slovak Republic and is shown in Table 3.

Table 3: The main objectives of the Europe 2020 strategy transformed into national objectives of the Slovak Republic

The main objectives of the Europe 2020	The current situation in Slovakia	The national objective for 2020 in National Reform Programme
3% of the EU's GDP to be invested in R&D	0,63 % (2010)	1 %
greenhouse gas emissions 20% (or even 30%, if the conditions are right) compared with 1990 state	– 2 % (emissions planned for 2020 compared with 2005) + 0 % (emissions in 2010 compared with 2005)	+ 13 % (binding national objective for sectors outside the EU Emission Trading System (EU ETS) compared with 2005
20% of energy from renewables (reducing energy consumption by 368 Mtoe- monitoring the objective of improving energy efficiency by 20% in harmonized format will follow after the introduction of guideline of the energy efficiency in April 2013)	9,8 % (2010)	14 %
20% increase in energy efficiency	Not monitored	Decrease by 1,6 Mtoe
75% of the 20-64 year-olds to be employed	65,1 % (2011)	72 %
Reducing the rates of early school leaving below 10% (population aged 18-24 years)	5 % (2011)	6 %
at least 40% of 30-34 years-olds completing third level of education	23,4 % (2011)	40 %
At least 20 million fewer people in or at risk of poverty and social exclusion	+ 1 000 (2011)	– 170 000

Source: Europe 2020. A European strategy for smart, sustainable and inclusive growth, pp. 3-4; Stanovisko útvarov Komisie k príprave dohody o partnerstve a programov na Slovensku na obdobie rokov 2014-2020, pp. 5-6

To achieve the desired impact on growth is necessary that the individual effort of all countries is coordinated and targeted. Therefore, the European Commission, in comparison with the Lisbon strategy for the Europe 2020 introduced a six-month cycle of the economic policy coordination, which is called the European Semester. Each year, the Commission will make a detailed analysis of Member States' programs and give them individual recommendations for the next 12 to 18 months (Europe 2020).

Based on the above mentioned differences between the Lisbon Strategy and the Europe 2020 strategy, it would appear that in the formulation of the new Europe 2020 strategy there have been significant changes. However, as Vilpišauskas states (2011, p. 27) despite the official EU rhetoric and calls for a "*fundamental shift*" in thinking of transformation of the Lisbon strategy, just number of objectives, priorities and indicators was modified and the processes of monitoring and control were arranged (using the European Semester). This process, as the author states, in the literature is indicated as instrumental learning. Although the Europe 2020 represents the elements of instrumental learning, which could be attributed to changes in the environment as well as previous experience, there is little basis which claims that the main elements of the strategy, its objectives and core values have been changed based on the experience of the last decade (Vilpišauskas, 2011, p. 28). However, Egan (2009, in Vilpišauskas, 2011, p. 27.) confronts with the statement: "*Just because the policy change is not evident, does not mean that deliberation, learning and assessment did not take place.*" Treidler (2011, p. 20) thinks that the Europe 2020 did not learn from the mistakes of the Lisbon strategy, and it seems that it will repeat them.

Koczor thinks that the effectiveness of the implementation of the Europe 2020 strategy will depend largely on three levels of the strategy: the EU budget, the single market and external trade policy (Koczor, 2011, p. 89). Butković-Samardžija also add the threat of other economic crises (2010, p. 15) as well as the willingness of the Member States to enforce it as their own strategy (2010, p. 24).

CONCLUSION

The Single European Act from 1987 adopted a document entitled the Economic and social cohesion, whose main objective was to reduce the regional disparities between regions and the backwardness of the least favoured areas. Other objectives were added gradually based on the development of the situation in the Common Market during individual programming periods.

During each programming periods, not only did the objectives develop, but also individual financial instruments, initiatives and strategies. At the turn of the century, the Lisbon strategy was adopted, whose main objective was "*by 2010, become the EU the most competitive and dynamic knowledge-based economy in the world, capable of sustainable economic growth with more and better jobs and greater social cohesion.*" (The European Union's Lisbon Strategy).

According to many authors, the Lisbon Strategy was a failure. According to the evaluation of the European Commission, this failure was caused by the largest enlargement of the EU from 15 to 27 countries as well as the impact of the economic crisis.

In 2010, the new Europe 2020 strategy was adopted, which at first sight significantly differs from the previous Lisbon strategy. However, according to many

authors, just objectives, priorities and initiatives were modified and the Europe 2020 strategy did not learn from the mistakes of the Lisbon strategy, and it seems that it will repeat them.

To the extent to which the implementation of the Europe 2020 strategy will be successful, will depend on several factors such as: the single market, the EU budget, external trade policy, the threat of the economic crisis and the willingness of the Member States to enforce the strategy as their own.

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REVITALIZATION OF BROWNFIELDS IN V4 CITIES

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INTRODUCTION

Cities represent very dynamic entities that are influenced by many progresses of socioeconomic activities. The face, structure and functions of cities are never in the final stage of development, because they overcome changes and they reflect actual historical phase of cities' development. The current state and form of V4 cities is the result of pre-war development, the period of socialism and radical political, economic and social changes after 1989. The cities are at every moment of their development in transition. The development of the cities includes not only the development (built up) process, but there also exist degradation processes at the same time (Matlovič 2004). Our research object includes sites which are at the degradation stage - brownfields.

BROWNFIELDS DEFINITION IN V4 COUNTRIES

In common usage, brownfield refer to previously developed land (or real estate) in urban areas, usually derelict, not in current use or underused and may have real or perceived problem with contamination. In this case it is impossible to use such a real estate without revitalization process.

U.S. EPA (U. S. Environmental Protection Agency) presented a definition of brownfield which is nowadays most common definition all around the world. According to EPA (also found in Public Law 107-118) the term "brownfield site" means real property, the expansion, redevelopment or reuse of which may be complicated by the presence or potential presence of a hazardous substance, pollutant or contaminant (EPA 2011).

The issue of brownfields sites affects not only the U.S., but this phenomenon occurs in every industrialized country and the region. Brownfields are occurring also in Europe. At European Union level for a long time and there exist still no uniform and stable definition of brownfields, but definitions vary depending on the environmental policies of individual states (Szekeres, Rusko 2008). Significant inconsistency of definition is confirmed by fact that the term has various translations to national languages and has completely different meaning. However, the lonely translation could have a significant impact on the understanding of the concept of

different nationals. First major definition was developed for the needs of the European Commission group CLARINET (Contaminated Land Rehabilation Network for Environmental Technologie). The definition later in 2002 was improved by the group CABERNET (The Concerted Action on Brownfield and Economic Regeneration Network).

CABERNET defines brownfield as "sites that (CABERNET 2013):

- *have been affected by former uses of the site or surrounding land;*
- *are derelict or underused;*
- *are mainly in fully or partly developed urban areas;*
- *require intervention to bring them back to beneficial use; and*
- *may have real or perceived contamination problem.*

The definition adopted by CABERNET is considered to be an unofficial definition used in these European countries, which have not adopted their own definition of term brownfield.

As a significantly positive example of adopting concept of brownfields is **Czech Republic**. The Investment and Business Development Agency (CZECHINVEST) defines brownfields as land, building, sites which:

- are not effectively used, are neglected and are possibly contaminated;
- cannot be effectively used unless they undergo a process of regeneration;
- arise as the remnants of industrial, agricultural, residential, military or other activities.
- are an economic resource, business activity and opportunity that must be exploited;
- are historical landmarks and part of the country's national, cultural and architectural heritage, which should be conserved and maintained (CI 2013).

The definition of brownfield has not been united in **Slovak** conditions yet. The term and its definition adapts during the development of this issue in Slovakia to the current state of land use. While in the previous period, this term covers as an old, abandoned industrial zones and logistics centres with extensive storage facilities, which were in the administrative territory of the towns, the term brownfield progressively began indicate to unused and devastated commercial, office, residential and other (e. g. hospital) buildings and land in urban areas, agricultural objects in a landscape, as well as the areas and buildings previously used for military purposes. Nowadays to the group of brownfields in Slovakia belongs also neglected, degraded smaller parts of areas and buildings of even flourishing business companies, their untreated surrounding land belonging to the municipality or other owners, neighbourhood of gas stations and parking lots and unsightly, neglected public areas on housing estates. In strategic documents adopted in Slovakia is working with the definition which is in accordance with the European assessment of that concept (Szekeres 2007).

Issue of brownfield in **Poland** is not united yet. There is no unified definition for the term of brownfield, but there can be distinguished several most popular terms which occur instead of this term: degraded area, city fallow, industrial fallow, and urban unused area.

Brownfields are in Hungary defined as unused or significantly underutilized areas (industrial-, farmyard-, railway-, left off military area or barracks, etc.) in poor physical and characteristically polluted state (EUGRIS 2013).

EMERGENCE OF BROWNFIELDS

From the historical perspective, the origin of brownfields can be dated back to the period of 1960s and 1970s 20th century, when the influence of massive deindustrialization processes on the one hand and weak process of tertiarization of urban economies on the other hand, began to uncover these areas in the United States and Great Britain. A similar process took place in almost all countries of Western Europe (Ferber et al. 2006).

Each country, period, but also the type of socio-economic activities, is affected by several major factors causing the emergence of brownfields, which took place at all levels (local, regional, national, supranational). In general, we can summarize the causes of brownfield origin in the following points (according to Jackson 2006 In Ferber 2006):

- massive de-industrialization vs. slow process of tertiarization;
- changes in the socio-economic structure: the transfer of labour from primary (agriculture, fishing, forestry) to the secondary sector (industry, construction) and now in particular to tertiary (trade, transport, services, public administration) or quaternary (banking, research and development, ICT) sector of the economy;
- restructuring of the state, the regions, but also in the industrial structure (mainly textile industry, but also mining - coal, power, steel, heavy machinery etc.)
- economic changes: the transition from planned economy to market economy, the reduction of state enterprise and development of private enterprise (entrepreneurship), transformation of ownership, privatization, changing of economic nature, the disappearance of economic activity (force or economic entities), the financial gap;
    - dynamic social changes;
    - policy changes;
    - technological progress (emphasis on pure forms of industry, higher demands for environmental protection) et.

REVITALIZATION OF BROWNFIELDS

Revitalization is a revival or improvement of neighbourhoods and regeneration of public spaces in order to improve the social and economic recovery and creat-

ing better social and social atmosphere (Beauregard and Holcomb 1981). It is also a gradual adaptation, reconstruction and spatial expansion (horizontal as well as vertical addition) of existing buildings, or replacing old buildings for new (substitution) (Matlovič 2001). Revitalization is affected by social-demographic processes (gentrification) and functional transformation.

In short, the process of regeneration includes: rehabilitation, defining project goals and preparation, demolition and sanitation, decontamination, restoration and landscaping/terrain works, new construction, infrastructure and services, construction of buildings and its maintenance (Ferber et al. 2006).

The evidence of actuality of the brownfield issue can be found in wide variety of programs, projects, organizations and initiatives which somehow deal with issues of brownfields revitalization at the level of European Union (e.g. WELCOME, CABERNET, PROSIDE, RESCUE, REVIT, COBRAMAN, SUBR:IM, SAFIRA II, DARTS, DESYRE, SYRIADE, Terrestrial Environment, EUGRIS, EURODEMO, HERACLES, INCORE, ISOIL, NICOLE, ModelPROBE, NORISC, Riskbase, SCAPE, SNOWMEN, PROMOTE, PURE ABC, REC or SoilCAM) (more Bartke et al. 2012).

In the case of brownfield revitalization reciprocal cooperation and interaction of various actors - stakeholders is necessary. To the stakeholders belong: owners of brownfield, involved institutions, involved groups, local level – local government, neighbouring cities, regional authorities, state institutions and all stakeholders. Regional cooperation and proactive policy of the state combined with the initiative in the field of urban planning at the local level are good preconditions for ensuring sustainable urban development, including regeneration of brownfields (Ferber et al. 2006).

The fact that we cannot absolutely and precisely define what is and what is not brownfields causes one of the barriers in communication and in planning of its revitalization.

BARRIERS OF BROWNFIELD REVITALIZATION

Potential investors, stakeholders but also professionals of public and private sector are discouraged to entry into brownfields revitalization project by series of barriers. Based on the analysis of multiple sources we distinguish (Jetmar 2008 In Wokoun, Malinovský et al.. 2008, MŽP CZ 2006, Ferber et al. 2006, Kirschner 2006, IURS 2012, Vaníček 2005, Szerekes, Rusko 2006, RRAJM 2005, Urbanita 2011, Jackson et al. 2004, Vráblik 2009):

Barriers of an economic nature:

- private investors in a dilemma;
- existence of financial gap - higher costs associated with the necessity of completion of demolition work, ecological sanitation, land consolidation and clarification of equity ties. High financial costs of regeneration, which can not be determined in advance;
- undeveloped indirect economic incentive instruments (e.g. form of tax incentives).

Market-based barriers:
- high degree of competitiveness of applicants in competition for direct investment;
- strong competition of greenfields (support from EU Structural Funds);
- underdeveloped property market;
- lack of investment incentives;
- broader market conditions.

Barriers of administrative nature:
- absent or inadequate evidence and gathering of problems, but also of existing area values;
- uncertain and complicated ownership relations;
- complicated and lengthy solution of administrative barriers;
- frequently appear building restrictions.

Barriers of political and legislative nature:
- lack of integration, leadership and strategy at the state level, legislative impact and any tools and policies;
- low levels of political commitment to brownfield reuse in all levels;
- absence of an overall brownfield strategy mainly in national level, but also in the lower levels;
- unspecific institutional responsibilities and inadequate institutional background.

„Abstract"barriers:
- inadequate understanding of the scope of the brownfield problem and of its financial and social implications in all levels;
- lack of knowledge, technical tools, experience, skill and technical know-how across the full range potential brownfield stakeholders;
- absence of coordination, motivation, cooperation and communication between the public and private sectors;
- absence of multidisciplinary and integrated approaches – inadequate knowledge-transfer among disciplines, institutions and departments within institutions.

BROWNFIELDS URBAN REVITALISATION IN V4 CITIES

In the context of an important industrial and mining tradition in Czech Republic is understood that there are situated a lot of brownfield sites which are not utilized. Area of brownfield land represents almost 10 400 ha which is 0, 14 % of whole area of Czech Republic (CzechInvest 2012). There exist a lot of best practises of already revitalized brownfields in many cities. To the most significant projects belong brownfield revitalizations in the biggest cities. In the capital city of Prague operate special fund that provides long-term loans for the restoration of historical buildings or redevelopment of brownfields (Jessica). In the second largest city of Brno is situated perhaps the best known revitalized

former brownfield – area of Vaňkovka. The former factory served as a machine workshop, including a foundry, a cupola, a diving steam engine, a boiler room and assembly shops excluding the manufacture of boilers. Today, from 2005, here is a shopping centre called "*Galerie Vaňkovka*" with 300 m long shopping arcade. Another successful brownfields projects includes Moravan, JMP Radlas, Meopta Hybešova, Mestská elektráreň Černovice, Pálavské námestie and Aeosculap Gajdošova.

In **Slovak Republic**, there are also a lot of brownfield areas, many of them could be found in Bratislava. One of the successful project is project of old brickworks in Devínska Nová Ves, where the investor built an industrial park mainly for the purpose of subcontractors of Volskwagen. Many of brownfields in Bratislava are in Slovakia "infamous" as despite to efforts to preserve the heritage (by city, citizens, association *Bratislava openly, Club of technical heritage protection* etc.) more treasures of technical heritage were demolished by investors. To these not saved buildings belongs for example: *Gumonka* (chemical factory, pressing Bakelite, making layered electroinsulting materials), *Kablovka* (manufacture of electrical material) or *Cvernovka* (spinning mill, yarn production). In Košice there are already revitalized buildings and areas belonging to the project of European Capital of Culture Košice 2013. From the group of former brownfields are almost revitalized former barracks of Captain Jaroš which will operate as "*Kulturpark*" - cultural facilities connected with environment and cultural and social centre. The second project is revitalization of former indoor swimming pool to the project "*Kunsthalle*" of modern arts and cultural centre.

It is estimated that now in **Poland** the area of brownfields reach more than 8 000 km^2 including (CABERNET 2003):

- areas of very high and high industrial degradation – more than 1 400 km^2
- areas of medium and low industrial degradation – almost 7 000 km^2
- areas under the potential hazard of industrial degradation – almost 39 500 km^2.

In Poland appears as the most significant project of revitalization of the former textile manufacture located in the city centre of Łódź. In 2006 there was opened "*Centrum Handlowe Manufaktura*" which is the largest shopping and entertainment centre in Poland and also belongs to the largest in whole Europe. Conversion of the former factory was realized with emphasis on maintaining of original atmosphere. So there is obvious domination of old post-industrial architecture which includes buildings of unplastered red brick. But interiors of the Manufaktura are completely renovated. The considerable amount of brownfield could be found in Upper Silesia coalfields.

In **Hungary** it could be found many brownfield areas in capital city of Budapest, where they make up 13 % of the area of Budapest (Gál eds. 2006). From the group of already revitalized brownfields is significant revitalization of airport in Debrecen, project RETINA in Csepel Works (metal and mechanic industry) etc.

CONCLUSION

Brownfields are sites that (CABERNET 2013) have been affected by former uses of the site or surrounding land; are derelict or underused; are mainly in fully or partly developed urban areas; require intervention to bring them back to beneficial use; and may have real or perceived contamination problem. There has not been any united definition yet. Solving the issue of brownfield is in national competence (definition, identification, inventarization, revitalization). It is important, but very difficult to revitalize them, because there lot of groups of barriers exists. To the most important barriers in V4 countries belongs lack of knowledge, technical tools, experience, skill and technical know-how across the full range potential brownfield stakeholders in private but also in public sector. One of significant barriers is also the lack of language skills which is required to knowledge access. It is because the largest amount of brownfield studies took place mainly in USA and in Western Europe.

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REGIONAL DEVELOPMENT AGENCIES (RDAS) AS IMPLEMENTING BODY OF INNOVATION POLICY IN POLAND

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INTRODUCTION

Local and regional development is exposed to constant change due to strategic decisions of different types taken by companies or national or international public authorities.

In such a context, regional development agencies (RDAs) are have an important mission to perform adjusting to innovation economy and constant change.

There are about 130 regional development agencies across EU countries. These organizations play a less or more significant role in implementing regional strategies, no matter of NUTS level they operate on.

The paper presents a case study of RDAs in Poland and one example of RDA in Czestochowa - one of about 60 regional and local agencies in Poland. It seems that this kind of business environment organizations played a key role in restructuring post socialist economy in Poland, especially after the country joined the European Union. These days, the RDAs in Poland have a significant impact on the innovation policy. It is worth to look at the practical example of RDA in Czestochowa and investigate its activities in order to justify operating in the future as an element of regional policy.

DEFINITION AND MODEL OF RDAS

A RDA is an operational structure that identifies sectoral or overall development problems, chooses a range of opportunities or methodologies for their solution and promotes projects which can maximize the solutions to the problems.

It should be stressed that the attempt to define a development agency at the European level is a very risky exercise and that R. Velasco in a document on the role of the regional development agencies in the promotion of the economic development of the Objective 1 regions, written „maybe the only common feature of all the regional development agencies is that their activities always relate to

the development of the endogenous potential of a geographic area, even if some of them, as additional activity, or even as their main operations, try and attract foreign investment. Another identifiable feature is the very wide meaning given by the agencies to the notion of development, and the growing importance of the social component given to this concept"[16].

In order to structure a European development agencies network, EURADA has based itself on the following definition: "Any organisation which carries out a mission of collective or overall interest for an area. In this regard, the development agency must have a significant association with a local or regional authority, as regards its management, financing or assignments. Furthermore, it must have a sufficiently large operating area, being less than a country however"[17].

Another definition pointed by EURADA might be "An autonomous structure which carries out a mission of collective interest for a specific geographical area and with a significant association of local and/or regional public and private authorities and organisations".[18]

We can observe lack of one European model of RDA and their existence and tasks depend on:

- ✓ regional/local authorities
- ✓ decentralization of the national administration
- ✓ ties and partnership on the local level
- ✓ financial factors
- ✓ political decisions

Generally, RDA can be defined as an organization which:

- ✓ is registered in accordance with the regulations of law and fulfills the public mission
- ✓ operates for the benefit of economic development of the specific region
- ✓ supports enterprises on the local and regional level
- ✓ possesses considerable ties with the local and regional authorities not only due to financing but also due to the pursued objectives
- ✓ operates within a specific geographical area

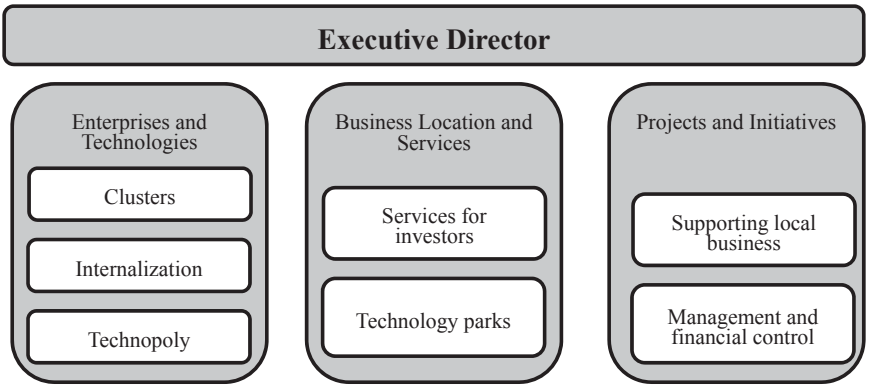
[16] Building Regional Innovation Systems: Is Endogenous Industrial Development Possible in the Global Economy?", A. Isaksen, Canadian Journal of Regional Science, XXIV:1, Springs 2001.

[17] Creation, development and management of RDAs", EURADA, 1999.

[18] ibidem.

Figure 1 presents an example of organizational structure of a typical RDA. As indicated the key fields of interest are focused on innovation. Because of technology parks and clusters, which are often managed by RDA, these organizations seem to play a significant role in implementing innovation policy.

Figure 1. Organizational structure of RDA



Source: own elaboration based on "Creation, development and management of RDAs", EURADA, 1999.

A wide range of services for enterprises are also offered by RDAs. The most common services supporting business development are as follows:

✓ business project counseling
✓ start-up counseling
✓ stimulating innovation
✓ coordinating science - business cooperation
✓ internationalization of SME
✓ providing seed capital
✓ incubator of entrepreneurship

There is considerable diversity of the level and kind of the services provided by RDAs. Some of them are more interested in innovation, while the others are much more oriented on stimulating new start-ups. One can say that revenues from the current activities do not provide enough self-financing of the RDAs. That's why achieving success is not possible without cooperation with the institutions on the local and regional level.

There are about 60 agencies of regional and local development in Poland. The impulse for their foundation were the economic changes of the 90s of the 20th century. The majority operate on the basis of the public funds, coming mainly from the EU (project implementers and implementing institutions – recruitment, evaluation, project accounts).Currently they remain an important element of the business environment system in Poland. For the SME sector they are important

because of the support in the form of: information and counseling, training, promotion and financing. Similarly to other EU countries, also in Poland the basic areas of their activity include: entrepreneurship, innovation, education, social economy, investment promotion. Most of the RDAs in Poland operate in the form of joint-stock companies, majority ownership of the local and regional authorities (the city, rural communities or the voivodeship).

INDUSTRIAL AND TECHNOLOGY PARKS

RDAs in Poland play a significant role in implementing innovation policy. Their role stems from the definition of regional innovation system. It is conceived as the most influential concept in the field of innovative environments, the regional innovation system is defined as a set of institutions, including clusters, universities, R&D centers, technology transfer organizations, financial and knowledge dissemination agencies, which work together and play the major role in influencing the innovative performance of companies. As one can see the key elements of innovation system include clusters and technology transfer organizations. In turn, the RDAs implement these types of activities. They manage technology parks and stimulate cluster initiatives.

The technology and industrial parks can be conceived as a network environment necessary for the regional development in the new member states of the EU. A development model in which government, industry and university or research institutes are all jointly involved in decisive policy direction is the most appropriate for the developing country.[19]

Industrial park is defined as the isolated set of the real estate which also consists of the property where there is the technical infrastructure remaining after the entrepreneur who has been restructured or liquidated. It is created on the basis of the civil-law agreement where one of the parties is the local government unit creating the possibility of running business activity to entrepreneurs, especially the small and medium ones.[20]

Technology park is a set of the isolated real estate along with the technical infrastructure created to transfer knowledge and technologies between scientific centers and enterprises where the entrepreneurs using modern technologies are offered the services in the area of enterprise counseling and development, technology transfer and transforming the results of scientific researches and development activities into technological innovations.[21] Moreover, these entrepreneurs are given the opportunity to use the real estate and the technical infrastructure.

Therefore the main difference between the two kinds of parks can be indicated.

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[19] Sanni M., Egbetokun A.A., Siyanbola W.O., "A model for the design and development of a Science and Technology Park in developing countries", International Journal of Management and Enterprise Development, Vol. 8, No 1, 2010.

[20] "Parki technologiczne jako instrument polityki wspierania innowacji i dyfuzji wiedzy", Instytut Badań Strukturalnych, Warszawa 2008.

[21] ibidem

In case of technology park the focus is shifted onto the implementation of scientific knowledge in business practice and the development of enterprises using modern technologies whereas the objective of the industrial park is, most of all, supporting restructuring processes, development of entrepreneurship and local labor markets.

There are about 66 industrial and technology parks operating in Poland at present, including 10 parks managed by RDAs. Parks development has been observed since mid 90ties and their most dynamic growth was a result of financing from the EU funds.

The parks in Poland constitute a very diverse group of institutions, both with respect to their profile and stage of development. Among them are both highly developed parks and those still in the inception phase. Analysis shows that some polish parks are technology-oriented (technology or science-technology parks), focused primarily on support to cooperation between science and business, while others are closer to the model of industrial parks and their main field of activity is to stimulate local economy by winning new investors and providing favourable conditions for enterprise development. Some parks combine the function of a technology park and an industrial park and fall in the continuum between the two typologies.

Polish parks have most often been brought into existence as a result of a joint initiative of different societies – scientists, businessmen and self-government representatives. Usually, a separate company is appointed to manage the park, whose shareholders represent particular parties. In several cases, parks are managed by RDAs, e.g. Czestochowa Industrial and Technology Park, which is shortly described in the paper.

A significant proportion of parks decided to concentrate on specific branches of business, within which park tenants are selected. The scope of specialization is however frequently quite broad which suggests parks secure themselves from narrowing their profile too much. What is more, business reality demands a certain amount of flexibility, therefore parks accept enterprises which operate within branches beyond the major field of park specialization as well.

The parks in Poland vary greatly in terms of their size, ranging from 0,8 hectares to 38 hectares. Further differences can be identified with respect to the infrastructure, which is to a large extent related to the stage of development at which a particular park currently is. Many parks are in fact empty areas where site services are being planned or undertaken. Other parks, meanwhile, have already had a large proportion of their areas covered by production plants, office and laboratory facilities. Depending on the organisational structure of a given park, the values of personnel-related indicators can be quite different. An average park employs 15 persons, but one should remember that in particular cases a park can have a developed HR structure including up to 72 employees. At the same time in some parks there are only a few people who take care of organisation matters related to the park, in parallel to other duties e.g. at the municipality or a regional development agency.

Parks are places where, on the one hand, big international companies can seek investment sites where they can locate their production plants and on the other

hand, small local enterprises can be launched within business incubators or technology incubators. Among the most frequently offered services by the parks are technology-related consulting, facilitating contacts between scientists and entrepreneurs or preparing application forms to EU framework programes or contests organized in Poland. Other services which are quite popular are: management-related consulting, assistance in applying for funds aimed at company development, training, hi-tech company incubation, assistance in establishing contacts with customers or marketing and promotion activities. Some park tenants are also offered conference rooms, workshops and laboratories.

Some services are offered at prices lower than market prices, which entails further problems which follow from the limitations related to state aid. At the current state of development, a few parks provide complex services directed at support of technology transfer process.

Generally, the parks in Poland have good knowledge of the sector of enterprises in a specific region. They also keep good relationships with the academic environment that make the knowledge transfer possible. The parks represent high potential and knowledge of support instruments which are addressed to the sector of enterprises in the region.

The key characteristics of the parks in Poland can be summarized as follows:

- They constitute the element of the regional system of innovation since they create the possibility of development of the local entrepreneurship and creating clusters essential for the economy based on knowledge.
- The basic objective is to stimulate growth in the local economy by supporting entrepreneurship, innovation and diffusion of technologies between the entities functioning there.
- Parks are an instrument of using technical infrastructure remaining after the liquidated or restructured enterprises to support entrepreneurship and innovation development. In Poland it is particularly important due to restructuring of economy being in progress since the 90ties
- Parks stimulate and manage the flow of knowledge and technology between universities and companies.
- Parks facilitate the communication between companies and technicians.
- Parks provide environments that enhance a culture of innovation, creativity and quality.
- Parks focus on companies and research institutions as well as on people: the entrepreneurs and ‘knowledge workers’.
- Parks facilitate the creation of new businesses via incubation and spin-off mechanisms, and accelerate the growth of small and medium size companies.
- Parks work in a global network that gathers many thousands of innovative companies and research institutions throughout the world, facilitating the internationalisation of their resident companies.

RDA IN CZESTOCHOWA

Regional Development Agency in Czestochowa is a joint stock company, which main stockholder is Czestochowa City. Częstochowa is the 13th largest city in Poland and make a part of Silesia region - one of regions with highest population density rate in Europe.

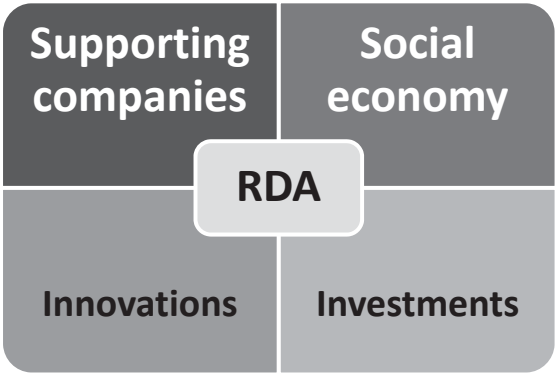
Table 1. Key factors on RDA in Czestochowa

Share capital	10.340.000 PLN
Asset value	35.740.052 PLN
Income value 2012	5.374.300 PLN
Value of the EU subsidies	56.992.367 PLN
Number of services for companies	4920
Number of the established companies	169
Number of employees	44
Technology transfers	5
Technological audits	146
Number of the EU projects	29

There are 4 basic area of interests of RDA in Czestochowa (Figure 2). In the innovation support area RDA offers proinnovative advisory services:

✓ Industrial and Technology Park
✓ Technology audits (In the past 3 years 40 audits were conducted in Poland)
✓ Marketing audits (In the past 3 years 30 audits were conducted in Poland)
✓ Assistance in the process of technology transfer
✓ (in the past 3 years 4 technology transfers)

Figure 2. RDA in Czestochowa areas of activity



The RDA in Czestochowa belongs to the National Network of Innovation (KSI). It has a database of technology offers, laboratories and requests for technology, which helps in establishing connection between research and development units with business. At present Industrial and Technological Park is just about opening

Centre of Technology Transfer (CTT) which will comprise of Energy Competence Centre and Incubator of Innovative Enterprises.

The following specialized services in innovation and technology transfer will be available at the CTT:

- analysis and expertise services;
- decision Support System Services (including performing analyses of non-technological kind, transfer barriers and implementing technologies in the field of environmental, economic, legal and institutional aspects, CBA - cost-benefit analysis and LCA - life-cycle analysis);
- services of performing development projects and industrial research;
- services of providing specialized professional trainings;
- services of space rental for innovative companies of SME sector;
- services of performing technological audit;
- services of coordinating transfer process and technology implementation.
- RDA in Czestochowa offers counselling services for people setting up a business as well as for existing enterprises. RDA provides consulting services in the following areas:
- starting your own business, including guidance in selecting the optimal legal form and type of taxation,
- preparing a business plan for the project,
- developing business development strategies,
- developing marketing plans, financial analysis,
- loans up to 250.000 PLN addressed for start-ups and developing companies,
- trainings for employees, e.g. CNC lathes, English courses, databases.

It is worth noting that RDA in Czestochowa also initiated the cluster Plastosfera - polymer processing cluster, which is the communication platform and the tool for negotiations for the environment connected with the industry. It is widely admitted that networking helps to improve the competitiveness of the region, that‘s why the cluster initiative has been recognized as an important factor of RDA‘s strategy.

The creation of local business networks is one of the best ways to improve the attractiveness of a territory, by stimulating the emergence and diffusion of innovation and excellence. Networking stimulates the innovation process by multiplying and facilitating both informal (verbal) and content-rich (non-verbal) interactions between innovators.[22]

The Plastosfera cluster is of an open kind, based on the actual needs of the enterprises – the cluster members. The cluster provides the exchange of experiences and competences among the entrepreneurs and extending current knowledge on the market, technologies, formal and legal requirements. The cooperation with

[22] “A Practical Guide to cluster development”, A Report to the Department of Trade and Industry and the English RDAs, Ecotech Research Consulting, DTI, London 2004.

Częstochowa University of Technology guarantees reducing risk and costs of the conducted researches and the growth in their credibility.

The cluster offers help in cooperation with banks, raising EU funds or the capital from investors. It also provides the opportunity of signing common, long-term contracts and obtaining orders, also the ones whose performance is not possible by a single business unit. Common ordering of raw materials guarantees more advantageous price quote and lowering costs of running a business activity. The cluster also provides signing more beneficial agreements with the suppliers and the performance of contracts in cooperation. The cluster is the source of new ideas and new patents.

It offers its members not only the help in implementation of new technologies and products but also educating the staff for modern economy (training and advisory services).

The cluster, while cooperating with subcontractors on more advantageous conditions, guarantees its members the offer which is cheaper and time beneficial. Common promotion of the enterprises – the participation in international trade fairs, commissioning marketing researches, access to legal or accounting help or the implementation of quality management systems – is more economical and less time-consuming in the cooperation with the cluster.

The goals of the Plastosfera cluster include:

- Creating the net of cooperation in the area of polymer processing, enabling effective combining and using the potential of the members;
- Creating the conditions ƒƒfor the effective commercialization of the results of R&D projects;
- Facilitating access to the sources of financing, applying for the EU funds;
- Achieving the synergy effect (combining and developing resources and competences in the area of plastics);
- Increasing productivity of the enterprises by means of attracting and accumulating new resources.

Besides business and innovation services, the RDA also operates in some other areas like education, social economy and investment promotion of the city. However, business support and innovation remain the most important areas of competence.

CONCLUSION

The projects and activities performed by now clearly show that RDAs constitute an important part of regional development policy in Poland. It is crucial for the RDAs to use recognised regional actors, like SMEs and local authorities. These actors must be involved in a significant number of short and long-term actions. RDAs must be able to find their own “market” - that is to create local synergies and local changes. They should be able to conquer the respect of the others, and this is only

possible by achieving concrete operational results. In Poland, the RDAs play a key role in developing new projects regarding implementation of innovation policy and supporting SMEs. It seems we still need them, but also the new environment conditions for RDAs must by created since it not any more the time of economy restructuring.

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INVESTMENT REGIMES AS AN INSTRUMENT OF PRIVATE AND FOREIGN DIRECT INVESTMENT STIMULATION IN UKRAINE

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Uncertainty of global economic prospects, "slackness" of international flows of goods and capital, negative trends in the field of global finance, national budgets crisis in leading world countries affect the economy of Ukraine, which is open to influences from the world markets. The possibilities of financing reforms became worse. The problem of contradictory tasks of stabilization and growth became an acute problem.

In 2012, the amount of the FDI into economy of Ukraine was 6,013 mln US $. It is less on 7,2% in comparison with the same indicator in 2011 (6,480 mln US $). In 2013, according to experts forecasts, FDI in Ukraine could be reduced to 4 mln US $ [18].

Unfavorable foreign economic conditions, including the pressure of European and Russian factors, hamper the economic growth in Ukraine. The productivity slowdown of the export-oriented industries is reflected in the development of the real sectors of the economy, including such as engineering industry [16, p.4].

A wide range of measures of stimulating investment and financial supporting for the development of the national economy, including in regions, was implemented during the years 2010-2012. These measures will ensure post-crisis recovery on a new qualitative basis that will be a background for further economic growth in the long term prospects. In particular, in 2012 modernization processes were initiated in basic industries such as coal mining, metallurgical and engineering industries.

The ensuring of equal protection of the rights, interests and property for investment entities is one of the main directions of creating favorable conditions for investment activities by the state.

The article is aimed to investigate whether operating investment regimes in Ukraine are able to overcome the decline of private and foreign direct investment and fully utilize existing investment potential of regions.

The aim determined the necessity to review the legislation of Ukraine concerning the usage of the investment potential of sectors and regions, for activation of social and economic development according to their features. It should be noted that the economic affectiveness analysis of implementation of adopted legislation

in this area is not a part of the objectives of this study.

It should be noted that the current legislation of Ukraine creates all possible conditions to ensure the equal protection of the rights, interests and property investment entities regardless of ownership, investments effectiveness, development of international economic cooperation and integration.

Thus, the Law of Ukraine "On Investment Activity" (Article 12-1) provides the following forms of the state aid for investment projects: financing, co-financing, credit, full or partial compensation of interest on loans from the state or local budgets, garanties from the state and local authorities to ensure debts obligations of entities, etc.[2].

According to this Law the selection of investment proposals and projects for the state aid is done on a competitive basis after the state registration of project (investment) proposals or investment projects and evaluating their cost-effectiveness.

Besides, the Law of Ukraine "On Stimulating Investment in Priority Sectors of the Economy for New Jobs Creation" came into force on 1 January 2013. It provides conditions for investment stimulating by concentration state resources on priority areas of the economic development for introduction of new energy technologies, jobs creation, regional development [1].

This law provides the state aid for investment in priority areas for entities that implement investment projects in priority sectors in the form if special taxation (income tax and import duty tax) in accordance with the Tax and Customs Codes of Ukraine.

The following income tax rates are used for those entities that implement investment projects:

- 0 % during the period from 01.01.2013 to 31.12.2017,
- 8% during the period from 01.01.2018 31.12.2022,
- 16 % from 01.01.2023 [11].

It should be noted that starting from 01.01.2013 the basic income tax rate is 19 % in Ukraine and staring from 01.01.2014 it will be 16 % [11].

Entities that implement investment projects in priority sectors during the period from 01.01.2013 to 31.12.2022 may provide a tax bill for customs authority. The tax bill may be issued for the equipment and components that is imported into the customs territory of Ukraine with exemption from import duty. Its amount should reflect a specified in the customs declaration VAT liability [12].

Until 01.01.2018 the exemption from the import duty tax for the equipment and components will be used in the case of their import into customs territory of Ukraine (the customs regime of import) by entities that implement investment project in priority sectors of the national economy. According to the Law of Ukraine "On Stimulating Investment in Priority Sectors of the Economy for New Jobs Creation" [1], proposals for granting a title "investment project in priority sectors of the economy" to the project maybe made by state regional administrations. The equipment and components should respond to the following conditions: they are not excisable goods, they have been produced not later than three years before

the date of state registration of the project, they have not been in use before, they are not produced in Ukraine and have no analogues in Ukraine.

In addition, the Tax Code provides favorable tax regime for entities that implement investment projects, aimed, in particular, at improving energy efficiency and energy conservation, production and usage of alternative fuel sources [11]. Besides, it determines a list of economic activities that are stimulated by fiscal instruments.

Until 01.01,2020 the following incomes are exempt from taxation :

- incomes of producers of biofuels from the sale of biofuels,
- incomes of entities from the simultaneous production of electricity and heat energy using biofuels and/or heat generation on biofuels,
- incomes of producers of equipment manufacturers set out in the Law of Ukraine "On Alternative Fuels" (Article 7) that are used for manufacturing/reconstruction of hardware and vehicles including self-propelled agricultural machines and power plants that consume biological fuels [5],
- income of entities from the extraction and usage of gas (methane) of coal deposits in accordance to the Law of Ukraine "On Gas (Methane) of Coal Deposits" [8].
- Starting from 01.01.2011 and on the period of 10 years, the exemption from income tax is used for the entities (from their basic activites) in:
- hotel sector ("five stars", "four star" and "three stars" categories of the hotel, including newly constructed, reconstructed hotels or restorated existing buildings),
- light industry (except companies that produced goods on commission raw materials),
- electricity sector (in the case of generating electricity exclusively from renewable energy sources),
- shipbuilding industry,
- aircraft industry,
- engineering industry (working for agriculture complex).

The Tax Code also established the favorable tax regime for entities of software industry, in particular: VAT exemption for the operation of software products during the period from 01.01.2013 to 01.01.2023, 5 % tax rate on incomes (starting from 01.01.2013)[11].

The Customs Code provides stimulating norms for foreign investment by the exemption from import duty tax, in particular for:

- goods (except goods for sale or usage for indirect purposes of doing business) that are imported into the customs territory of Ukraine for at least 3 years by foreign investors in accordance with the Law of Ukraine "On Foreign Investments" for the purpose of investing in accordance to registered contracts (the basic import duty tax should be paid in the case of the disposal of such goods earlier than three years from the time of their admission to the balance),

- goods (except goods for sale or use for purposes related to doing business not directly) that are imported in **Ukraine as** a foreign investor's contribution to the charter capital of enterprises with foreign investments [12]**.**

Also, the Customs Code improved a legal framework for the creation and operation of duty-free zones.

There are following types of duty-free zone in Ukraine:

- commercial (free storage of goods for unlimited period),
- service (free activities on repairing, modernization, construction of air, sea and river vessels and other crafts or their parts),
- industrial (producing/manufacturing goods within territories of the certain types of special (free) economic zones) [12].

Duty-free zone can be established within border crossing points at the state border of Ukraine, sea and river ports, airports, railway stations and territories of entities, as well as in other places where it is possible to provide a regime of duty-free zone in accordance with this Code.

The creation of duty-free zones of commercial and service types is determined by provisions of Chapter 15 of the Customs Code. The creation of duty-free zones of industrial type is done by special laws of Ukraine.

The Law of Ukraine "On Public and Private Partnership" defines the organizational and legal framework, principles, forms and spheres of interaction of public and private partners in Ukraine. Thus, this Law (Article 4) contains a list of areas for the partnership, including: exploration and mining of mineral resources; engineering industry; collection, purification and distribution of water; health care; tourism, recreation, culture and sport; waste processing; manufacturing, distribution and supply of electricity [9].

This Law (Article 18) determines ways of the state aid for the implementation of public and private partnerships, including:

- guarantees of the state, the Autonomous Republic of Crimea and local governments,
- funding from the state or local budgets and other sources in accordance with national and local programs;
- other forms of the state aid provided by law.

Also according to the Law of Ukraine "On Concessions":

- state, local governments take part in the partial financing of concessions of social significance,
- unprofitable and low-profit concession objects of great social importance may get benefits in concession fees (including those in the form of extension, postponement, total or partial exemption from payment of concession fees for a certain period, as well as subsidies, compensations and benefits) [4].

The stimulating provisions of the legislation opens the way to use fully the available investment potential of regions, according to their possibilities for intensification of social and economic development, attracting additional financial resources, creating jobs and increasing revenues to the budgets of all levels through the implementation of investment projects.

In order to stimulate the depressed areas development may be carried out such measures as:

- target public funding to the development of industrial, communications and social infrastructure,
- state aid, including financial, for promotion a small business infrastructure development, such as business centers, business incubators, innovation and consulting centers, venture capital funds and so on.

The Law of Ukraine "On the Promotion of Regional Development" determines that the promotion of regional development, particularly, is carried out by the programme-based approach for solving problems of social and economic development, creating favorable investment environment in regions, concentration of financial resources (from the State Budget of Ukraine and local budgets and others) on a competitive basis to achieve the most effective their usage [7].

The Budget Code of Ukraine (Article 24-1) determines a creation of a State Fund for Regional Development as part of the general budget fund in order to finance:

- measures for implementation the state target programs and investment programs (projects) in particular for regional development;
- programs and activitues for social and economic development, including programs of activities of administrative units (including small towns, mountain settlements, settlements of surveillance areas etc) [10].

At the same time, the Law of Ukraine "On the State Target Programmes" defines legal principles of state target programmes to facilitate the implementation of the state policy in the priority areas of the state, some sectors and administrative units; to concentrate financial, material and technical and another resources of industrial, scientific and technological capacities; and coordinate central and local executive bodies, enterprises, institutions and organizations [6].

In June 2012 , the Parliament of Ukraine adopted the Law of Ukraine "On Industrial Parks". It provides incentives for the creation and operation of industrial parks that can be formed on the lands of the state, municipal and private property [13].

In accordance to this Law, the land of industrial park can be located inside or outside of the locality. Its area must be less than 700 ha.

The law stipulates the business activities that may be carried out within the industrial park. The business activities are the following: manufacturing, media and telecommunications, as well as research and development.

In addition, this Law provides an exemption from the equity participation in the development of local infrastructure for initiators, management companies and members of the industrial park.

Besides, the Customs Code established the exemption from import taxation on:
- equipment and its components, materials that are not produced in Ukraine and are not taxed goods in the case of their import by the initiators and the management companies for the construction of industrial parks,
- equipment and its components that are not produced in Ukraine and are not taxed goods by in the case if their import by participants of industrial parks for further economic activity within the industrial park [12].

The Law of Ukraine "On the Preparation and Implementation of Investment Projects on the Principle of "One Window"" also simplifies business for investors in the regions. It is an initial step to create "One Window" registration system for enterprises engaged in investment project.

CONCLUSION

The analysis shows that the legislation of Ukraine provides the state aid for investment in priority areas and for entities that implement investment projects in priority sectors (special rates of income tax and import duty tax in accordance with the Tax and Customs Codes Ukraine). The complex of laws on public and private partnerships and regulatory liberalization in this area tallies with the priorities of economic development and is an important background for overcoming the crisis in the investment field.

According to the rating "Doing Business 2013", Ukraine became the most active country in the region and the third country among countries that have demonstrated a significant improvement in facilitation of business environment in their national economies. The above mentioned is a result of reforms in spheres of creation of enterprises, property registration and taxation in Ukraine. In general, Ukraine Ukraine has risen by 15 points and won 137 seats among 185 countries in the world (in 2012 - 152 seats) for favorable business environment. In terms of "creation of enterprises" Ukrainian's rating improved from 116 to 50 seats [15, p. 40].

The results of the Program of Economic Reforms (it was started in 2010) are reflected in the Global Competitiveness Index, which is calculated annually by experts of the World Economic Forum. According to the Index 2012/2013, Ukraine's position has risen by 9 points and ranked 73 among 144 countries in the world (according to Index 2011/2012 - 82 seats), and improvement was observed in 9 of the 12 index components [15, p. 47].

However, many issues remain unsolved. There is no real business climate warming in Ukraine and it is a main issue for now. Much of the money, registered in Ukraine as foreign investment, is actually funds of Ukrainian financial and industrial groups that are coming from offshore [19, p. 33]. There is also unfair

competition, monopolization of economic, pressure from regulatory authorities, corruption and inadequate justice which again used as an instrument of pressure on investors in Ukraine.

Thus, Ukraine ranked low ranks among 144 countries in following Indexes: "ownership rights" (134 seats), "Efficiency of legal framework in setting disputes" (141 seats) and "Protection of minority shareholders' interests" (141 seats), "Efficiency of legal frame for challenging regulations" (139 seats), "Burden of government regulation" (135 seats), "Irregular payments and bribes" (133 seats), "Effectiveness of unti-monopoly policy" (132 seats) and "Business impact of rules on FDI" (132 seats) [14, p.7].

The above mentioned proves about some correction of legislative acts for criteria of certain international rankings. However, their impact on the real and irreversible improve the business climate is not a crucial.

After a long-term of focusing policy of modernization on institutional changes and preparing legal framework of investment areas, state officials should focus on more drastic structural changes in the real sector, recorded in state-level policy document Letter of the President of Ukraine to the Verkhovna Rada [15 p.41].

Analysis of effective of adopted legislation concerning reducing the number and length of administrative procedures as an background and impetus for the business competition in foreign and domestic markets, intensification of investment and innovation and creation of new jobs, will be a subject for the next research.

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HOW MUCH DO BORDERS STILL MATTER IN REGIONAL INTEGRATIONS – THE CASE OF CENTRAL AND EASTERN EUROPE

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INTRODUCTION

Borders still have a determining role even in the 21st century's globalised world. Some of them separate countries in unusual ways. For example the border between Belgium and the Netherlands is so complicated that there are some houses and even restaurants that are bisected by it. Another strange example can be found in the northern edge of the African continent where a Spanish city is surrounded with a 3-meter high fence. This fence means the border between Spain and Morocco. One of the most bizarre borderlines is the border between

Russia and the USA in the Bering Strait. There are two islands 4 km from each other, Little Diomede belonging to the USA and Big Diomede belonging to Russia. The borderline which is also the international dateline runs between the islands. As a result, there is one day difference between the Diomedes.

BACKGROUND

Since the middle of the 1990s growing number of researchers have been interested in the negative impact of borders on bilateral trade. Investigations in this field began in the American continent. In a seminal paper McCallum (1995) proved with the help of a gravity model that in 1988 an average Canadian province traded with another Canadian province 22 times as much as with an American state. After that, Helliwell (1998) demostrated in his paper that the importance of US-Canadian border had reduced mainly thanks to the North American Free Trade Agreement which had enabled to remove the tariffs. As a result, the border effect between the two countries was 'only' 15 in the year 1996.

From the beginning of the 2000s researchers went deeper into the details and examined the border effect within the USA between the states. Wolf (2000) came into an interesting result.

He showed that an average American state traded within its state borders 3-4 times as much as with another American state considering the economic performances, the distances and some other factors. Head – Mayer (2002) using another specification of the gravity model pointed out that in 1997 4-6 fold border effect made the commodity trade flows more difficult within the United States. Consequently, border effect exists in regional economic integrations, as well even though there are no real borders.

After the turn of the millennium, the fact that countries excessively prefer national trade against international trade has been proved in the European Union, too. Nitsch (2000) for example examined a ten-year period in the 1980s and came into the conclusion that an average EU member country traded within its borders 11 times as much as with another member country. Head – Mayer (2000) demonstrated the development of the European integration with examining the evolution of border effect. According to the authors, the average border effect declined from 25 to 12 during the period 1976-1995. On the whole, it is ascertainable that the border effect of the EU countries is much higher than that of the US states. Pacchioli (2011) compared in his paper the efficiency of cross border trade in the EU and that in the USA. His results show that border effect between the EU countries is approximately 3 times bigger than that between the American states. A simply reason of it could be the 'age difference' between the two integrations.

REASONS OF BORDER EFFECT

The depth of international trade relationships depends on a lot of factors. There are some hard factors that are touchable or can be expressed by money, such as tariffs, quotas, transportation costs, exchange costs, insurance, etc. These measures obviously reduce international commodity flows. On the other hand there are some soft factors as well, that are invisible or untouchable even though they influence cross border business and trade relations. For example common historical past (such as due to colonization), common language and also the same currency contribute to closer trading relationships. Furthermore, member countries of a regional economic integration should trade much more with themselves, than countries without any integration.

It is not surprising that borders reduce trade between those countries, where governments use tariffs or other non tariff trade barriers in order to prevent the national producers or show their political power. In this case international trade is much more expensive than internal, that is, why companies favour national partners. However, the excessive preference of national trade can be observed in regional integrations (such as USA, or EU) as well. In spite of the removal of tariffs and a lot of other barriers, an average EU member country trade much more with 'itself' than with another EU member, because there remained some other crucial factors in the system (such as different languages, currencies and consumer tastes) that hinder the expansion of trade within the union.

METHODOLOGY

The size of border effect can be estimated by using a gravity equation. The border effect shows how many times more a country trade within its borders than with another country considering the countries' economic sizes, the geographic distances and some other important factors such as language, currency, common border, etc (Head-Mayer 2002).

To calculate the border effect I have used an augmented gravity model. This approach is the most commonly used one by researchers examining bilateral trade flows. The idea comes from the physics, from Newton's famous gravity theory. In 1962 Jan Tinbergen was the first, who said, that this idea could be useful in connection with bilateral trade as well. According to that, the bigger a country's economy is the more intensive trade is generated between this country and another one, and the smaller the distance between two countries is the bigger the trade volume should be between them. In other words, the bilateral trade volume positively depends on the economic size and negatively depends on the distance.

As numerous things influence international trade, the gravity model has been augmented with some other variables in the recent decades. Adjacency, currency, language, colonial past, integration membership and some other factors has been introduced into the models. The specification of my gravity model in case of the Central and Eastern European (CEE) countries looks like the following:

$$\ln X_{ij} = b0 + b1\ home + b2\ \ln Yi + b3\ \ln Yj + \beta 4\ adj_{ij} + \beta 5 curij + \beta 6 \ln D_{ij} + e_{ij}$$

Where:

- i and j are the countries. It could be only one of the 8 CEE countries (the Visegrad countries, the Baltic countries and Slovenia), however j could be anyone of the 27 EU member countries.
- Xij denotes the bilateral commodity trade flows
- Yi and Yj are the GDPs of country i and country j,
- Dijmeans the distance between country i and country j,
- adjij is a dummy variable. It gets one if the two countries are adjacent and zero-otherwise,
- curij is a currency dummy, it gets one if both countries use the Euro,
- home is another dummy, it gets one if the trade flows take place within the national borders and zero otherwise,
- eij represents the white noise error term.

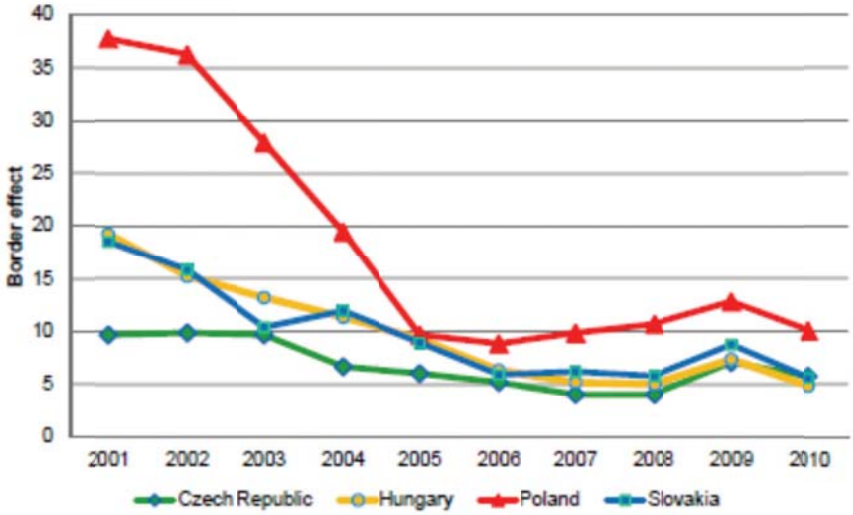
The key variable is the home dummy, because its parameter gives the magnitude of the border effect, that is, it shows the size of the excessive preference of internal trade against international trade.

RESULTS

In my investigation I have concentrated on the Central and Eastern European countries (the 8 post communist countries, that joined the EU in 2004), because nobody has done such a research in this topic in connection with these countries so far. The main purpose was to observe the evolution of border effect and draw some conclusions from it, that is, why I have collected the requiring data from the period of 2001-2010 from the Eurostat database.

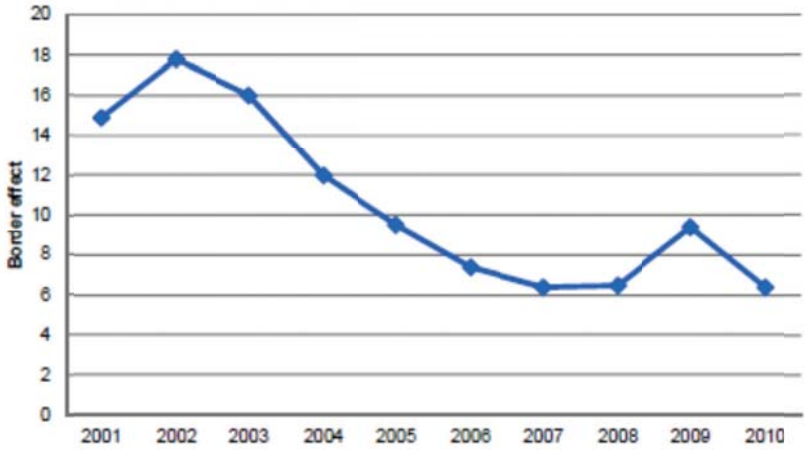
On the one hand I ran the regression with all countries, thus I got average border effects in the region each year. A decreasing trend is observable, which means that the CEE countries have been integrating gradually deeper and deeper in the EU, at least in terms of trade. There are only two years when the border effect increased: 2002 mainly due to the so called dotcom crisis and 2009 due to the current financial and economic crisis.

Chart 1: Evolution of the average border effect in the 8 CEE countries



On the other hand I have investigated the border effect in each country. The decreasing trend is nicely visible in any of the four Visegrad countries. The Polish border effect which felt from 37 to 10 shows the biggest development. However, you can follow the gradually deepening integration in the other three countries as well. In 2001 the Czech Republic was the most integrated one, when the country traded with 'itself' 10 times as much as with another EU member country. However, in 2010 the Czech Republic, Slovakia and Hungary had almost the same value, so the trade of these three countries seemed to be the most integrated ones in the EU among the CEE countries. The border effects of them were about 5-6.

Chart 2: Evolution of the average border effect in the V4 countries



CONCLUSION

In average CEE country still prefer national trade too much against international trade (trade with another EU country). However the development of the countries and their business and trade relations with western and northern Europe can be observable. The border effects show a decreasing trend. My numbers are consistent with the results of other researchers (Head – Mayer) who examined the EU 15 countries. Our consequences are similar: an average country has really high border effect in the beginning of or before its EU membership, but then the border effect is decreasing year by year as a sign of deepening integration. In the near future the border effect of the CEE countries may fall further after Europe recovers from the current crisis.

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CHALLENGES, OPPORTUNITIES AND RISKS OF MIGRATION BETWEEN SLOVAKIA, V4 AND EASTERN EUROPE

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SLOVAKIA: MIGRATION PROFILE

Slovakia is not yet one of the traditional destination countries for migrants – it has one of the lowest proportions of migrants in the population among the EU Member States. However, in between 2004 – 2008 Slovakia experienced the second largest increase of migrant population among the European countries and the Bratislava region (incl. capital) has the second largest concentration of foreigners in Europe after London, now[23]. Because of the economic growth in the last two decades and catching up economically with older EU members states, as well as because of inflow of foreign direct investments (Slovakia converged to 73% of the GDP per capital compared to EU27 average in 2012, while it was 47% in 1995 + Bratislava became the 5th richest region in the EU[24]), Slovakia, and esp. Bratislava region is slowly becoming destination for economic migrants.

Moreover, migration is becoming a very important part of the population growth in the Slovakia, and if there is not a positive balance in international migration, Slovakia would experience first drop of population in the years 2001 – 2002 after 70 years (see Chart 1). But it is needed to say, that statistics on emigration of Slovaks is not registered properly. Divinský[25] for example, points out on the big differences between the statistics recorded by the Statistical Office of the Slovak Republic on emmigration of Slovaks, compared to high numbers of Slovak immigrants recorded by domestic statistical institutes of traditional Slovak emmigration destinations e.g. the Czech Republic, the USA, the Canada, the Great Britain and the Germany. Striking differences arise not only from lax registration of population, but also becaues of shortcomings of statistical records evictions in Slovakia. Divinský even concludes that "officially declared positive net international migration in the Slovak Republic is the only pure myth." However, there is no more recent research that would address these inconsistencies in the records of migratory

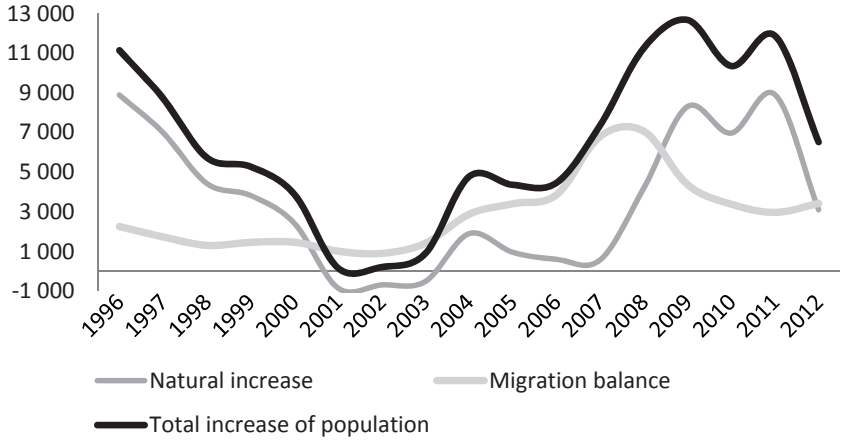
[23] IOM Medzinárodná organizácia pre migráciu – Office in Bratislava, http://www.iom.sk/.
[24] Source: http://www.aktuality.sk/clanok/248164/bratislava-je-piatym-najbohatsim-regionom-v-eu-informuje-eurostat/
[25] Divinský, B. (2009).

movements, nor any expert analysis of the current situation. Statistically is the fact that Slovakia is a country of migration inflows.

The major challenge for Slovakia and new EU member states in foreseeable future will be immigration. The question is not if, but from where the possible immigrants might come, if Slovakia and Central European countries wish to keep its economic growth and living standards. The neighbouring regions of the enlarged EU can be the most suitable providers of mutually beneficial migration and among them preferably for Slovakia countries like Ukraine, Belarus, and Moldova. Therefore, possible abolition of Schengen visa towards those countries is important issue of foreign policy and migration policy of the Slovak Republic.[26]

However, according to Slovak experts, the road to a visa free regime esp. for Ukraine and Belarus is going to be slow. The hardest task for Ukraine, Belarus and even for Moldova (to maintain the visa free regime) will be to meet the EU's expectations regarding values, democracy and the rule of law. Corruption, a weak state, and a lack of standards remain important barriers to their development and modernization.[27]

Chart 1: Slovakia: contribution of migration to population growth



Sources: Authors calculation based on Statistical Office of SR data (2013).

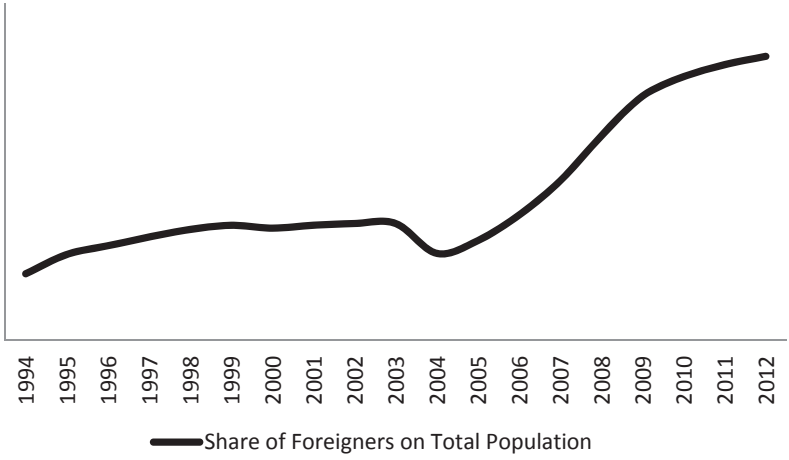
LEGAL MIGRATION

The immigration to Slovakia has been gradually rising since the Slovakia's accession to the EU in 2004, although the growth has been slowed by the economic crises in the recent years. The total share of foreigners on total population by the end of 2012 reached 1,35%. The portion of immigrants on total population is

[26] Benč, V. Buzalka, J. (2008).
[27] Benč, V., Bilčík, V., Duleba, A. (2012).

relatively small compared to other EU countries, but the number of has increased more than threefold since 2004. The number of registered immigrants reached almost 73 000 at the end of 2012, compared to 22 251 in 2004.

Chart 2: Share of foreigners on total population (Slovakia, in %)



Source: Authors' calculation based on data from Statistical Office of the SR (2013).

At the end of 2012, 72 925 foreigners – registered residents – were in the Slovak Republic, of which 55 909 citizens of the EU27 (76,7 %). Traditionally, the highest representation of this group is mainly from neighbouring countries, namely the Czech Republic (14 744 persons), Hungary (9 920), Poland (7 005), Germany (4 415) and Austria (2 308). Since Romania's accession to the European Union in 2007, the number of Romanian citizens increased to 5 962 persons at the end of 2012 (e.g. in 2007: 3 005 persons, in 2001: 1 908 persons).

In recent years, the share of migrants coming from third (non-EU) countries has decreased in favour of migrants from the EEC. This trend is related to easier travel and employment opportunities for EU citizens after the Slovakia accession to the EU in 2004. Third-country nationals accounted for the total number of foreigners 23,3%, which was 17 016 persons. The highest number of third country nationals came from Ukraine (3 915), Russian Federation (1 835), Vietnam (1 544), China (875), United States (861), Serbia (716), South Korea (598), Croatia (465), Macedonia (403). Number of legal migrants from Moldova (57) and Belarus (165) is very small (see Table 1).

The highest concentration of migrants is in the western Slovakia mainly due to more employment possibilities in this region (36,7% of registered employed migrants are in Bratislava city). Around two thirds of immigrants are male (59,8 % of foreigners) and male dominates even more on labour market, while almost 80% of registered migrants that are legally employed are male (see Table 2). In average, migrants from third countries are in younger age category (20-34 years), than

those from the EU countries (35-64 years). In terms of age, the highest numbers of foreigners are in the age group of 25-64, from which it can be assumed that this is mainly about the labour migration. A "typical" migrant living in Slovakia is a younger single man with higher education coming from the EU.

Table 1: Structure of legal migrants in Slovakia as of 31.12.

	2007	**2012**
Total Population	5 400 998	5 410 836
SK Nationals	5 360 094	5 337 911
Other EU(-27) Nationals	25 909	55 909
Share on total population in %	0,48	1,03
3rd country nationals	14 995	17 016
Share on total population in %	0,28	0,32
Most important third country nationals + BY, MD:		
Ukraine	3 745	3 915
Vietnam	1 432	1 544
Serbia	1 418	716
Russian Federation	1 354	1 835
China	1 198	875
Republic of South Korea	1 136	598
United States of America	769	861
Macedonia	651	403
Croatia	328	465
Turkey	171	214
Belarus	122	165
Moldova	76	57
Others	2 595	5 368

Source: the Statistical Office of the Slovak republic (2013).

Labour migration policy in Slovakia is currently not regulated by quotas or similar restrictive measures. Slovakia is slowly changing into a country of the first choice of migrant workers. This is also due to economic progress of the country, the development of migrant social networks, providing information on working possibilities and other types of support. The number of employed migrants surged dynamically after the accession of Slovakia to the EU and it is continuing to grow (from 2 761 in 2004 to 18 247 in 2010 and to 21 265 in 2012). Highest share of registered employed migrants are Romanians, followed by foreigners of neighbouring countries. High share of employed migrants from France and South Korea

is because of huge FDI into car industry from both countries (factories located in Trnava – Western Slovakia and Žilina – Central Slovakia). Number of employed Ukrainians is reaching slowly a thousand persons, number of working Belarusians (62) and Moldovans (29) in Slovakia is negligible.

Generally, we can conclude that migrants do not have a bigger influence on the labour force supply extent in Slovakia, so far. Most of the migrants from Western European countries work in Slovakia as high-skilled employees in professions as managers of companies, experts in a branch of the tertiary sector, lecturers at school or university, consultants, trade representative and in similar positions. Their work requires skilled and experienced persons, is mostly temporary (e.g. for one year) and concentrated into the largest Slovak cities (Bratislava, Košice) and places – industrial parks where factories with esp. FDI are located.[28]

Migrants coming from countries of the Balkans, Eastern Europe and Asia are employed often as small entrepreneurs, retailers, vendors, construction or industrial workers (inweakly paid branches - textile and cloth industry, shoe industry, food industry and the like), agricultural workers, auxiliary workers. There are differences within this group: the Ukrainians and Poles prefer working in industry and constructions, the Asians prefer more retailing and gastronomy, the Balkan nationalities rather entrepreneurship. The contribution to national economy is hardly expressible owing to the lack of any well-founded studies, surveys or estimates and may thus remain on a narrative level.[29]

The work of migrants in the Slovak Republic is in principle welcomed and contributional. They help fill in some gaps on the markets in Slovak regions and in branches that are not much preferred by the autochthonous population. Nevertheless, in cases particularly concerning illegal work – these persons as well as their employers commit economic or criminal offences. Estimating the contributions of legal (and also illegal) work of immigrants to Slovak society is a quite difficult task. Notwithstanding, the numbers of legal workers in Slovakia do not reach a significant volume yet. Even when considering the potential extent of irregular migrants' work, it probably does not achieve a too high level – currently. However, it will certainly be more important in the years to come when Slovakia should economically advance within the EU and be thus more attractive for foreign permitted or unpermitted labour migrants.

[28] Divinský, B. (2004).
[29] Ibid.

Table 2: Employment of foreigners in Slovakia as of 01.01.

	2008	2010	2012
Total	10 536	15 324	21 265
- of which from:			
Romania	2 279	2 387	4 134
Czech Republic	1 589	2 246	2 884
Poland	1 011	1 394	2 125
France	802	691	798
Hungary	737	1 422	2 078
Germany	556	750	803
Ukraine	501	929	971
Republic of South Korea	403	579	946
Bulgaria	328	465	743
Great Britain	314	376	427
Austria	314	497	569
Italy	238	392	578
Vietnam	115	375	310
Moldova	40	41	29
Belarus	9	33	62
- of which men (no. of persons)	8 420	12 303	16 853
- of which men (in % of total)	79,9	80,3	79,3
- of which registered in Bratislava city (no. of persons)	3 442	5 457	7 803
- of which registered in Bratislava city (in % of total)	32,7	35,6	36,7

Source: the Central Office of Labour, Social Affairs and Family (2013).

IRREGULAR MIGRATION

The Slovak Republic does not dispose of data and complex overviews of the total number of irregular migrants residing in the Slovak Republic. None of the Slovak institutions has made any estimates or worked out any principles for calculating the total number of irregular migrants residing in the SR[30]. There are only gross estimates in this area, and no in-depth research on these issues has been conducted so far. The only analysis made in this connection is the report compiled by Boris Divinský[31]. Based on a questionnaire research and estimates by the representatives of state authorities and nongovernmental organisations, as well as research under the project Divinský estimates that as of the end of 2007 the number of irregular migrants residing in the SR reached approx. 15 000 – 20 000, which represents 0,3 –0,4 per cent of the total population. Divinský estimates that at least half of the irregular migrants are Ukrainians, but he can't verify it. It is as-

30 Mrlianová, A., Ulrichová, N., Zollerová, M. (2011).
31 Divinský, B. (2009).

sumed that due to the significant decline in the number of apprehended migrants the estimated numbers decreased in the last years.

As far as ethnic structure is concerned, the same research states, on the basis of statistics on legal and illegal migration, that irregular migrants come to the SR from three main regions – countries of the former Soviet Union (Ukraine, Moldova, Russia, Georgia), some Asian countries (Vietnam, China, India, Pakistan, Bangladesh), and Western-Balkan countries (Serbia including the province of Kosovo, Albania, the former Yugoslav Republic of Macedonia).

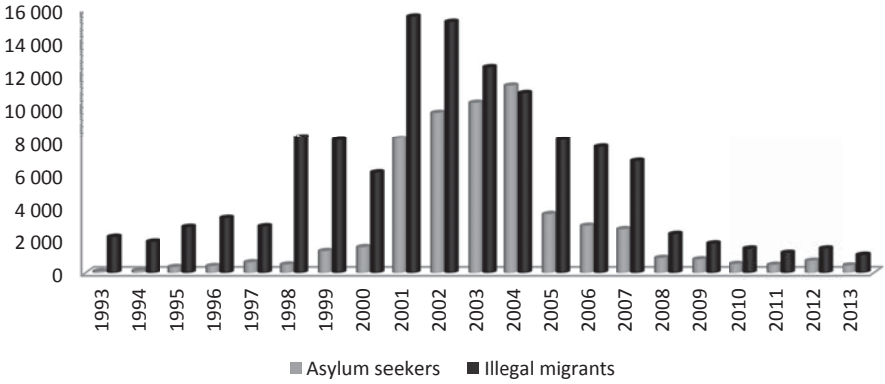
Based on the data on the numbers of migrants apprehended in the SR (esp. on the border with Ukraine), as well as on data on asylum procedures, as well as on data on refusal of entry, it can be stated that the overall reported illegal migration in the SR has shown a declining trend throughout the recent years, with the most significant decline recorded in 2008 which was the first year of Slovakia's membership in the Schengen Area.

The highest pressure of irregular migrants was recorded in between years 1998 – 2007. The highest peak was reached in 2001 and 2002 when number of apprehended migrants reached more than 15 000 persons per a year. Number of asylum seekers reached the top in 2004, when more than 11 300 migrants applied for asylum. Paradoxically, it was even more than the number of apprehended migrants in that year. Increased pressure of irregular migrants was at those years result of the situation in the World (war in Iraq, Afghanistan, at the Balkan), but also as a result of the changed status of the Slovak Republic, which started to prepare for the EU accession and thus being attractive for migrants as a temporary "station" for transit migrants. Weak and ineffective asylum system also contributed to high pressure of irregular migrants. Procedures were very slow and border police was considered as a "transport company". Migrants were misusing of the asylum institute upon apprehension (filling of an asylum application through which migrant avoided quick expulsion, and subsequent wilful departure from asylum facilities and continuation in illegal migration to developed EU countries). Only in 2006, Slovakia opened Detention facility in Humenné, Eastern Slovakia, so most of the migrants that declared intention for an asylum at the border with Ukraine were transported through the whole country to the west, where most of detention facilities were located. So, border police brought migrants closer to their targets: Austria, Czech Republic, and they usually escaped detention facilities and tried to migrate further west.

Another factor of increased irregular migration was that Slovakia as well as the Czech Republic introduced in summer 2000 visa for Ukraine and from January 1st also for Russia, Belarus, Moldova and several other countries. Government argued that it was due to harmonisation of the visa policy with the EU visa policy to meet criteria before the EU accession. Stricter migration policy compared e.g. to Poland or Hungary is evident, while those countries waited for visa introduction till the last possible moment and harmonised with EU in 2003, a year before accession to the EU. By abolition of the visa free travels and introduction of visa free duty for the nationals of Ukraine (waiver of the visa free agreement of June 28, 2000) as well as by adoption of the Directive of the Police Force President No. 32/2000 on expulsion

procedure of the nationals of Ukraine, the number of checked Ukrainian nationals at the border considerably decreased (approximately nine times). But it created pressure on illegal crossings and negatively effected bilateral relations with Ukraine.[32]

Chart 3: Slovakia: Illegal migration & Asylum seekers



Source: Authors' calculation based on data from the Migration Office of the SR & the Bureau of Border and Alien Police – UHCP (2013).

The accession of the Slovak Republic to the European Union on 01 May 2004 and to the Schengen Area on 21st December 2007 represented a turning point with an impact on migration management and, hence, on combating illegal migration. As a result, the number of legal migrants grew, on the other hand, the number of apprehended irregular migrants and the numbers of returns and refusals of entry on the border declined enormously. From the point of view of irregular migration, the Slovak Republic applied rather restrictive policies. As for restrictive measures, examples of good practice in combating illegal migration include, in particular, measures implemented on the external border – especially modern technical facilities and equipment, as well as increased number of personnel. Reforms were aimed at stricter measures under the process of preparation for accession to the Schengen Area, more effective actions of the Border and Aliens Police Departments, more intensive fight against organised smuggling groups, and start of application of some key EC regulations.

Cooperation with the Ukraine as the only third country on the external border of the SR and the most important country of origin of migrants was also important. The application of the readmission agreement and the deployment of advisors on documents and operative cooperation among the competent border authorities proved that international cooperation is one of the important aspects of the fight against the illegal migration phenomenon. Even the cooperation had its "ups and downs"[33].

[32] See e.g. Kaźmierkiewicz, P. (ed.)(2005).
[33] See e.g. Benč, V. Buzalka, J. (2008).

However, the Slovak Republic has not yet paid greater attention to "soft" measures in combating illegal migration, such as campaigns in the countries of origin, counselling centres and hotlines for migrants, targeted development aid, etc. which could form an efficient supplement to the restrictive measures and contribute to a more effective fight against irregular migration and other related negative phenomena.

With Slovakia's entry to the Schengen Area, besides a decline in reported irregular migration, resulted in changes in the share of two basic categories: illegal crossing of the state border and unauthorised stay in the territory of the Slovakia. While unauthorised crossing of the state border of the SR prevailed before Slovakia's entry to the Schengen Area, the category of unauthorised stay in the territory of the SR became dominating after the Schengen Area accession (see Table 3).

Table 3: Number of apprehended migrants in the SR in 2005–2013

	2005	**2006**	**2007**	**2008**	**2009**	**2010**	**2011**	**2012**	**2013**
Total	7 821	7 515	6 662	2 320	1 715	1 140	1 219	1 479	1 091
Illegal crossing of the border	4 958	4 037	3 309	1 020	570	495	390	658	398
Illegal stay in the SR	2 863	3 478	3 353	1 300	1 145	945	829	821	693

Source: the Bureau of Border and Alien Police of the Slovak Republic (2013).

When analysing the nationality of migrants apprehended in the period 2005 – 2013 (Table 4), nationals of Ukraine form the majority, followed by nationals of Moldova, India, Russia and Pakistan. Ukrainians, Serbians and Vietnamese are typical migrants who usually exceed the period of their permitted stay and remain in the territory of the Slovakia illegally (overstayers). This sub-category most frequently relates to performance of illegal work, and have a largely seasonal nature, as this group of irregular migrants decreases in the winter months. On the other hand, the nationals of Moldova, Georgia or African countries are typical transit migrants and are mostly apprehended upon unauthorised crossing of the external land border (their countries of destination are mainly Italy, Austria or Germany).

Table 4: Illegal stay by country of apprehended migrant (top 10 countries) + BY

	2011		**2012**		**2013**	
	Illegal state border crossing	Illegal stay	Illegal state border crossing	Illegal stay	Illegal state border crossing	Illegal stay
Ukraine	47	353	53	327	79	314
Afghanistan	39	38	64	20	75	45
Somalia	111	104	256	31	55	6

Moldova	77	33	55	46	32	26
Georgia	41	4	48	22	53	4
Russia	38	26	8	48	11	26
Eritrea	0	0	32	7	28	6
Vietnam	6	39	0	24	0	24
Serbia	0	14	0	29	0	22
Syria	4	3	2	8	16	6
Congo	0	0	49	0	1	0
Belarus	3	1	0	4	2	7

Source: the Bureau of Border and Alien Police of the Slovak Republic (2013).

As for age and sex, the most frequent category of apprehended irregular migrants were persons in productive age between 18 and 34 years, and 80 per cent of the total number of irregular migrants apprehended in the period 2005 – 2013 were males. Somalia nationals represent an exception (their numbers increased at the end of 2009 and continued growing till 2012), since this group comprises mainly unaccompanied minors (up to 70 per cent in the years 2009–2012). It should be mentioned, however, that none of the Somalia nationals apprehended e.g. in 2010 held a travel document, and the fact that the apprehended Somalis were mainly minors resulted from their verbal statements.

Development in illegal migration can also be observed in the statistics on refusals of entry. Refusals of entry to the SR show a declining tendency. Table 5 provides an overview of the overall development. The statistics on refused entries in the period 2006–2013 are also clearly dominated by nationals of Ukraine, followed by a wide margin by nationals of Russia and of Moldova. Especially since 2009, nationals of Ukraine do not try anymore to enter the territory of Slovakia or of the Schengen Area without a valid visa or residence permit, however, upon border control they do not dispose of the documents justifying the purpose and conditions of stay that they are expected to present together with the visa application.

The reasons can be the following:

- introduction of small cross-border traffic with Ukraine (in place since October 2008, but its effect was manifested to a greater extent in 2009);
- simpler visa granting procedures in the case of Ukraine nationals (the agreement entered into force on 1st January 2008). Under this agreement, those categories of Ukraine nationals which are not listed in the agreement are granted visa in a simplified manner and at a lower fee for all types of short-term visas. Members of official delegations, sportsmen, pensioners, journalists, students, family members of Ukraine nationals residing legally in an EU Member State, etc. could obtain visas free of charge since then.[34]

[34] Mrlianová, A., Ulrichová, N., Zollerová, M. (2011).

Table 5: Refusals to entry (top 10 countries)

	2006	2008	2010	2011	2012	2013
TOTAL	3 058	1 611	890	604	614	449
Ukraine	1 273	1 506	837	557	543	410
India	59	12	3	1	3	0
Armenia	n.a.	1	0	1	1	2
Moldova	111	30	13	6	5	1
Georgia	n.a.	0	1	4	2	5
Russia	83	37	15	17	16	16
Cameroon	n.a.	0	0	0	3	1
Serbia	232	0	1	1	2	2
Democratic Rep. of Congo	n.a.	0	0	3	9	1
Congo	n.a.	0	0	0	10	1
Belarus	n.a.	3	4	4	3	1

Source: the Bureau of Border and Alien Police of the Slovak Republic (2013).

Attractiveness of the asylum system for migrants is also a factor for irregular migration. A migrant-friendly asylum system can generate the numbers of asylum seekers and thus enhance the inflow of migrants to a country, as Slovakia experienced in between 2001-2004. Currently, asylum seekers in Slovakia criticise to a high extent its certain rigidity, long terms to wait for the decision, slight absolute and relative numbers of granted asylums, obvious social and economic problems in the integration process, the lack of more intensive assistance to refugees, etc. These are main reasons why a part of migrants, though even having been granted the status of refugee, did not stay in Slovakia and left the country. So the attractiveness of the Slovak asylum system in this context is not very high, which is a pity particularly for those migrants who actually wish to stay.

Since Slovakia accession to EU, numbers of asylum seekers are gradually decreasing, from 3 549 in 2005 to 441 in 2013. Number of persons granted asylum remains consistently low. From 1993 to end of 2013, asylum was only granted to 631 applicants and 532 applicants were provided with subsidiary protection. Chance for an asylum seeker to get a citizenship in Slovakia is close to “zero”, while through the last 20 years, only 221 asylum seekers received a citizenship. (see Table 6).

Table 6: Asylum

Year	Applications	Granted asylum	Refused applications	Granted subsidiary protection / Refused subsidiary protection	Stopped procedure	Granted citizenship
1993	96	41	20		25	0
1994	140	58	32		65	0
1995	359	80	57		190	0
1996	415	72	62		193	4
1997	645	69	84		539	14
1998	506	53	36		224	22
1999	1 320	26	176		1 034	2
2000	1 556	11	123		1 366	0
2001	8 151	18	130		6 154	11
2002	9 743	20	309		8 053	59
2003	10 358	11	531		10 656	42
2004	11 395	15	1 592		11 782	20
2005	3 549	25	827		2 930	2
2006	2 849	8	861		1 940	5
2007	2 642	14	1 177	82 / 646	1 693	18
2008	909	22	416	66 / 273	457	4
2009	822	14	330	98 / 165	460	1
2010	541	15	180	57 / 104	361	3
2011	491	12	186	91 / 48	270	7
2012	732	32	334	104 / 153	383	0
2013	441	15	123	34 / 49	351	7
Total	57 660	631	7 586	532 / 1 438	49 126	221

Source: the Migration Office of the Slovak Republic (2013).

MAIN DETERMINANTS OF IMMIGRATION PROCESSES

Generally, non-state actors criticize all governments since 1993 that governmental approach to migration is very restrictive and that the aim of the governmental institutions involved in dealing with migration is to eliminate immigration and not manage it. Governmental institutions standard presentation of foreigners / migrants (esp. from third countries) is as a threat to society and to national security, they are presented as a danger and a threat to the integrity of the country[35].

[35] See e.g. research outputs of the the Center for the research of ethnicity and culture on migration: http://www.cvek.sk/main.php?p=dokumenty&lang=sk (access on 3rd April 2014), the Institute for Public Affairs: http://www.ivo.sk/145/sk/aktivity/knizne-publikacie?rok=all (access on 3rd April 2014), or the Foundation of Milan Šimečka: http://www.nadaciamilanasimecku.sk/index.php?id=12.

Some of measures in everyday practice of governmental institutions constitute an unjustified difference in treatment of foreigners / migrants compared to citizens of Slovakia. E.g. migrants are by various provisions of the legislation and its practical application kept in uncertainty, they cannot plan their future in Slovakia and their effort and a real chance to integrate it is therefore minimal. Another example is a strict condition regulating termination of temporary residence if the migrant lose a job. It would be advisable to have some transitional period in which migrant can find a new job without a fear to automatically lose even a temporary residence permit.

Non-state actors are claiming that Slovakia has no reason to fear the influx of migrants to the extent that would threaten national security. Conversely, Slovakia needs and will need labour from third countries and the government should establish mechanisms for the integration and utilization of human, intellectual and linguistic capital of migrants. More appropriate approach than the restriction is to create conditions for a dignified and fulfilling life for migrants to facilitate their integration into Slovak society.

Even already in 1993 the government approved "The Principles of the Migration Policy of the Slovak Republic" by Resolution no. 846 from 16th November 1993 that demarcated the state's obligation to foreigners entering the territory of the Slovak Republic and their duties to the SR, until 2005 Slovak migration experts were pointing out on the "practical non-existence" of the state migration policy though the contrary was officially declared. Only at the beginning of 2005, "The Conception of State migration policy of Slovak Republic[36]" was approved by the government as a relatively comprehensive document.

Before elaboration of this conception, Slovak governments focused on the preparation for the Schengen, esp. in the area of security measures taken. Since the SR was expected to fully apply a part of the Schengen acquis already from the day of its accession to the EU, the government approved already in 2001 "the Schengen Action Plan of the SR[37]" in order to prepare the adoption and application of the acquis, and the National State Borders Protection. The most important measures to combat illegal migration started to be implemented, however, in connection with Slovakia's entry to the Schengen Area at the end of 2007. In this regard, "the Schengen Action Plan of the Slovak Republic 2008 – 2009" is regarded as one of the most important strategic documents from the point of view of national policy, summarising the measures that were planned to be implemented in that given period. The Schengen Action Plan for 2008–2009 was adopted by Government Resolution No. 163 of 12th March 2008[38]. The Action Plan was followed by the new "National Border Control Management Plan of the Slovak Republic in 2011-2014"[39], which builds on the achieved successes in the field of border control of the SR and on the Schengen assessment in 2012 and 2013.

36 Approved by the Government Resolution No. 11 on 12th January 2005.

37 Approved by the Government Resolution No. 836 on 5th September 2001.

38 Available at http://www.minv.sk/?dokumenty-na-stiahnutie-2.

39 Approved by the Government Resolution No. 473 on 6th July 2011; available at http://www.rokovania.sk/Rokovanie.aspx/BodRokovaniaDetail?idMaterial=19962.

In terms of integration of migrants, "the Strategy on Integration of Foreigners in the Slovak Republic"[40] was adopted on 6th May 2009 by Government Resolution No. 338. Two summary reports were later on approved by the government in 2011 and 2012 about the implementation of integration strategy. The NGOs working with migrants inter alia pointed out that the implementation reports are rather vague, and failed to tackle the problem with the lack of proper statistical data and indicators in evaluation of integration of migrants.

Improvement in migration policy making is visible since 2011. The Migration Policy Concept of the Slovak Republic of 2005 was updated through the document "Conceptual Plans of the Migration Policy of the Slovak Republic for the Period 2011–2015"[41], that was followed by the new strategic document "the Migration policy of the Slovak Republic with a view to 2020"[42], prepared by the Ministry of Interior. It is basic policy document and its aim is to create appropriate conditions particularly in the area of legal migration with regard to the priorities, needs and reception capacities of migrants, including their integration in society, enhance the effectiveness of border controls for movement of persons and combat illegal migration, contribute to the adoption of a common European asylum system, to participate in in building a global partnership with countries of origin and of transit to encourage the synergy between migration and development. The document prioritizes immigration of high-skilled workers with an emphasis on culturally related countries. Also a new theme of this political paper is the connection between migration and development, in particular by focusing official development aid at countries relevant from the perspectives of migration flows, as well as using potential of circular migration when supporting development of third countries.

Policy document was followed by approval of the "Action Plan of Migration Policy in 2012-2013" on 31st May 2012, which includes concrete measures of migration policy. Consequently, the Ministry of Labour, Social Affairs and Family of the Slovak Republic adopted the in January 2012, the new Act 404/2011 on Residence of Aliens[43]. The new act unified previous legal regulation of border control with the law regulating entry and residence of foreigners, a move largely criticized by NGOs as creating atmosphere of state and border endangerment by migrants. This approach is also reflected in the significantly more restrictive regulation of entry and stricter conditions for granting temporary residence for third country nationals. The new law introduced new types of permanent residence, whereas the period of previous residence before for requesting permanent residence has been shortened from 5 to 4 years.

Generally, the overall migration domain is rather a marginal theme for Slovak politicians and public, even since 2011 the governments put in place key political

40 Available at http://www.nocka.sk/uploads/4b/19/4b192bd7ac299fbac2b22bb62f138c9f/koncepcia-integracie-cudzincov.pdf.

41 Approved by the Government Resolution No. 67 on 2nd February 2011; available at http://www.rokovania.sk/Rokovanie.aspx/BodRokovaniaDetail?idMaterial=19140.

42 Approved by the Government Resolution No. 574 on 31st August 2011; available at http://www.emn.sk/phocadownload/documents/migration_policy_sr_2020_en.pdf.

43 Available at http://www.employment.gov.sk/files/slovensky/ministerstvo/integracia-cudzincov/dokumenty/zakon_404_2011_eng.pdf.

documents. At the same time, this situation is also reflected in rather short and vague parts on migration policy in electoral programs of main political parties.

ECONOMIC AND SOCIAL ASPECTS OF MIGRATION FLOWS

For the target country, economic gains from migration represent a gross domestic product created by immigrants, costless qualified workforce, multicultural gains, workforce filling the gaps on labour market, increased demand for estates or demographic benefits. Nevertheless, the employment of immigrants can cause reactions of the labour market leading to the increase of unemployment of the local people, stagnation of salaries, possible spending on social services for immigrants, increase of crime rates, xenophobia, racism and many more.

As it was mentioned, Slovakia is slowly changing from transit country to immigration country, also thanks to the economic progress, esp. of the Western part of the Slovakia. Generally, all Slovak regions are converging towards the EU average and are catching up with more developed regions in the EU (see Table 7). But the economic situation after the crises is still weak and Slovakia since its independence faces huge problems at the labour market. Even small country, there are big regional disparities and some regions for several years are evidencing very high unemployment, reaching more than 25%. Secondly, Slovakia faces problem with long-term unemployment of some groups, esp. elderly people (50 and more years old) and socially excluded groups like Roma. In the last years also problem of young unemployed is emerging. Such situation creates obstacles for economic migration from other countries, but also puts government under pressure not to liberalize migration policy towards third countries, esp. where lower average wages are.

Table 7: Comparison of GDP per capita towards the EU27 average in %, NUTS 2 level

	1996	2000	2004	2007	2008	2009	2010	Increase/decrease in the last 15 resp. 10 years
Praha (CZ)	128	139	163	177	175	176	172	+44
Stredná Morava (CZ)	65	58	62	64	64	66	64	+1
Chemnitz (GE)	81	77	81	83	81	80	83	+2
Stuttgart (GE)	n.a.	143	139	141	142	133	144	+1
Észak-Magyarország (HU - Miskolc)	36	35	41	39	40	40	40	+4
Wien (AT)	n.a.	182	170	160	161	163	165	-17
Mazowiecke (PL)	n.a.	74	78	87	89	97	102	+28
Podkarpackie (PL)	34	34	35	37	39	41	42	+8
Malopolskie (PL)	n.a.	42	43	47	49	52	53	+11
Slaskie (PL)	n.a.	52	57	58	61	65	67	+15
Bratislavsky región	104	109	129	160	167	177	176	+72
Západné Slovensko (West Slovakia)	48	47	54	66	69	68	68	+20
Stredné Slovensko (Central Slovakia)	41	41	47	54	59	58	59	+18
Východné Slovensko (East Slovakia)	38	38	42	46	51	49	49	+11

Source: Authors 'calculations based on data from EUROSTAT.

And Slovak governments are using mostly legislation and administrative measures "to limit" foreigners in their integration into the labour market. Statements to the media are clear: *"Ministry of Labour does not want to replace failures of the Slovak labour market by by planar imports of people from abroad. The priority will be to increase employment of internal resources through proactive labour policy instruments and programs for the education and training of the unemployed"*[44]. From the legal aspects, the questions of employing the foreigners, refugees and other migrants are resolved by the National Council of the Slovak Republic Act No. 387/1996 on Employment in the wording of the next amending laws, by the Labour Code (Act No. 311/2001 as amended by Act No. 210/2003) as well as by the Act No. 48/2002 on Stay of Aliens or the Act No. 480/2002 on Asylum. The Ministry of Labour, Social Affairs and Family of the Slovak Republic along with the organs of the National Labour Office are those that regulate the employment of foreigners in the territory of Slovakia and of Slovak citizens abroad.

[44] Trend: http://ekonomika.etrend.sk/ekonomika-slovensko/statna-imigracna-politika-pozna-len-azylantov.html.

Legislation is quite complicated and creates a number of different employment regimes: some categories of migrants cannot work full time, or cannot work with certain types of contracts. Some cannot start work sooner than after one year after arrival, or cannot work at all. Specific restrictions in connection with the employment of migrants, relate to persons that were granted temporary residence for example for the purpose of employment or business, or tolerated stay. Pursuant to experts state sometimes forces them to perform illegal activities in order to survive, or leave the country.[45]

UNHCR in a recent study[46] on integration of migrants into labour marked made some critical comets on Slovakia: "Despite a solid legal framework, the application of equal-treatment and non-discrimination laws is poor. Beneficiaries of international protection (esp. asylum seekers) in Slovakia face multiple forms of discrimination, based on social status, ethnic origin, gender, age, or religion. Discrimination is a major barrier to the labour market. Beneficiaries of international protection experience unequal treatment and discrimination during the job-searching process. They endure inferior work conditions, low wages, inappropriate working hours, and low job security because of their lack of awareness of labour law provisions and contractual arrangements."

Slovakia is lacking programmes to help migrants integrate into society, and laws that give them a fair chance to earn a secure living. Participation in the labour market is the key to integrate migrants into any society, but Slovakia lacks a real motivation and willingness to realize the potential of migration. Interest in protecting the country from immigration is in fact considered a major deciding factor, above the economic and social reasons.

VISA POLICY AND MIGRATION FLOWS

The decisions in the visa granting procedure and sanctions against carriers are also used as control tools before arrival at the external borders, and hence as tools of prevention in countering illegal migration. Slovakia is using the Visa policy very often as a restrictive tool for migration. Only in the last 2 years Slovakia started to liberalize its visa system towards countries of Eastern Partnership. This is evident in the growth of the application for a visa, where huge growth of application is witnessed esp. for Ukraine and Russia (see table 10).

45 Bargerová, Z., Divinský, B. (2008).
46 UNHCR (2013).

Table 8: Request for visas according to citizenship (all SK Embassies and consulates)

Nationality	2010	2011	2012	2013
Ukraine	22 820	40 882	44 093	88 095
Russia	13 505	18 147	18 003	28 196
Belarus	2 631	4 083	4 277	6 259
Turkey	1 027	1 164	1 164	1 271
China	786	1 138	1 359	1 461
Kuwait	853	943	843	950
India	529	635	748	704
Georgia	649	624	680	n.a.
Moldova	362	less than 180	less than 134	less than 117
TOTAL	49 873	73 482	76 937	132 466

Source: the Bureau of Border and Alien Police of the Slovak Republic (2013).

The example of using of restrictive Visa policy as a tool for migration management was seen in the years when Slovakia was joining the Schengen Area. Slovakia started to use so called "gradual system" of the assessment of the applicant, so at the date of Slovakia entry to the Schengen Area, all applicants for visa were considered as 1st time applicants, regardless their history of travel to Slovakia before. Also number of long-term issued visa in the first years for applicants was very low.[47] Also number of refused application increased (see table 11).

Table 9: Number of visas applications and refused visa at the General Consulate of SR in Uzhgorod in 2005-2010

Years	Received applications	Refused applications	Share of refused applications (%)
2005	25 220	511	2,03
2006	36 595	425	1,16
2007	25 220	882	3,50
2008	15 825	1 264	7,99
2009	10 651	266	2,50
2010	12 158	286	2,35
2012	20 533	283	1,38

Source: the Ministry of foreign Affairs of the Slovak Republic (2013).

[47] See more in Mytryayeva, S. (ed.)(2011).

MEDIA AND PUBLIC DISCOURSE ABOUT IMMIGRATION

Public discourse and media interest on topics related to migration in Slovakia is very limited. The role of the media is in many cases negative. Many Slovak people do not know differences in the terms and meanings concerning migrants, asylum seekers, refugees, aliens as such. Citizens of Slovakia often perceive migrants as refugees. They consider migrants as a burden on the state budget. Migrants are often ranked into the category of undesirable persons[48]. Xenophobia and discrimination are then a natural reflection of pictures provided mostly in the media. The positive cases, e.g., about the integration of migrants into society, are seldom shown. The migration matters are in general not sufficiently presented by the media, so the public cannot change its reasoning and is not prepared to a larger movement of persons from abroad. Discrimination thus much issues out of the lack of information. It is not stressed that migrants are not any danger to society, on the contrary – they enrich autochthonous society by their cultures.[49]

Public opinion is mostly not inclined positively to migrants, but to a different extent, in certain cases, people in Slovakia are declaratively open to migrants and regard them positively or in a neutral manner until situation does not require their higher engagement. Some people feel general distrust, neither explained rationally, nor objectified. Other people look at foreign migrants more negatively, seeing a danger in them. This danger may be of various natures.

But it is not just about a media. Politicians do not deal with migration questions enough, do not inform about their opinions on this subject. Some governmental institutions are not sufficient advocates of migrants, although this should be their duty. Other institutions often neglect obvious manifestations of intolerance and discrimination (even the police). Seen under this angle, public opinion only reflects the level and approaches of state policy in this field.

The extent of prejudices is marked and depends also on education. The more educated people are, the more positive their attitude towards migrants. Another factor is age; as was already outlined, younger generations are more broad-minded. The next factor is represented by the experience of people from life abroad, which does not need more commenting. Then, the urban/rural aspect – people from larger cities and developed regions are more tolerant to migrants than those from remote, isolated regions or from the countryside. And, of course, the personal contacts; this factor could be the most important one in combating prejudices not only in Slovakia.[50]

Information gained by several public option surveys may be summarised as follows[51]:

- About 2/3 of the Slovak population agrees with the opinion that refugees should be accepted in Slovakia, given assistance or receive humanitarian aid, if they escaped from the motherland for serious reasons;

48 Vašečka, M. (2009).
49 Divinský, B. (2004).
50 Letavajová, S. (2001).
51 Divinský, B. (2004).

- Considerable part of the population, however, has negative feelings from the presence of refugees in the territory of Slovakia as well as from consequences accompanying their presence;
- Almost 3/4 of the respondents agree with the statement that refugees are costly to the Slovak Republic. Then, 63% think that refugees contribute to the growth of criminality in Slovakia and 60% of interviewed are convinced that refugees bring various diseases;
- Half the respondents have the opinion that refugees having come to Slovakia should be sent back to the country of origin or to another country as soon as possible;
- Again, half of the interviewed agree with the opinion that refugees take labour opportunities away from the citizens of Slovakia.

In general, it is impossible to speak about explicitly unfriendly or even racist attitudes of the Slovak population towards foreign migrants. Nevertheless, it has to be pointed out that there is clear open xenophobia in the country and a high degree of more or less latent discrimination. Slovak society will, however, have to accept the increasing number of migrants in its territory. Hence, it is important to inform the public better about the phenomenon of migration, to get acquainted with each other, to communicate mutually at a higher level, to educate people toward tolerance and without prejudices, etc.; this all in the intention to encourage the formation of a multicultural society.

PROGNOSIS OF IMMIGRATION

Expectations are that migration flows of migrants esp. economic migrants/workers from Ukraine and Moldova will increase (depends on political and economic situation) and for migrants from Belarus it is not so clear, they can either increase or remain stable (SR is not a major destination for nationals of Belarus). Abolition of visa can will positive impact on the increase the flow of migrants from Ukraine and Moldova.

The fundamental push factors for recent migration are mainly difficult economic and social conditions in the countries of origin, the lack of jobs, poverty. Secondly unsafe life with persecution for racial, religion, ethnic or political reasons, the breaking of human rights and freedoms. Then the push factors include military conflicts or danger, and then the other factors, e.g. natural disasters. Current situation in Ukraine can be a strong push factor for migration from Ukraine, and not only in a short term. We remember the Balkan wars and huge number of refugees from Balkan states, while big immigration waves from the Balkan were seen even until 2005.

The main pull factors for migrants entering the territory of the Slovak Republic and wishing to stay are based on aspirations for a better economic life, intentions to multiply job and studies opportunities, to try to initiate entrepreneurial activities, to find a shelter for themselves and their families, to integrate into society

and to live a normal life in a society that is developing to democratic standards and better social and economic life. Next influencing factors may also be cultural, religious and mental affinities of a certain share of migrants to the Slovak environment along with easier language communication. Such case are Ukrainians and language barrier is also not big for Belarusians. Historically created relations to Slovak minorities in the neighbouring countries (Czech Republic, Hungary, Poland, and Ukraine), or Balkan countries (Serbia, Croatia, Romania, Bulgaria) or overseas countries (U.S.A., Canada, Argentina, Australia) cannot be omitted either, although the numbers of migrants coming to Slovakia with a definite intention to return/settle down in the country are not very high compared to the total figures of migrants.

However, most of the Slovak experts are still convinced that only a low percentage of migrants crossing the borders of the country wish to stay in the Slovak Republic for a longer period or to settle down. The essential pull factor for them is rather that Slovakia is a transit country to the EU, geographically quite close to it. Migrants therefore see a good opportunity to continue from Slovakia towards countries of Western and Northern Europe with a markedly better economic situation and living standard, often with higher care for migrants.

The role of family, friends, acquaintances or migrants' organisations in encouraging international migration is indisputable and it may not be different in the case of migrants entering or staying in the territory of the Slovak Republic. Communities of migrants – either official or unofficial – facilitate migrants' stay, assist at seeking a job, place of residence, school, as well as with many other matters sometimes trivial for the natives. However, Moldovan and Belarusian communities are not present in Slovakia. Different situation is with Ukrainians, which community is also supported by a quite big minority settled in Slovakia. Several associations of Ukrainians ensure necessary information on the country and can help migrants from Ukraine in legal consultations, helping in job search, but also in the organisation of cultural, sports, religious events and so on. Currently, there are really not big obstacles (if not speaking about the labour market) for ease integration of migrants from Ukraine, if the migration policy changes its prioritization for support of the migration from Ukraine.

CHALLENGES, OPPORTUNITIES AND RISKS OF FURTHER IMMIGRATION

There are several challenges on one side, which are in favour of supporting the current migration trends and increase of immigration (aging of population, to support the economy etc.), but on the other hand, fears of migrants are deeply rooted in a society. Current situation in Ukraine and using minorities as a foreign policy tool (case of Hungary in supporting Hungarian minorities abroad, case of Russia in annexation of Crimea) creates new situation in Europe when growth of radicalisation in society, fear of minorities and migrants can lead to restrictive migration policies.

But generally, it predicts that in the coming years, the need for a highly skilled workforce will increase, along with its overall shortage in EU-countries. For this reason, it will be necessary to supplement a part of the workforce by immigration or temporary migration from third countries. In terms of sustainability and stability, the possibility of simplifying circular or temporary migration and the entire legal procedure related to multiple entries into the European job market comes to the forefront.

Big challenge is also to adapt a visa policy. In order to make further progress in the EU's visa policy toward Ukraine and Belarus it is essential to keep two processes (facilitation and liberalization) distinct, and to ratify the amendments to the existing facilitation agreement in the near future. The EU should also more clearly distinguish technical from political benchmarks for progress, in the process of visa liberalization. Although any final decision on lifting the EU's visa requirement is likely to be political and probably demand a very different political leadership in Kiev, Ukrainian citizens should clearly understand what measurable progress there has been on the technical aspects of visa liberalization. The EU should apply comparable standards when evaluating the progress of different EaP countries, as well as that of Russia, in the process of visa liberalization. While countries like Moldova may be politically and technically further advanced than Ukraine, Russia's progress should not depend primarily on political considerations.

As written above, most of Slovak migration experts are in favour of visa abolishment for Ukraine and Moldova. The process, however, must be accompanied with new migration policy that would be able to integrate current and future migrants into the society.

CONCLUSIONS

As can be concluded on the basis of data, trends, policies, laws, research done within the project etc. demonstrated in the preceding texts passages, the Slovak Republic is currently in the turning point as to international migration. From a country where particularly immigration had no massive nature, the number of asylum seekers was low, the quantity of migrants living and working in the country as well, Slovakia has been undergoing an important transformation in this domain during the past 3-5 years. The inflow of legal migrants has been growing to an unexpected extent carrying with it a great acceleration of challenges. These concerns not only the numbers of migrants proper, but are reflected essentially in the phenomena, processes, mechanisms and trends accompanying migration and influencing the life of Slovak society in many dimensions.

In view of globalization and demographic trends can be assumed that the increase in the number of foreigners in Slovakia will continue in a long term. To what extent and how fast, depends on many factors. Slovak society will have to get used to an increasing number of migrants in its territory with all accompanying phenomena and it is up to the country merely to cope with this fact properly.

Currently, state migration policy is not much resounding and the public is not much informed about it. State migration policy should comprise an elaborate approach, not only the preparation of legal norms, whatever important, topical and broad they are. It should more cover a set of responsible subjects operating in synergy along with conceptual intentions, a legislative plan, information systems, public relations and the like. State migration policy is not sufficiently publicly presented. Especially, it is not aimed in a pro-immigration way. It is more than necessary to change the adverse public opinion on migrants by the Slovak population in order to mitigate their negative perception, and to decrease the degree of xenophobia and discrimination in the country. It is much appropriate to conduct education at schools in a pro-migration way, to provide more positive examples in the media, to organise information, explanatory and supporting campaigns, to better collaborate with NGOs and self-government authorities in the corresponding municipalities, to promote personal immediate contacts of natives with migrants etc.

Cooperation between state and not-state actors must improve. There are strong feelings – more or less warranted - from the side of NGOs that their position in the sphere of migration matters and care for migrants generally is little appreciated and their activities little respected by the corresponding state authorities. The NGOs are not accepted by them for an adequate partner in the game and the state does not want to financially co-support the migration projects of NGOs in Slovakia.

Most of Slovak migration experts are in favour of liberalisation of migration policy esp. towards Ukraine, Moldova and in a mid-term also towards Belarus. Experts welcome intention to abolish the visa and argue that national economy may profit from both the numbers of less qualified migrants searching for any job and the high-skilled experts from abroad. As stated in some responses from Slovak migration experts, migration as such can become in the future one of the contributive instruments to resolve the further societal development of Slovakia.

The following list of top policy measures to be taken (see Table 10) supports the key message that Slovakia must change it migration policy and to re-define its current very restrictive nature.

Table 10: Policy recommendation for improvement of the Slovak migration policy (sorted by importance)

Policy recommendations for Slovakia and V4 countries	
1.	- to promote transparency within migration policy and practice
2.	- to design and, then, to implement proper migration strategy
3.	- to open the educational system for foreign students
4.	- to analyze labour market needs in VC and, accordingly, to decide what one wants to gain via migration/immigration
5.	- to launch additional programs of cultural and scientific exchanges among VC and third-countries
6.	- to launch programs for pulling immigrants to VC
7.	- to simplify validation, to recognize EPC migrants´ qualification and diplomas

8.	- to enhance integration process of migrants in VC and to make it more effective
9.	- to apply more friendly attitude towards visa applicants in consulates of VC abroad
Policy recommendations for EU	
1.	- to support trans-border cooperation
2.	- to open the national educational systems for foreign students
3.	- to improve migration statistics
4.	- to harmonize migration and integration policies
5.	- to enhance integration process of migrants and to make it more effective
6.	- to combat illegal/irregular migration
Policy recommendations for countries of origin (UA, MD, BY)	
1.	- to establish better coordination between state institutions dealing with migrants
2.	- to combat corruption
3.	- to combat illegal/irregular migration (including trafficking)
4.	- to streamline migration policy as such
5.	- to develop a border cooperation, inter alia, by launching local border traffic regimes between particular VC and EP countries
6.	- to develop a border cooperation, inter alia, by launching local border traffic regimes between particular VC and EP countries
7.	- to carry out effective return migration policy including reintegration programs
8.	- to go through democratization and socioeconomic reforms; to foster economic growth and implementation of policies for sustainable economic development and, thereby decreasing emigration from countries of origin in a mid-term horizon
9.	- to improve migration statistics
10.	- to spread information about migration and related issues as much as possible

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SLOVAK – UKRAINIAN SCHENGEN AREA

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INTRODUCTION

The term 'border' has been geographically studied for a long time and within geography there are many types of border, the national one being the most important. Academically, the national border is defined as a strong socio-economical phenomenon, which affects its neighbouring areas. The border should not be interpreted as an independent space element, but as a part of a border-neighbouring region, since it creates the border effect, and thus forms its neighbouring region. The border is thus an inseparable part of special differentiations. The political borders are examined by a specific branch of geography – political geography.

The issue of borders and the neighbouring areas has been the subject of interest of political geography for a long time. The research of political geography is focused on the political borders, which are mainly represented by the national borders and the territorial borders within a country. In other words, it deals with the borders, which reflect the sphere of action and competences of various political bodies of the national or intranational character (Ištok 2004).

The level of interest in the study of how the border affects the life of the neighbouring citizens is on decrease, due to the borderless united Europe phenomenon. The borders cease to be the barriers and became the place for development and cross borders co-operation, and related to this, the Schengen Area seems to be the ideal place for the research of how the border affects the life of ordinary people living nearby. This part of the Slovak border has become the barrier after Slovakia entered the Schengen Area, and its importance and influence has increased.

The aim of the paper is to zoom in on the border as a significant geographical phenomenon, especially the Slovak-Ukrainian section of the Schengen border. We try to focus on the complex process of the border origin and formation, as it is now a part of the EU.

BORDER DEFINITION

Halás in his paper Cross-border ties and cross-border cooperation (2005) states that the majority of authors do not try, when defining the border, to define the border alone, but also attempt to include the neighbouring areas and areas dis-

sected by the border. He refers to various authors, such as Heigl (1978), who understands the border as a legally designed and naturally allocated line, which connects the regions, which form the administrative, economic and political unity, with the border line being the very determinant of the border space. Demek (1984 in Halás 2005) states that the border a result of the landscape sphere discretion, or, more precisely, our discrete concept of it.

Prescott (1975) understands the border and the border area as zones or lines, which divide the areas between the baron properties. Meusburger (1975) characterises these areas by various spatial configuration, customs politics, social and tax laws, economic ties and standard of living (Jeřábek, Dokoupil, Havlíček a kol. 2004).

In general, borders are the lines which divide the neighbouring areas and regions. These regions can be designed either by an assumed line – physical geography regions, attraction zones, or by a fixed line – the border stones. In the first case the borders are created by means of geographical methods, especially that of regionalisation and thus they represent the geographical borders, whereas in the second case it is the result of a juridical act and so they represent the political borders (Jeřábek, Dokoupil, Havlíček a kol. 2004).

The border can have a dual character, as it can be either a 'line' or a 'transition zone'. Academic English terminology defines these two terms as a 'boundary' for the former, which indicates the line that is clearly defined and specifies a particular territory, and a 'frontier' for the latter, which usually describes the border area, or area nearby. M.I. Glassner (in Ištok 2004) defines the frontier as a politic-geographical area, which lies outside the integrated region, and can potentially be expanded to. This type of near-border areas do not exist any longer, as these areas have been claimed by other countries. Nowadays, the 'frontier' character of a border can be observed only near a border, and it appears to be directly influenced by it. This area is now called the border region.

CATEGORIZATION AND BORDER TYPISATION

Two main border types are borders natural and artificial. The natural borders are defined by the natural elements existing in the terrain, which most commonly are either rivers or mountain ridges. The artificial borders are the result of human activity in space, irrespectable of the natural elements, using various aspects of human activities. When defining the artificial borders based upon the cultural aspects we call these the national or ethnic borders. Historic borders take into account the historic aspects, geometric borders represent borders that connect two points directly, ignoring the landscape design and astronomic borders apply geographic elements of longitude and latitude.

Generally accepted is the border typology based upon the genetic factors.

Antecedent borders – are borders placed down where no development has previously occurred. The best example being the border between the USA and Canada, where the development occurred only after the border had been designed in 19th century. These borders are usually geometrically determined.

Subsequent borders – are the opposite of antecedent borders. They were determined following the cultural development of an area, and thus these often agree with the distribution of a population. This type of border is characteristic of Western Europe.

Overlapping borders – results of political pressure on the borders and of the intervention of powerful countries to the weaker ones, which, until then, had been defined by the borders. Division of Germany after 1945 can serve as a prime example.

Relic borders – borders that no longer exist, but existed in the past, yet their past course is still visible in the cultural elements of the citizens. Until now, for example, Somalia manifests a distinction between past British and Italian colonial territory.

Along the factors already mentioned it is necessary to mention the border importance as a source of advantages connected to its localisation, which eventually stimulate the development, which usually applied especially to the regions located next to the border crossings. The development of a region can be stimulated not only by the crossing itself, but also by cheap services, hotels, gastronomy and transit transport (Bański 2010).

STATE BORDER

When examining the quality of life and the border the most influential type of border is the state border. Simple and succinct state border definition is provided by Rumpel (in Baar et al. 1996), who defines the state border as a contract-defined line on the maps and in terrain, which thus separates the area of one sovereign state from another sovereign state, or from an area that is not liable to sovereignty of any other state, e.g. 'unbound' sea.

This definition needs to be supplemented, as in accordance to the international law the state borders hereby vertically define the space above and under the ground. It is thus not so much a line but rather an area perpendicular to the surface, covering the area determined by the border line. In theory, this 'border area' runs from the centre of the Earth to the depths of the Universe. Realistically, the area is defined by the lowest geological drill holes and the altitude a particular country can militarily control.

There are many state border definitions, and the most common characteristic they all share is the understanding of its core element; that it defines the area in which a particular state realises its authority – sovereignty. In other words, the area determined by a state border applies certain rules, laws and procedures which might not necessarily be applied in the space outside the area. When talking about the political borders one must mention necessity of cooperation at the borders, which, if successful, can eventually result in abolishment of border control, which does not delete the border itself, only allows for a looser regime when crossing.

Slovaki-ukrainian border

The borders of the Slovak Republic went through various stages of development and divide the areas with various degree of development. Our aim is the analysis of the Slovak-Ukrainian border and thus we will not focus on the borders Slovakia shares with other countries.

When the Slovak Republic entered the Schengen Area, only a small part of the Slovak borders became a bridge, not only between Slovakia and the Ukraine, but also the whole of Schengen Area of EU and its eastern partners. The Slovak border also becomes a civilisation border. According to the Huntington (2001) world civilisation division the Western-Christian and Eastern-Christian border runs somewhere along the medieval borders of Poland. With the Ukraine being located at the very area as a sovereign state, this is, by Baar (2002), integrated to the Eastern-Christian civilisation, which eventually makes the eastern border of Slovakia the civilisation border.

This border of Slovakia and the Ukraine separates two different countries, which, on many levels, cannot be compared. At the intrastate level the border separates the administrative parts of the Eastern Slovakia, namely Prešov and Košice autonomous counties and the Transcarpatia district of the Ukraine. When analysing the regions it is possible to state that these border regions are belong to the most economically underdeveloped ones (cf. Angelovič 2010, Angelovič, Klamár, Benč 2011, Matlovič, Klamár, Matlovičová 2008, Yehorova 2011).

SCHENGEN BORDER

Schengen border represents a significant sign of the united Europe. There are no obstacles in the Schengen Area that would prevent free movement of people, services and capital across the borders of the countries within the area. Abolishment of the inner borders enforced stricter controls at the outer borders. The Eastern border of the Schengen Area can be called the poverty border, since these regions represent the poorest areas of the EU. The borders then can help the development of the regions through cross-border cooperation, which is one of the main incentives why we study this particular section of the Schengen border.

Schengen border is a result of the Schengen Agreement, which was named after the Luxemburg town of Schengen, where, on June 14, 1985 a treaty between France, Germany and Benelux countries was signed, and these countries thus agreed upon continual abolishment of controls of the peoples crossing their mutual borders, which also included more thorough controls at the outer borders. This document is usually labelled as a First Schengen Agreement, as on June 19, 1990, a supplementary agreement was signed, known as the Schengen Agreement (Schengen II).

First Schengen Agreement did not require ratification and was provisionally carried out. Second Schengen Agreement, however, requires the ratification. The Schengen I consisted of 33 articles and contained short-term and long-term measures, which, in the Schengen II are more detailed and elaborated (Schengen Agreements).

The Schengen II became legitimate in September 1993. However, France and Germany did not manage to comply with the conditions for abolishment of inner borders, which were appointed in the memorandum, attached to the final act. Hence, the Agreement was only put into effect on March 26, 1995. The inner border controls then ceased to exist only by 1995. In the Amsterdam Agreement (Protocol B) of 1997 the signatory powers agreed upon the Schengen Agreement integration into the EU law. The agreement thus became a part of the Amsterdam Agreement, which was realised on May 1, 1999. The future EU candidates were also to become part of the Schengen Area. Nevertheless, this is not done automatically and the countries are allowed to approach the Schengen Agreement upon complying with the agreement conditions (Schengen Agreement).

Among the most important points of the agreements belong:

- abolishment of inner borders, while enforcing outer borders of the Area,
- unification of regulations for short-term and long-term entrance for foreigners in the Schengen Area (Schengen visa),
- separated procession of citizens, who are and are not citizens of the Schengen countries at the airports and docks,
- asylum seeking conditions unification,
- actions against the cross-border drug smuggling,
- police cooperation (pursuit of criminals escaping across the borders, as long as short-time pursuit is estimated),
- Schengen countries cooperation in the Justice department,
- setting up of the SIS system, which would connect up the databases of the member countries (Schengen Agreement)

The main aim of the Schengen agreements is maximisation of the liberty of movement of people across the borders within the Area. This aim anticipates agreement of common arrangements that would secure safety within the Area and public order in all the member states. It is implicitly inherent that the outer borders require enforcement, which, eventually, adds a barrier function to the borders as such. This process had also been applied at the Slovak-Ukrainian border.

HISTORY OF SLOVAK-UKRAINIAN BORDER

Slovakia and Transcarpatia have been for centuries parts of the Austria-Hungary and the border between them had only had an administrative function. After the Austria-Hungary ceased to exist as a state, it was difficult to know which country should get Transcarpatia and where its actual borders lie. It was around this time the current Slovak-Ukrainian border had been formed.

Transcarpatia, according to the General covenant from November 7, 1918, was attached to Czechoslovakia in the second half of 1919. This attachment was stated in the small Saintgermain treaty between the countries of so called Treaty and the

Czechoslovak Republic (ČSR) on September 10, 1919. The Transcarpatia borders were determined by a number of international treaties – Versailles treaty in article 81, Saintgermain treaty in article 53, Trianon treaty in article 48 and partly also in the Northern treaty. Despite the agreement and designing of the border, the border between Slovakia and Transcarpatia remained a rather problematic one.

The Transcarpatia area, attached to Czechoslovakia, was 12 617 km^2, containing 487 villages and 604 593 inhabitants. The newly formed Czechoslovakia was supposed to become a state with the autonomy of the parts – countries, among which also belonged Transcarpatia. This autonomy, however, as much as Slovakia, had not been given to the countries until 1938 (Pop 2005).

It was a lengthy and complicated process to determine the border between Slovakia and Transcarpatia. When the border between Poland and Transcarpatia was established, it just continued on from the former Hungary border. Territorial jury of the Highest Council Agreement decided that the border between Slovakia and Transcarpatia to run along the Uh river course from north to south, until it reaches the town of Uzhorod. From then the border would run 2-5 kilometres to the east of the railway station Uzhorod-Cop. After the General Covenant had been announced on November 18, 1919, 32 villages located west of the current border were allocated under the administrative governance of the Transcarpatia. This was also declared and confirmed at the district announcement in 1920, which was applied only in Slovakia, though. The border with Romania was determined on August 7, 1919, with Hungary on June 12, 1919, confirmed by the peace Trianon treaty on June 4, 1920 (Trávniček 1992).

In the 20s and 30s of the 20th century the border situation was reasonably quiet. Major changes took place after the Vienna Arbitration on November 2, 1938. Hungary gained the most fertile, south part of Transcarpatia, along with the towns of Uzhorod and Mukachevo. The remaining part of Transcarpatia gained a new name of the Carpathian Ukraine and on March 14, 1939 declared independence, which did not last for too long, as already on March 18, 1939 the whole area was attacked by Hungary. After the very eastern part of Slovakia was captured by Hungary, the border between Slovakia and Transcarpatia ceased to efficiently exist (Trávniček 1992).

The border line during the WWII did not change. It was clear in 1944 that the Hitler's Germany would fall and the authorities in charge already played with the idea of a new world order. Stalin, despite the fact he had formally agreed with the plans to re-establish the pre-Munich Czechoslovakia, considered the Transcarpatia territory as a part that should be attached to the Union of Soviet Socialist Republics (USSR). After some rough and not very fair political debates the Transcarpatia issues was resolved by the two party international treaty of June 29, 1945, where Transcarpatia was attached to the USSR. The ratification documents between ČSR and USSR were exchanged on January 12, 1946 at the Prague Castle. Since then Transcarpatia became a part of the USSR under the name of Zakarpattia Oblast of the Ukrainian Soviet Socialist Republic (Švorc 1996).

Following the political and economic changes at the beginning of the 90s the Ukraine declared its independence from USSR on August 24, 1991, and it became

a sovereign state at the map of Europe. Zakarpattia Oblast was integrated into the Ukraine map as Transcarpatia. The border between Slovakia and the Ukraine has not changed since 1946. After Slovakia entered the EU, and later the Schengen Area, the border became a part of the Schengen border area on December 21, 2007. From that day on, there are no intra-state controls between Slovakia and Poland, the Czech Republic, Austria and Hungary, with controls at the Slovak-Ukrainian border becoming more rigid and the border becoming a sort of a development barrier.

CONCLUSION

Our short analysis enabled us to come to the following conclusions. Slovak-Ukrainian part of the border is both state and cultural border, which not only separates two sovereign countries, but also two different civilisations. The Schengen part of the Slovak border can also be considered as an overlapping border, since it was formed under the pressure of the Soviet Union towards Czechoslovakia. The outer Transcarpatia borders are to be considered relic borders, since the identity of the Transcarpatia inhabitants is different from the rest of the Ukraine inhabitants, and, in our opinion, the above mentioned civilisation border should run at the outer border of Transcarpatia. The current, artificially created border between Transcarpatia and Slovakia, which lines had been designed and influenced more by military and strategic aims and objectives, rather than historic identity or interests of the inhabitants, and as such is the border of the EU and acts as a significant social-economical phenomenon that influences the lives of neighbouring regions.

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FIELD TRIPS THROUGHOUT EASTERN SLOVAKIA WITHIN THE VISEGRAD & UKRAINE GEOGRAPHICAL AND REGIONAL POLICY SUMMER UNIVERSITY

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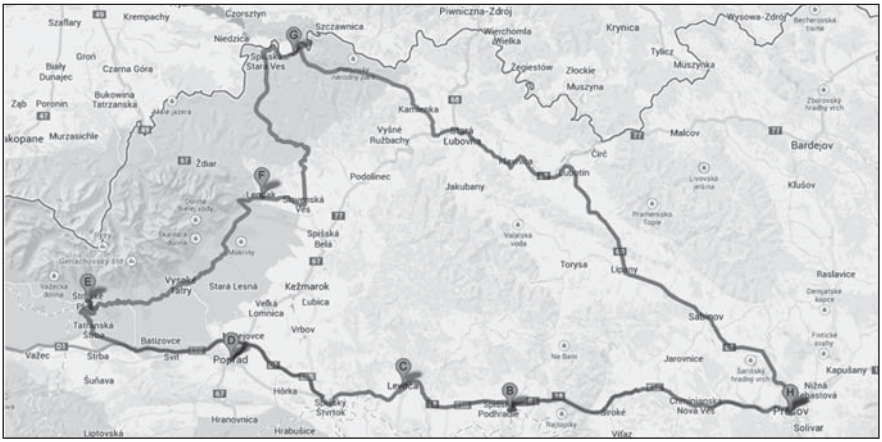
INTRODUCTION

Field trips throughout Eastern Slovakia were the part of program within the Visegrad & Ukraine Geographical and Regional Policy Summer University. They appropriately completed the theoretical program of the summer university. They were primarily oriented to the presentations of various attractions and specificities of Eastern Slovakia in terms of regional development of the area and the tourism industry. As participants of the summer university were from several European countries and with the different professional focus, the content of these excursions was adapted. Three day field trips were realized, each of which was focused on a different type of landscape.

Field Trip - Day I.
28.6.2013 Glacial and karst landscape, Klippen belt, Environmental loads

Prešov - Žehra – Dreveník – The Spiš Castle - Spišské Podhradie – Spišská Kapitula – Mariánska hora - Levoča – Poprad - The High Tatras, Štrbské Pleso – Lendak – Červený Kláštor, Pieniny - Stará Ľubovňa – Plaveč - Pusté Pole – Lipany – Sabinov - Prešov

Figure 1: Route no.1



Source: Google maps

Interesting Places:
Žehra (B) - Roman catholic church, UNESCO
Spiš castle (B) - UNESCO
Sivá Brada, Dreveník (B) - Travertine hills, UNESCO
Spišská Kapitula (B) – Slovak Vatican, Dominant religious feature
Levoča (C) - Town historical reserve
High Tatras (E) - National park
Štrbské Pleso (E) - Tourism centre of the High Tatras, mountain lake, glacial relief
Lendak (F) – Specific ethnic composition of the population and folk customs
Pieniny (G) - National park, Klippen belt
Červený kláštor (G) - Carthusian and Camaldulsian monastery, rafting on wooden rafts
Plaveč- Castle ruins
Kamenica- Klippen belt

The field trip on the first day was thematically devoted to north-western part of Eastern Slovakia. From the physical-geographical point of view, the main object of our interest was the landscape modelled by the glacier activity in the High Tatras, klippen system of the Slovak - Polish border in Pieniny national park and Spiš-Šaris medzihorie, as well as human-influenced cultural landscape of Hornád basin, including the largest travertine composition in Slovakia in the area of Dreveník.

From the historical-geographical and cultural-geographical point of view, we passed regions Šariš and Spiš with the exceptional sights not only of the Slovak, but also of the European importance, several of which are enlisted in the UNESCO World Heritage List (Spiš Castle with its surroundings, Levoča, wooden church in Kežmarok).

Figure 2: Spiš castle

Source: Authors' archive

Figure 3: Levoča

Source: Authors' archive

Figure 4: Štrbské pleso and High Tatras

Source: Authors' archive

Figure 5: Červený Kláštor

Source: Authors' archive

Figure 6: Veľký Lipník

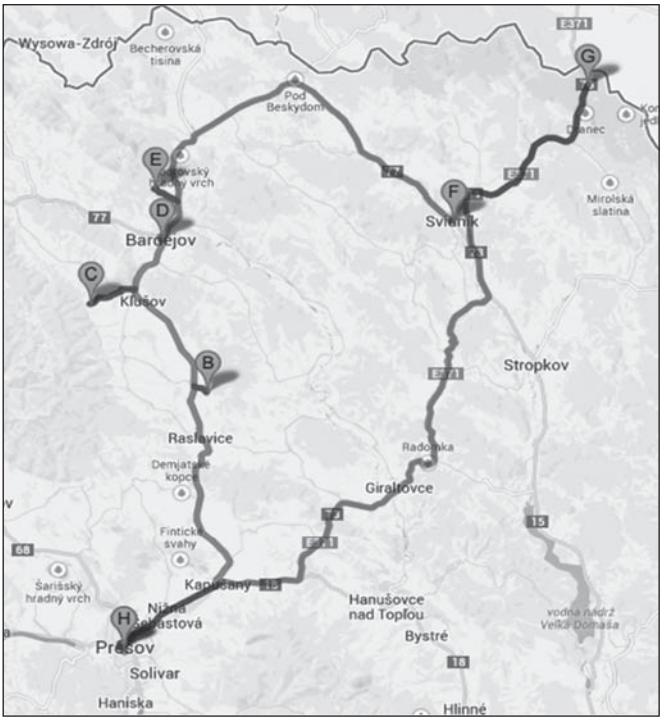
Source: Authors' archive

Figure 7: Stará Ľubovňa castle

Source: Authors' archive

Field Trip - Day II.
1.7.2013 Flysch and National landscape, Wooden churches, Spa
Prešov – Tročany – Hervartov - Bardejov, Bardejov Spa – Zborov – Svidník – Dukla – Giraltovce - Prešov

Figure 8: Route no.2



Source: Google maps

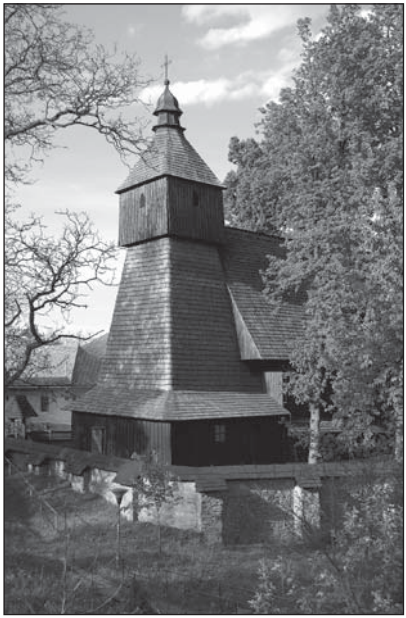
Interesting Places:
Nízke Beskydy – Eastern Flysch, specifications
Tročany (B), Hervartov (C) - Carpathian wooden path - wooden churches, UNESCO
Bardejov (D) - Town historical reserve, UNESCO
Bardejovské Spa (E) - Spa, the open air museum
Zborov - Castle ruins
Dukla pass (G) - Historical place (World War I. and II.)
Svidník (F) – Museum of Ukrainian Culture and Military Museum

The field trip on the second day was devoted to the north-eastern part of Eastern Slovakia. From the physical-geographical point of view, the main object of our interest was the landscape built by flysch stratum, especially by clays and sandstones. The area is characterized by rich forests, which are the major eco-stabi-

lizing element of the landscape and the suitable environment for flora and fauna linked to the forest environment. The most valuable part is the part of the International Biosphere Reserve East Carpathians, the first trilateral biosphere reserve in the world.

From the historical-geographical and cultural-geographical point of view, this area of north Šariš with the varied ethnic and religious composition (Slovaks, Ruthenians, Ukrainians) represents specific region from the national perspective. In this specific area, precious monuments can be found, particularly wooden religious architecture, several of which are enlisted in the UNESCO World Heritage List (Ruská Bystrá, Ladomírová, Bodružal, Hervartov). The historical gem of Slovakia is town Bardejov, which is as the above mentioned churches enlisted in the UNESCO list. The specifics of this region are also monuments pertaining to military operations from the World War I. and II.

Figure 9: Hervartov



Source: Authors' archive

Figure 10: Bardejov - historical centre

Source: Authors' archive

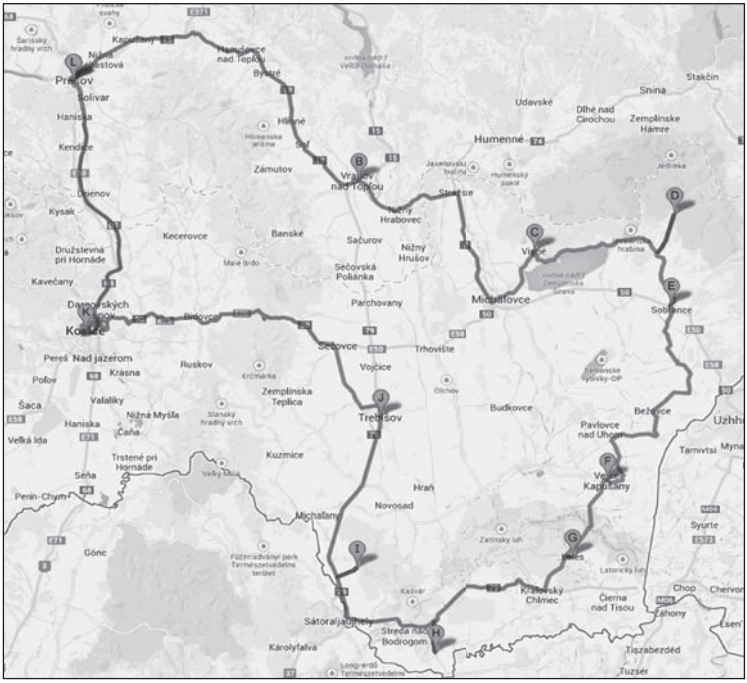
Figure 11: Dukla pass

Source: Authors' archive

Field trip- Day III.
2.7.2013 Volcanic, lowland landscape, Wine area Tokaj
Prešov – Vranov nad Topľou – Michalovce - Vinianske lake, Zemplínska Šírava - Morské oko – Sobrance - Veľké Kapušany – Leles - Kráľovský Chlmec – Veľký Kamenec – Malá Tŕňa, Tokaj wine area – Trebišov – Sečovce - Prešov

Interesting Places:
Vinianske lake (C) - Summer recreation area
Zemplínska Šírava (C) - Summer recreation area
Morské oko (D) - Lake dammed by landslide, volcanic landscape
Vihorlat, Sninský kameň (D) – Volcanic mountains
Latorica - Protected landscape area, lowland landscape
Leles (G) – Premonstratensian monastery
Veľký Kamenec (H) - View to the Eastern lowland, loess, dunes
Tokaj (I) - Wine area, wine cellars

Figure 12: Route no. 3



Source: Google maps

The field trip on the third day was devoted to the south-eastern part of Eastern Slovakia. From the physical-geographical point of view, the main object of our interest was mainly large landscape of the Eastern lowland. A typical landscape consists of various lowland surfaces with the rocker wells and a number of water areas, river meanders and sand dunes. Eastern neo-volcanic rocks are the part of the territory. The rarest parts of the area are the part of CHKO Vihorlat (forests at the top of the mountain are enlisted in the natural UNESCO heritage) and CHKO Latorica.

From the historical-geographical and cultural-geographical point of view, the area of South Zemplín is typical with its distinctive dialect and unique folklore. The presence of Hungarian ethnic group in this area gives it a special cachet. Tokaj wine region with old wine cellars excavated in volcanic rocks is also the part of this region. Remoteness location of this area within different historical units, after centuries, determined its economic and social development level.

Figure 13: Morské oko

Source: Authors' archive

Figure 14: Veľký Kamenec

Source: Authors' archive

Figure 15: Eastern lowland

Source: Authors' archive

Figure 16: CHKO Latorica

Source: Authors' archive

CONCLUSION

Field trips are always the culmination of conferences, colloquia and other professional events. They are practical and realistic preview to the issue of the examined area. Their objective is to supplement the theoretical knowledge gained by participants in expert meetings. The field trips for participants of the Visegrad & Ukraine Geographical and Regional Policy Summer University were also organised with this intention. During three days, participants had a chance to get more familiar with the different types of landscape of Eastern Slovakia, its positives and negatives. They had an opportunity to compare the issue of regional development in their home countries and with the visited regions of Eastern Slovakia. Under the professional auspices of experienced university teachers, participants gained knowledge that will help them in further professional growth.

FALL IN LOVE WITH THE CITY OF PRZEMYSL

Karolina Łysy & Paulina Pasierbska,
the East European State Higher School in Przemyśl

Przemysl is one of a select group of the oldest and the most beautiful Polish towns. Its thousand years of rough history have been inseparably linked with the fate of the whole Polish republic. The town situated at the foot of the Carpathians, boasting a wealth of more than a thousand monuments, enchants us with an unforgettable landscape of steep, narrow streets, adjoining historical buildings and old churches with towers that climb ever higher.

LOCATION

Przemysl is located in south-eastern Poland, it has 66 000 inhabitants. The city is situated upon the San Rriver, which divides it into two parts so called New City and Old City.

The San River is one of the most beautiful rivers in Poland. In its upper reaches down to Przemysl, the *San* is a mountain river, becoming a lowland river beneath Przemysl. *San*, in proto-Indoeuropean languages, means “speed” or “rapid stream.” In Celtic languages, San means “river.”

INTERESTING PLACES

Przemysl is a wonderful place to spend your holidays. Virtually unknown outside the region, the city prides with breathtaking views and attractions that are likely to enchant even the most demanding of travellers. Despite the great technological and architectural development Przemysl still emanates the sophisticated charm of the Hapsburg Empire to which it formerly belonged.

Let's have a quick look at some interesting places to visit.

The National Museum of Przemysl Land

The National Museum of the Przemyśl Land includes several branches. Its collections amount to more than 200 thousands exhibits from the area of archaeology, history, numismatics, art, ethnography and nature, more than 3,300 deposits and various auxiliary materials. The library, functioning at the museum, boasts a collection of 40 thousand volumes, including about 100 manuscripts, 400 old prints and 600 cartographic objects.

Museum of Bells and Pipes Branch of the National Museum of Przemysl Land

The Museum of Bells and Pipes, founded in September 2001, is located within the Old Town, in the late Baroque Clock Tower. The tower was erected in the years 1775-1777 as a bell tower for the Greek Catholic cathedral and after the Joseph cassations it became the property of the city. In 1983, it became the property of the National Museum of the Przemysl Land and, after its last redecoration, eight of

its storeys were adopted for the needs of exhibitions and the exhibition of bell and pipe making was arranged there - the products which our city was and is famous for, both in Poland and abroad.

Museum of Przemysl Fortress

The museum houses collections coming from the area of the former Przemysl Fortress from the 19th and 20th century.Three halls full of exhibits have been prepared for visitors. One can see, among other things, cold and fire weapons, soldiers‘ equipment, old photos, elements of armoured equipment of forts, artillery bullets and fuses as well as various personal and usable items. Large objects, like an armoured watchtower and part of an armoured fighting tower as well as parts of blown-up cannons are located in the branch of the museum on the premises of the fort XV Borek in Siedliska.

SACRAL PLACES

Przemysl is a multicultural and multi-faith city. It combines the nations Polish, Ukrainian and Jewish. This cultural diversity can be seen by the number of churches of different denominations.

The Roman-Catholic Archcathedral

The Roman-Catholic Archcathedral built in the Gothic style in the15th and 16th centuries in place of the older Romanesque one, whose remnants have been preserved in the vaults. It was renovated in the 18th c. in the Baroque style. Next

to the cathedral there is the Bishop's Palace and the late-Baroque 71-metre high belfry, a characteristic element of the Przemyśl panorama. In the upper part of the belfry, on the level of clock faces, is a view point with a beautiful panorama of the city.

The Greek-Catholic Archcathedral

The Greek-Catholic Archcathedral in the old Baroque church of the Sacred Heart of Christ built for the Jesuit order in the 17th c. In the 20th c. it was a military

church. In 1991 Pope John Paul II handed the church over to Greek Catholics, who adapted it for the purposes of the Eastern rite. When inside, do not fail to see the 17th-c. iconostasis from the church in Lubaczow. Next to the archcathedral there is a modern-day belfry.

The Franciscan Church

The Franciscan Church built in the 18th c. in place of an old Gothic church combines elements of the late Baroque and the Classicism. The church has an impressive rococo interior with an abundance of sculptures and frescoes.

LEISURE TIME

Przemysl is the city not only for lovers of history and beautiful views. Sports enthusiasts will also be delighted to stay here.

Zniesienie and Tatar's Barrow

Zniesienie - The hill towering over the town, the name of which commemorates the defeat of the Tartars in this very place. The most famous point of Zniesienie is the mysterious **Tartar's Barrow** (352 m above sea level). As legend says, it was built by the Tartars as a mound of the Khan who was killed in battle here. For many centuries, and maybe even millenniums, the Barrow has served as an important observation post in the defence system of the whole Przemysl Land.

The viewing platform on the ski slope

The ski slope in Przemysl is situated close to the city centre, on the north-west slope of Zniesienie Mountain, and is adjacent to the forested City Park. Its landscape and microclimate help visitors to fully relax and improve the stamina and wellbeing of ski fans.

We invite you to visit Przemysl!

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EXPLORING LVIV

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Uzhgorod National University

Lviv used to be the Capital of East Galicia. Known as the centre of Ukrainian art and culture, the city boasts many of the country's brightest and best museums, art galleries and theatres. It is also Ukraine's Bible belt buckle - there are magnificent and inspiring churches and cathedrals on just about every corner. The historic city center is on the UNESCO World Heritage List.

The city has a multicultural history. It was founded in 1256 by King Daniel of Galicia and fell under Polish control in the 14th century. Poles, Jews, Ukrainians, Germans and others lived there together for centuries. The Polish king John II Casimir founded the Lviv University in the 17th century and Lviv (known as Lwów) was by that time one of the most important cities in the Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth, along Krakow, Warsaw, Gdansk and Vilnius.

In 1772 the city was taken by the Habsburgs and in Austrian times it was known under the name of Lemberg, the capital of Galicia. After the dissolution of the Austro-Hungarian Empire in 1918, it was returned to Poland.

As result of World War II Stalin moved the Soviet frontier westward so Lviv became part of the USSR, as Lvov (still widely frequent, even locally). With the Ukrainian independence in 1991, the name was officially changed to Lviv (Львів).

Lviv is located in the most Ukrainian region of Ukraine; as a Soviet province, most signs were put only in Ukrainian, and only a few also in Russian. Because of its Polish and Austro-Hungarian history, Lviv has a Central European flair in its architecture that makes it one of the most beautiful cities in Eastern Europe.

Its tourist potential is yet undiscovered because infrastructure is rather undeveloped and most people don›t speak any foreign languages except Polish and/or Russian. This is changing among young people, some of whom will speak English. Nevertheless, visiting Lviv is very rewarding for the pioneer traveller, as living is still pretty cheap here with western standarts and the place has a truly authentic feeling, unlike places like Krakow or Prague, which are swamped with tourists.

Places of interest:

Churches:

- **Latin Cathedral** (Roman Catholic) in the south western corner of Market Square.
- **St. George's Cathedral** (Greek Catholic) baroque-rococo cathedral located an the hill
- **Armenian Cathedral** (Armenian Apostolic) built between 1363 and 1370, later remodeled few times. Very interesting interior.

- **Dormition Cathedral** (Orthodox) built between 16th and 17th century i Renaissance style. Next to it stands 65 meter high Korniakt Tower.
- **Dominican Church** Impressive Baroque temple built for Dominicans in 18th century. Resembles the church of St. Charles Borromeus in Vienna with its concave facade and huge elliptical dome. After WW2 the building served as a warehouse and later Museum of Religion and Atheism, now it is a Greek Catholic parish church.
- **The Bernardine Church and Monastery**
- **Jesuit Church based on Rome's Il Gesu church.**
- **Chapel of the Boim family a mannerist architecture marvel all made of black stone located next to the Latin Cathedral.**
- **Russian Orthodox Cathedral**

Museums:

- **Pharmacy Museum.** The oldest pharmacy in Lviv, opened in 1735 (Sadly the custodian can be extremely impolite, including banging the door behind you.)
- **Museum of the History of Religion.** An interesting museum documenting both Jewish and Christian history of Lviv in one of Lviv's biggest and most beautiful churches.
- **The L'viv Art Gallery.** Divided into several departments the central of which is on display at Potoskiy Palace showing mainly Renaissance and Baroque European art (for Ukrainian art see National Musem). Nearby is the Palace of Arts where changing contemporary art exhibitions take place. Other interesting branches of the Lviv Gallery are the Museum of Ancient Books, Museum of Relics and Pinsel Museum (dedicated to the local Baroque wood carver).
- **The Lviv Historical Museum** divided into many departments most of which are in the old town displaying archeology, history from medieval times up to the Ukrainian struggle for nationalism, as well as jewellery and armoury.
- **Museum of Ethnography and Arts and Crafts.**
- **The Lviv National Museum.** The main building displays Ukrainian Art from the Middle Ages up to the 19th Century. Note that the Lviv Art Gallery mainly shows foreign art in its art collections so if you are more interested in Ukrainian art you should definitely visit this museum.
- **Museum of National Folk Architecture and Rural Life** «Shevchenkivsky Hay». On the central hill about a half-hour walk from the Lychakivskiy Cemetery. This is a collection of wooden buildings from all over Western Ukraine, dismantled and reassembled here; the multi-tiered churches are the most spectacular buildings, and are all still working churches.
- **Arsenal Museum.** Weapons and armour from medieval times to the beginning of 20th century. The museum is located in the oldest (16th century) of three historic arsenal buildings in Lviv.

Landmarks:

- **Lychakivsky Tsvyntar** (Lychakiv Cemetery). There are about four hundred thousand people buried here, including Ukrainian heroes such as Ivan Franko; the park is enormous, and very pleasant to wander around on a network of variously-maintained paths. At the back of the cemetery is The Cemetery of the Defenders of Lwów, a necropolis which honors the Polish war dead from the Battle of Lwów and the 1918-1920 Polish-Soviet War. Destroyed after the Soviet deportation of the city's Poles, it has recently been restored.
- **Union of Lublin mound, High Castle** (Vysokyi zamok); The place where a historic castle used to stand and now stands a mound built in 1869 to commemorate 300th anniversary of Lublin Union. On the mound there is an observation platform with nice views of the city and another sandy mound, which you can also climb, and which has a cross devoted to the dead of the war in Afghanistan. From the mound you can walk around the whole central hill-park of the town.
- **Market Square** (Ploshcha Rynok). You can climb the tower of the town hall: go in via the main entrance, wander about until you see a sign 'вхид на вежу', then follow those signs up 103 steps to a ticket-office and up 305 more steps to the top of the tower. There›s a great view of the Old Town, and this is clearly one of the romantic spots of the city: I saw a marriage-proposal there.
- **Shevchenko Monument**, donated by members of the Argentine Ukrainian diaspora, and absolutely unmistakable in the centre of town; a sculpture of the writer, and a wave-shaped monument with Ukrainian folk-art motifs rising to his side. Sometimes seems to be used by locals as a climbing-wall, but I would advise foreigners against this.
- **Lviv Opera and Ballet National Academic Theatre.** In 1842 the Skarbek Theatre was opened making it the third largest theatre in Central Europe. In 1903 the Lviv National Opera house, which at that time was called the City-Theatre, was opened emulating the Vienna State Opera house. The house initially offered a changing repertoire such as classical dramas in German and Polish language, opera, operetta, comedy and theatre. The opera house is named after the Ukrainian opera diva Salomea Krushelnytska who worked here. Nowadays Lviv Theatre of Opera and Ballet has a large creative group of performers who strive to maintain traditions of Ukrainian opera and classical ballet. The Theatre is a well-organized creative body where over 500 people work towards a common goal. The repertoire includes 10 Ukrainian music compositions. It should be emphasized that no other similar theatre in Ukraine has such a large number of Ukrainian productions. There are also many operas written by foreign composers, and most of these operas are performed in the original language: «Othello», «Aida», «La Traviata», «Nabucco», and «A Masked Ball» by G. Verdi, «Tosca», «La Bohème» and «Madame Butterfly» by G. Puccini, «Cavalleria Rusticana» by P. Mascagni, and «Pagliacci» by R. Leoncavallo (in Italian); «Carmen» by G. Bizet (in French), «The Haunted Manor» by S. Moniuszko (in Polish) [6].
- **Lviv University** (named after Ivan Franko), **Lviv National Polytechnic University.** Lviv University is one of the oldest in Central Europe and was founded as a Society of Jesus (Jesuit) school in 1608. Its prestige greatly increased through

the work of philosopher Kazimierz Twardowski (1866–1938) who was one of the founders of the Lwów-Warsaw School of Logic. This school of thought set benchmarks for academic research and education in Poland. The Polish politician of the interbellum period Stanisław Głąbiński had served as dean of the law department (1889–1890) and as the University rector (1908–1909). In 1901 the city was the seat of the Lwów Scientific Societyamong whose members were major scientific figures. The most well-known were the mathematicians Stefan Banach, Juliusz Schauder and Stanisław Ulam who were founders of the Lwów School of Mathematics turning Lviv in the 1930s into the "World Centre of Functional Analysis" and who's share in Lviv academia was substantial.

In 1852 in Dublany (eight kilometers (5.0 miles) from the outskirts of Lviv) the Agricultural Academy was opened and was one of the first Polish agricultural colleges. The Academy was merged with the Lviv Polytechnic in 1919. Another important college of the interbellum period was the Academy of Foreign Trade in Lwów. In 1873 in Lviv was founded Shevchenko Scientific Society from the beginning it attracted the financial and intellectual support of writers and patrons of Ukrainian background. In 1893 due to the change in its statute the Shevchenko Scientific Society was transformed into a real scholarly multidisciplinary academy of sciences. Under the presidency of the historian, Mykhailo Hrushevsky, it greatly expanded its activities, contributing to both the humanities and the physical sciences, law and medicine, but most specifically once again it was concentrated onto the Ukrainian studies. The Soviet Union annexed the eastern part of Second Polish Republic including the city of Lviv which capitulated to the Red Army on 22 September 1939. Upon their occupation of Lviv, the Soviets dissolved the society. Many of its members were arrested and either imprisoned or executed.

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